

An introduction to Father John Deeney S.J. by Dr. Michael Yorke.



Father Deeney in about 2000. © Eva Reichel.

As you can see Fr. Deeney was a gentle, delightful, hard-working and dedicated Jesuit missionary. He gave his life to his apostolate work among the Ho adivasi tribal people of what was, in the 1970s, south Bihar (nowadays Jharkhand).

Initially, as an anthropologist studying the Ho, I was prejudiced against American missionaries undermining the traditional culture and belief system of a minority people. However Valerie and I soon came to admire Deeney's revisionist and syncretic understanding of the unity between Christianity and the Ho's shamanic belief system.

Deeney then lived in the Chaibasa parish church compound, a few hundred yards from our house. We frequently visited him to discuss details of Ho cultural beliefs and enjoyed the comforts of hot tea and yeast risen bread. He also appointed a young Ho boy to teach me the Ho language.

Deeney's life's work was not just to bring Christian belief and love to the indigenous people, but also to foster a greater understanding of their way-of-life and

creativity.

As Deeney once wrote, *"The question of what word to use for "God" was discussed. The Hos use the term Singbonga for the Creator of all beings, a supreme Spirit. I had read up on the Ho understanding of Singbonga, especially in the Encyclopaedia Mundarica, and I felt that the Ho understanding of Singbonga was pure enough and could be used for "God", so I was pleased when the group on their own, without any prompting by me, opted to use the word Singbonga for God. This was a giant step in inculturation. We were equivalently saying to the Hos that the Supreme Being, Creator of heaven and earth, whom you worship is the same God whom we worship. Of course for our Catholics we further developed the concept of a Trinitarian God."*

His work as a linguist shows his deep affinity with the Ho people. He understood that the structure, syntax and way of conceptualising the world and communicating it to others gives us a deeper comprehension of their intellectual processes. For India the Ho are rare for speaking an Austroasiatic language closely related to the Khmer language of Cambodia. This gives them their own sense of identity living in a largely Indo-Aryan speaking country. Deeney felt this was vital to preserve, given that modern education was based on Hindi, an Indo-Aryan language. He therefore spent much of his energy analysing, promoting, preserving and writing about their indigenous language.

Father Deeney became an important linguist. While he saw his main work to translate the Bible and prayer books, with all their subtleties of meaning, into the Ho language, he also wrote an extensive series of Ho-English and English-Ho Vocabularies and Grammars. Most of them are now out of print. Therefore I am here making these invaluable documents available.

On 21st February, 1991 Deeney was granted Indian Citizenship, a rare honour for a Christian missionary and a matter of great significance for him.

He finally died in January 2010 and was buried with full tribal rituals and honours in Lupungutu, near Chaibasa, Jharkhand, India, his homeland.

HO GRAMMAR

by the Reverend John Deeney, S.J.

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INTRODUCTION

The Ho language is classified as a member of the Austroasiatic language family, which comprises languages spoken especially in Indonesia, Vietnam, Cambodia, Laos, Burma, and various parts of India. Prof. H. J. Pinnow in 1963 gave the following tentative grouping of the languages of this family:

- I. Western Group (Nihali-Munda)
 - A. West: Nihali
 - B. East: Munda
 - 1. North
 - a. Kherwari (Santali, Mundari, Korwa, etc.)
 - b. Korku
 - 2. South
 - a. Central: Kharia, Juang
 - b. South-East: Sora, Gorum, Gutob, etc.
- II. Eastern Group (Khmer-Nicobar)
 - A. West: Nicobarese
 - B. East: Palaung-Khmer
 - 1. West: Khasi
 - 2. North: Palaung-Wa (Palaung, Wa, Riang, Lawa, etc.)
 - 3. East: Mon-Khmer (Mon, Khmer, Bahnar, Sre, etc.)
 - 4. South: Malacca
 - a. Sakai
 - b. Jakud
 - c. Seman ¹

In the above chart Ho would fit in I.B.1.a alongside Mundari which the Ho language closely resembles so that these two languages could practically be considered as dialects of the same language rather than as two separate languages.

In spite of the closeness of Mundari and Ho there is definitely place for a Ho grammar as such. There is some divergence between the two languages in grammar, but considerably more divergence in vocabulary. We indicate some of this in Lesson 48 of this book, but to indicate it in much detail would require many pages of comparative vocabulary which we do not give. When drawing up a Ho dictionary I became aware that there are many hundreds of words used in Ho which are not used in Mundari, and the converse is also true. At times also, although a word is used in both languages, its meaning will vary from one language to the other and sometimes in a way which will cause embarrassment

¹ This scheme is taken from "The Position of the Munda Languages within the Austroasiatic Language Family, in H. L. Shorto, ed., *Linguistic Comparison in South East Asia and the Pacific*, London: School of Oriental and African Studies, pp. 140-152" as given in the abstract in the *International Journal of American Linguistics*, Volume 32, Number 4, Oct. 1966, p. 391. The April 1966 issue of the same journal, p. 165-166 also gives an abstract of an article "Zide, N. H., and D. Stampe, 1964, *The Position of Kharia-Juang in the Munda Family*, read to the American Oriental Society (New York, April 1964)". This article gives a more detailed breakdown of the family tree of the Munda languages than that given in the scheme above. H. J. Pinnow has a very thorough treatment of the verb in the Munda languages in "A Comparative Study of the Verb in the Munda Languages Studies in Comparative Austroasiatic Linguistics, Ed. N. H. Zide, The Hague Indo-Iranian monograph 5, pp. 96-193".

to a speaker if he misuses a term. Some words in everyday use in Mundari are used only in very vulgar contexts in Ho, and the converse is probably true. It is certainly a big advantage to one who will work in the Ho country to learn Ho with full vocabulary and grammar as used in the Ho country, rather than learning through the medium of Mundari, and then having to make innumerable changes.

To some slight extent the Ho spoken in the Northern part of the Ho country more closely resembles Mundari than Ho spoken in the main part of the Kolhan near Chaibasa. In this grammar we give, as the basic norm, the Ho spoken in the Kolhan in the area near Chaibasa, and occasionally in the grammar and vocabulary, we indicate a usage common in the North. In such cases this usage will invariably conform to the Mundari usage.

The build-up of the Ho language is quite different from that of any language of the Indo-European group (Latin, Greek, Sanskrit, Hindi, Bengali, English, etc.). In many ways it is simpler and calls for far less memory than these languages. There is almost perfect regularity, and all grammatical functions are achieved by manipulating markers, which are usually mono-syllabic. There is no gender to worry about, no principal parts of verbs, no declensions of nouns nor conjugations of verbs; the same root is used for a noun, verb, and adjective; all causatives are formed by the same process. Therefore the memory part is much less than in other languages, however gaining ease in organizing the roots and markers into proper grammatical phrases takes much practice and a little patience.

Some characteristic of the Ho language and kindred languages are the following:-

- (1) Unchangeable primary roots which can be used for nouns, verbs, or adjectives.
- (2) Three numbers: singular, dual, and plural.
- (3) Separate forms in the 1st person dual and plural when the person spoken to is included ('we, including you'), and when he is excluded ('we, excluding you').
- (4) A distinction between animate and inanimate beings.
- (5) Absence of relative pronouns accompanied by extensive use of participial forms.
- (6) Use of postpositions rather than prepositions.
- (7) When an animate being is grammatical object indicating this by a marker infixed in the verb.

Altogether there are about 800,000 Ho speakers. Of these about 500,000 live in a compact area of Singhbhum District in Bihar, in which area Ho is in fact the lingua franca and is spoken by about 50,000 non-Hos, who live among the Hos. The other 300,000 Ho speakers live in various parts of Orissa.

Those who gain facility in understanding Ho will find the language a surprisingly apt instrument for expressing delicate shades of meaning. The more I have learned the language the more I have been amazed at its capacity to express succinctly very subtle turns of thought. Of course the language is not equipped for translating works on modern technology nor on other categories with which these mountain and village dwellers have not grappled. But when discussing categories with which Hos deal in their everyday life, the Ho language is a very supple instrument for expression. When I approach the Ho people from a linguistic viewpoint observing the capacity of their language for exact expression as well as the rich poetic content of its songs and prayers, I do not feel that the Hos are in any way a primitive people. The richness of the language has given me an added insight into the deep culture of a people with very delicate refined feelings and sound common sense who through circumstances have been consigned to a role in society which, to many at least, would appear to be less privileged.

Ironically but understandably the worst Ho is spoken by the most educated. With a few notable exceptions their way of thinking, the grammatical structure of their language and even to

some extent their vocabulary, is heavily influenced by Hindi, and the resulting hodge-podge lacks the richness and clarity of the Ho language as spoken by uneducated men and especially women.

Since the Ho language is still very much alive and spoken by so many people a grammar in English seems to be desired. Mr. Burrow's earlier grammar (1915) has been out of print for many years, and although this was an excellent book in many ways, it also had many deficiencies, so it seems better to put out a new grammar rather than merely reprint Burrows.

When preparing this grammar we had at our disposal Burrow's Ho grammar, and also Hoffman's Mundari grammar and the Encyclopaedia Mundarica. In our format and in our wording occasionally we borrow from these works. However, in general the development is quite independent of these works and throughout we have checked all details with present day Ho usage.

Everything in this book has been done with the help of and the constant consultation of Mr. Dhanur Singh Purty of village Karlajur. Mr. Purty has a very sensitive ear for Ho pronunciation and for proper Ho usage. He is now preparing for publication several works about Ho customs and about Ho village life. Also, in conjunction with the Bible Society, he has done much of the basic work of translating the Gospel according to St. Luke into Ho. In this grammar when the plural 'we' is used, e.g., in connection with some decision made about some writing convention, it is invariably used to include both Mr. Purty and myself.

A second person to whom this grammar owes very much is Rev Walter A. Cook, S.J., a professor of linguistics at the School of Linguistics at Georgetown University, Washington, D.C., USA. Father Cook after living among the Mundas and Hos for many years wrote his doctoral dissertation on the Mundari language. When the first draft of the grammar was prepared, he kindly came here to Chaibasa and spent two weeks with me going through all that had been prepared. He gave some very valuable help in terminology as well as in the arrangement of the matter. The development of Lesson 26 on experiential verbs has been drawn up almost entirely by him, as has been much of the section given below in this introduction on vowels and consonants in Ho. On the basis of his suggestions much of the grammar was rewritten. Unfortunately, I have not been able to show him the final draft. Also since the grammar was in an advanced state of preparedness I did not try to incorporate all the wealth of linguistic details which Father Cook explained to me into the grammar. So if linguistic experts should find some terminology inexact they can presume that such terminology has not been cleared through Father Cook. It is hoped that Father Cook will himself put out a Mundari Grammar giving a full linguistic analysis of the language.

SCRIPT

For reasons which I can understand and - with which I can sympathize some Hos would like to have a distinctive Ho script efforts have been made to produce such a script, however, I feel that such aspirations are romantic and unrealistic and actually would impede a wider diffusion of Ho literature and thus accelerate the eventual death of the Ho language. Since tens of thousands of Hos already know the Devanagari script, I feel that it is much more realistic to accept a modified Devanagari script which can be easily assimilated rather than introduce a whole new script. Also, I feel that the survival of Ho, Mundari, and Santali languages as literary languages will be furthered by some mutual support and that mutually unintelligible scripts would frustrate rather than encourage such support. For these reasons in this book, we use the Devanagari script as modified in the ways which we will explain here below. However, in using Devanagari there is one serious limitation which must be well understood by one who would learn the language through a grammar. When using Devanagari script for a language entirely unrelated to Sanskrit and with sounds not used in the Sanskrit language, we decide on what seems to be the closest approximation to the Ho sound and indicate that by

a letter in Devanagri. We adopt the use of Devanagri letters but not the phonetic system corresponding to these letters. The letters give some guidance as to the pronunciation as e.g., in the case of an English word written in Roman script, rather than giving an exact indication as would be true of a Sanskrit word written in Devanagri. Therefore, one cannot argue that since a word is written a certain way, that therefore it must be pronounced a certain corresponding way according to the rules for phonetics for Sanskrit. In general the Devanagri spelling will give a good indication of the pronunciation of a Ho word, but to get the exact pronunciation one must listen to how a Ho pronounces that word.

The use of the Devanagri script as modified in this book is geared for those who have studied enough to be able to read simple Hindi and not for Sanskrit scholars. Some of the conventions given below have been accepted on that basis. E.g., for such people the use of the Sanskrit symbol “s” (ardh a) after an “e” or “o” to indicate a long “ē” or “ō” of a Ho word would be rather distracting and confusing than helpful.

In spite of accepting a modified Devanagri script as the proper script for Ho, and using it in the exercises given in this grammar, for certain practical reasons we have also used the Roman script. We will indicate below what letters are used in Roman for the corresponding letter in Devanagri. In some ways the use of Roman script speeded up the work for me, and some few people may find this more helpful. Ideally it would have been better consistently to put Ho words in Devanagri, but in the interest of accelerating publication we have used Roman as well as Devanagri.

VOWELS IN HO

There are five vowels in Ho: *a e, i, o, u*. Each of these vowels can be:-

- a) long or short
- b) checked (glottalized) or unchecked
- c) nasal or not nasalized

Basically “a” is a low central vowel

“e” is a mid front vowel

“i” is a high front vowel

“o” is a mid back vowel

“u” is a high back vowel

However, the vowel “a” when immediately following a syllable with a high vowel “i/u” seems often to have a thinner higher sound than the ordinary “a” and apparently becomes a mid-central vowel. When first recording words as they sounded to my ear, I was uncertain how to write this sound and at time I wrote it as a short “e”, e.g., writing “mute” (with short mark over the “e”) rather than “muta”, = ‘nose’. Recently I have had further evidence of this sound and discussions with Mr. D. S. Purty and Father John Bodra who have strengthened my convictions that Hos usually pronounce this “a” after a high vowel “i/u” e.g., in the word “miyad”, with higher thinner sound than they would pronounce it in another word e.g, such as “lowa” where the “a” follows a syllable with a mid-vowel. This pronunciation is not as pronounced in Mundari if it exists at all. It is interesting to note that Santali (cf. Bodding’s dictionary) uses a separate letter “a”, to represent the letter “a” in any root which has a high vowel “i/u”. In Ho there seems to be no need to represent this as a separate vowel, since there is a regular pattern for its usage, i.e., it may be used whenever an “a” follows a syllable with the high vowels “i/u”. Burrows in his Ho grammar gave two “a” sounds but I think that he missed the basis of distinction.

a) **Long and short vowels.** In Ho a long vowel sound is the same as a short vowel sound, but it is pronounced for twice as long a time. Length is phonemic in Ho, i.e. the fact that a vowel is long or short can change the meaning of a word, and therefore length of a vowel should be indicated, e.g., in Ho the word for ‘eye’ is “*med*”, (short “*e*”) and the word for ‘iron’ is “*mēd*”, (long *ē*), the root for ‘to eat’ is “*jom*” (short *o*) and this root with a lengthened vowel, i.e. “*jōm*”, means to ‘regularly’ or ‘habitually’ eat (e.g., with the right hand) (cf. Lesson 24).

In this book when using the Roman script to indicate a long vow we use the standard convention putting a long mark over the vowel i.e., *ā, ē, ī, ō, ū*.

When using Devanagri we represent the long vowels “*i*” and “*u*” by using the corresponding long vowel form in Devanagri. For the letters “*e*” and “*o*” which have no long form in Devanagri (at least as usually written in Hindi) we have adopted the convention of indicating a long vowel by putting immediately after the vowel a short stroke slanting up slightly to the right, e.g., “*hō*”, = ‘man’.

There are cases in Ho where long vowels occur as a combination of two short vowels, e.g. when a marker starting with a vowel is affixed to a root ending in a similar vowel then often these combine to form one long vowel. Some examples of this:-

“ <i>bage</i> ”, = ‘leave’	+“ <i>e</i> ” (Lesson 9)	= “ <i>bagē</i> ”
“ <i>tela</i> ”, = ‘receive’	+“ <i>akan</i> ” (Lesson 17A)	= “ <i>telākan</i> ”
“ <i>ako</i> ”, = ‘they’	+“ <i>o</i> ” (Lesson 11)	= <i>akō</i>

We will see two exceptions to this. When the mood marker, “*-a*”, follows another “*a*”, then we get “*a+a*” = “*a:*” (checked “*a*”, cf. Lesson 12, No. 6), and when the 3rd singular subject marker, “*-e:*”, follows another vowel “*e*”, then we get “*e+e:*” = “*e:*” (short checked “*e*”, cf. Lesson 12, No. 8).

b) **Checked and unchecked vowels.** Any vowel, short or long, can be checked (glottalized). To pronounce a checked vowel, one begins to pronounce the vowel and then interrupts the vowel with a glottal catch and then completes the pronunciation of the vowel. In the case of a long vowel the vowel is pronounced for a longer time before the glottal catch.

Glottalization is phonemic in Ho, e.g., there are words where the meaning of the word is changed if a vowel is checked. Some such words are “*seta*” = ‘dog’ and “*seta:*” = ‘morning’; “*goe*” = ‘to wilt’ and “*goe:*” = ‘to kill’; “*la*”, ‘to strike with a slanting motion of a thin long object’, and “*lā:*” = ‘to exceed’.

In this book we represent checked vowels by using a colon (:) immediately after the checked vowel. In Devanagri we use the corresponding symbol which happens to be the visarg. In this case the reader should realize clearly that this is used as a convention and does not have the same function as the Hindi visarg. In the case of a word ending in a checked short vowel “*a*” we do not write the vowel in Devanagri.

Checked vowels when followed by other vowels especially by other checked vowels either lose their check (e.g., “*ae:+a:*” = “*aya*” cf. Lesson 2) or else have the check sound diminished. Mr. D. S. Purty prefers to keep the check mark in most cases. He contends that some check sound is heard. Also, it helps the reader to identify the root if the check written.

In some cases when the mood marker “*-a*” follows a long-checked vowel, the check is transferred from the original vowel to the mood marker “*-a*”, e.g.:-

“*tundū:*” (passive of “*tundu*”, ‘to end’)

“*ādū:*” (passive of “*adu*”, ‘to lower’)

“*tō:*” (passive of “*to:*”, ‘to hit’)

+a = “*tundū:wa*” / “*tundūwa:*”

+a = “*ādū:wa*” / “*ādūwa:*”

+a = “*tō:wa*” / “*tōwa*”

This transfer of the check sound seems to occur only in such word, as given above, where in the passive form a long “*ō:*” or “*ū:*” occurs before the mood marker “-a”. In other cases it does not occur, e.g.:-

“*seno:*” (‘to go away’)

+a = “*seno:wa*” (not “*senowa:*”)

“*huju:*” (‘to come’)

+a = “*huju:wa*” (not “*hujuwa:*”)

There are certain cases when a checked vowel “e:” or “i:” when precede by another vowel changes to “j” when a marker starting with a vowel affixed, e.g.:-

“goe:+o:” = “gojo:”

“goe:+i” = “gojī”

“goe:+en” = “gojen”

“ui:+en” = “ujen”

“repoe:+o:” = “repojo:”

c) **Nasalized and not nasalized vowels** -Any vowel, short or long. checked or unchecked, can be nasalized in Ho.

We represent nasalization in Roman script by putting the tild (~) over the nasalized vowel, e.g., “ã”. If the vowel is also checked we put the checked sign after this. Since in Roman script the press cannot indicate both a long and a nasalized vowel, if the vowel is long we put the tild over the vowel and then indicate in brackets that the vowel is long, e.g., “rãsa” (ã long), = ‘joy’. In Devanagri we put the dot (anuswar) above the nasalized vowel (or consonant when a short “a” is understood). Later in discussing consonants we will see that there are other cases where we use the dot (anuswar) in Devanagri and use the letter ‘n’ in Roman. Some examples of nasalized vowels:-

meaning of word	Roman	Devanagri
embankment	āri	?
hoof	hã (ã long)	?
yoke	ār (ã long)	?
victim	dāe	?
a diviner	dāwa	?
lac	ē (ē long)	?
a wave	chēl (ē long)	?
a swallow (bird)	hē: (ē long)	?
feather	īyal	?
to scent (smell)	jī (ī long)	?
a foul smell	sī: (ī long)	?
stop (exclamation)	hō	?
goose	hō:so	?
thirty	dōsi (ō long)	?
to waver	dūl (ū long)	?
to hiss	sū (ū long)	?

No diphthongs - In general we can say that there are no diphthongs in Ho. Two vowels juxtaposed normally retain their independent sounds and this is at times quite clearly heard, although when one speaks fast the two sounds may seem to fuse into one sound. E.g., the word “bai” = ‘to make’ should be written as ? not ? in Devanagri. Each of the two vowels is independent and each is capable of being lengthened e.g., to represent an habitual way of acting we would write “bāi and the root “bai+” the inanimate object marker “-e” gives “baī (see below). In like manner for “dai”, = ‘be able’ we should write “iṭi Devanagri and for “paiti” = ‘to work’ we should write “????”. For the word “au” = ‘to bring’ we should write “?????” in Devanagri. In this case also each of the two vowels can be lengthened e.g., for an habitual action “au” (“????”) and for a passive action aū: (“?????”) (= “au+o:”, cf. below). The Devanagri letters (“?”) and “????” (?) should not be used at all when writing Ho in Devanagri.

Vowel Harmony in Ho

From the viewpoint of vowels used we can get three types of roots in Ho:-

- high roots, which use the high vowels “i” and “u” (which are pronounced high in the mouth), but not “e” and “o”. The vowel “a” may occur with these.
- low roots, which use the low vowels “e” and “o” (which are pronounced low in the mouth), but not “i” and “u”. The vowel “a” may occur with these.
- neutral roots which occur with only the vowel “a”.

Except for some rare exceptions (e.g., “*esu*” = ‘very’ which has an alternate form “*isu*”) Ho roots do not combine the high vowels “*i*” and “*u*” with the low vowels “*e*” and “*o*”, consequently in borrowed words Ho tends to adjust the vowel sound to fit this vowel harmony, e.g., the Hindi “*pothi*”, = ‘book’ would be rendered as “*puti*” in Ho.

When markers are affixed to roots often changes take place in the vowel of the marker or occasionally of the final vowel of the preceding root in order to conform to this harmony. In every such case a low root vowel “*e/o*” is changed to a high root vowel “*i/u*”. We give some examples of these changes here. It is to be noted that this often causes two like vowels to come together forming one long vowel. To make this clearer the uncombined form will be put in brackets).

<i>en</i> = ‘that’	+ <i>king</i> (Lesson 4)	<i>inking</i>
<i>ne</i> = ‘this’	+ <i>kin</i> (Lesson 4)	<i>niking</i>
<i>hatu</i> = ‘village’	+ <i>ete</i> (Lesson 5)	<i>hatuite</i>
<i>hasu</i> = ‘sick’	+ <i>o</i> : (Lesson 8)	<i>hasū</i> : (<i>hasu-u</i> :)
<i>kaji</i> = ‘say’	+ <i>e</i> (Lesson 9)	<i>kajī</i> (<i>kaji-i</i>)
<i>agu</i> = ‘bring’	+ <i>e</i> (Lesson 7)	<i>agui</i>
<i>tore</i> = ‘shoot’	+ <i>i</i> (Lesson 10)	<i>torī</i> (<i>tori-i</i>)
<i>abu</i> = ‘we’ (incl. pl.)	+ <i>o</i> (Lesson 10)	<i>abū</i> (<i>abu-u</i>)
<i>hatu</i> = ‘village’	+ <i>e</i> : (Lesson 12)	<i>hatui</i> :
<i>uli</i> = ‘mango’	+ <i>e</i> : (Lesson 12)	<i>ulī</i> : (<i>uli-i</i>)□

We will indicate such changes in the grammar as they occur. When two full roots are juxtaposed, such changes do not take place.

Insertion of the *y*-glide and *w*-glide

The vowels “*e*” and “*i*” are pronounced in the front of the mouth and can be referred to as front vowels. The vowels “*o*” and “*u*” are pronounced in the back of the mouth and can be referred to as back vowels. The vowel “*a*” is pronounced in the centre of the mouth and is referred to as a central vowel. The letter “*y*” (*y*-glide) is used as a transitional sound from a front vowel, “*e/i*”, to a central vowel, “*a*”, or a back vowel, “*o/u*”. The letter “*w*” (*w*-glide) is used as a transitional sound from a back vowel, “*o/u*”, to a central vowel, “*a*”.

In Ho we can sum up the rules for the use of the *y*-glide and *w*-glide as follows: (Here I follow entirely the ear and the writing convention of Mr. D. S. Purty.)

From a front vowel, *e/i*, to a central vowel, *a*, a *y*-glide is used from a front vowel, “*e/i*”, to a back vowel, “*o/u*”, a *y*-glide is used (e.g. “*leya*”, “*apiya*”, “*leyon*”, “*giyu*:”. Exceptions are a few 3-syllable roots such as “*diur*”, “*tiuli*”, and “*beola*” where no glide would be used) from a back vowel, “*o/u*”, to a central vowel, “*a*”, a *w*-glide is used from a back vowel, “*o/u*”, to a front vowel, “*e/*”, no glide is used (e.g., “*owa*:”, “*huwa*:”... but “*o:e*”, “*mui*” from a central vowel, “*a*”, to a front vowel, “*e/i*”, no glide is used from a central vowel, “*a*”, to a back vowel, “*u*”, no glide is used from a central vowel, “*a*”, to a back vowel, “*o*”, either no glide is used more commonly a *w*-glide is used, in which case if the “*o*” is unchecked and not followed by a consonant; it is usually absorbed into the *w*-glide (“*ae*:”, “*bai*”, “*bau*...*gao/gaw*”. There are a few words ending in “*ae*” which can take a *y*-glide absorbing the vowel, “*e*”, e.g. “*hae*”/“*hay*”, “*sae-jan*”/“*say-jan*”).

Such glides can be used in roots (as in the examples given above) or can be inserted when a marker starting with a vowel is affixed to root or another marker ending in a vowel, e.g.:-

"asi", = 'request'	+a (Lesson 12)	= "asiya"
"bage", = 'leave'	+a (Lesson 12)	= "bageya"
"bage", = 'leave'	+o: (Lesson 8)	= "bageyo:"
"bugi", = 'good, well'	+o: (Lesson 8)	= "bugiyo:"
"ako", = 'they'	+a: (Lesson 2)	= "akowa:"
"abu", = 'we' (incl. pl.)	+a: (Lesson 2)	= "abuwa:"
"jo", = 'fruit'	+e: (Lesson 12)	= "jōe:"
"agu", = 'bring'	+i (Lesson 10)	= "agui"
"tela", = 'receive'	+e (Lesson 9)	= "telae"
"tela", = 'receive'	+i (Lesson 10)	= "telai"
"tela", = 'receive'	+o: (Lesson 8)	= "telawo:"
"seta", = 'dog'	+o (Lesson 11)	= "setawō/setaw"

Some scholars of the Mundari language prefer not to write the glides in examples such as given above. They argue that even if they are not written one would instinctively pronounce them. If I was working only in the Roman medium I might agree, but I have had many different Hos writing Ho for me over the last twenty years and I have noticed that when writing Ho in Devanagari they invariably write the glides. Apparently, they find this a more natural way to write Ho, and I feel that writing the glides in Devanagari also helps the reader. Perhaps the pronunciation is smoother and the glides pronunciation is clearer in Ho than in Mundari. Since in this book Devanagari is considered the basic script and Roman merely a letter by letter transcription of the Devanagari, glides are used throughout according to the rules given above. To one who becomes accustomed to using glides they normally present no difficulties.

Often when a glide is introduced a previous vowel sound is absorbed into the glide sound, e.g.:-
 "rika+e+a" gives not "rikaeya", but "rikaya" (e absorbed).
 "boro+e+a" gives not "boroeya", but "boroya" (e absorbed).
 "mena:iya, = 'he is present' (Lesson 18) can be pronounced and written either "mena:iya" or "mena:ya". Likewise "ema:iyako" = 'they gave to him' could give either "ema:iyako" or "ema:yako". In these cases, in the second form, the vowel i, has been absorbed.

There are many roots which have glides in them, but which do not seem to follow the rules for the insertion of glides as given above. This is because these roots initially had a vowel which was absorbed. The Encyclopaedia Mundarica writes such words in Mundari with the original vowel and not with the glide.

Encycl. Mund.	+ glide	vowel absorbed
"hoeo", 'air'	"hoeyo"	"hoyo" (e absorbed)
"aium", 'to hear'	"aiyum"	"ayum" (i absorbed)
"uiiu", 'to wrap around'	"uiyu"	"ityu" (i absorbed)
"deōra" (deōa), 'diviner'	"deōwa"	"dēwa" (o absorbed)

(In the last examples Ho would drop the letter *r*, hence we put the form without *r* in brackets).

Can three vowels occur in a row in Ho without a glide being expressed? Yes, but rarely. Following the rules given above for glides in the word "gāui:" no glide occurs, and in fact I have noted that Hos invariably write this word as such, giving no glide. "Tāui:" and "rāui:" would likewise be written without a glide. I have come across no other words where three vowels would be written consecutively without the presence of a glide.

CONSONANTS IN THE HO LANGUAGE

First we give here a chart of the consonants used in Ho in which we give the Devanagari letter as well as the corresponding Roman equivalent.

(I do not have Devanagari alphabet on my computer. Therefore this table is omitted.)

The symbols used above in Roman for the nasals correspond exactly to those used in Santali. For the Devanagari letter for “ch” we use “ch” rather than “c” since this more accurately represents the pronunciation and since Ho has no aspirates we will not get the cumbersome form “chh”.

Of the consonants given in the chart all may occur as the first letter of a root except . *ń*, *ñ*, *r*, and the two glides *y* and *w*.

Loan words which start with the letter *w* in the original language start with a vowel or a.b in Ho, e.g., :-

Hindi		Ho
“wakil”	‘a lawyer’	“ukil”
“wajan”	‘weight’	“ojon”
“wāsh”	‘ancestral line’	“bōs”

Loan words which start with the letter ‘y’ in the original language start with a “j” in Ho, e.g. :-

Hindi		Ho
“yogī”	= ‘an ascetic’	“jugī”
“yug”	= ‘an era’	“jūgu”
“yatra”	= ‘a pilgrimage’	“jatara”

Of the letters given above all may stand in the middle of a word except “h”, which in Ho is used only as the first letter of a word. A loan word having a mid-vowel “h” in Hindi would have a long vowel in Ho, e.g., from Hindi “mahajan”, = ‘a money lender’, we get Ho “mājom”. Normally a Ho root does not have “ń” nor “ñ” in medial position (I have found only the word “tañan”, = ‘apart’), however these letters can come in a medial position in a word by the addition of a marker, e.g., “ańa: (an+a:)”, = ‘my’, “gonońan” (“gonoń+an”), = ‘valuable’.

Ho roots when not ending in a vowel usually end in one of the following consonants: *l*, *m*, *n*, *ń*, *ñ*, *r*, *b*, *d*. Ho words do not end in the letter *h*, rarely in the letters *p*, *r*, *d*, *t*, and except for loan words not in the letters *k*, *g*, *ch*, *j*, or *s*. When a loan word ends in a consonant with which a Ho word does not usually end, the vowel preceding the consonant is usually re-echoed after the consonant, or in the case of the vowel “ā” preceding the consonant the vowel “o” is placed after the consonant in the Ho word, e.g. :-

Hindi		Ho
“bis”	= ‘poison’	“bisi”
“yug”	= ‘era’	“jūgu or “jūg”
“rajya”	= ‘kingdom’	“rājo” or “rāj”
“pāp”	= ‘sin’	“pāpo” or “pāp”
“thīk”	= ‘proper’	“tīki”
“sukh”	= ‘pleasure’	“suku”

Such echoing vowel sounds are used especially when followed by another marker, e.g., even if “dūt” would be used in Ho for ‘angel’, when followed by the possessive marker, “-a:”, it would become

“*dūtuwa*: (echoing the vowel “*u*” before the “*-a*”: marker).

In Ho aspirated consonants are not used except in the case of loan words by those who can pronounce them. Also no word begins or ends with two consonants (consonant clusters). The pronunciation of loan words containing such consonant clusters will be readjusted by a Ho speaker who is not familiar with Hindi pronunciation, e.g. the name ‘Pradhan’ will be pronounced “*Pardan*”.

It is possible to have a medial consonant cluster, i.e., to have one syllable end in a consonant and the following syllable start in a consonant, e.g., “*hambal*”, = ‘heavy’; “*sengel*”, = ‘fire’. In such cases when the first syllable ends in a consonant with which a root normally does not end, there is an alternate spelling echoing the vowel which precedes the consonant ending the prior syllable, e.g., :-

“ <i>maskal</i> ” or “ <i>masakal</i> ”	= ‘light’
“ <i>eskar</i> ” or “ <i>esekar</i> ”	= ‘alone’
“ <i>dipli</i> ” or “ <i>dipili</i> ”	= ‘time’
“ <i>noskan</i> ” or “ <i>nosokan</i> ”	= ‘harm’
“ <i>tutkun</i> ” or “ <i>tutukun</i> ”	= ‘cold’

This phenomenon is not found when the final letter of the prior syllable is *l*, *m*, *n*, or *r*. When the final letter of the prior syllable is “*d*”, this is normally checked (giving a sound closer to the voiceless “*t*”), e.g., “*edka*” = ‘bad’, and “*chadlom*” = ‘tail’.

There are some consonants which have variant pronunciation when placed in a particular position in a word. Since these are regularly so pronounced when in that given position there is no need to indicate this variant pronunciation in the letter as written.

When the letters “*b*” or “*d*”, are at the end of a word or immediately preceding another consonant in a word the sound is checked or cut short, and in the case when these are at the end of a word there is a slight post-nasalization giving a slight “*n*” sound after “*d*”, and a very light “*m*” sound after “*b*”. In writing in Roman script we represent this neither for *b* nor for *d*. In Devanagari we do not indicate this for “*b*” but after the letter *l*, we place the halant (since this is an existing sign which, although it does not exactly represent the pronunciation desired, does give some help to the reader).

The letter “*n*” takes the following changes in pronunciation:-

it is pronounced “*ñ*” before “*k*” or “*g*”, e.g., “*eñga*”

it is pronounced “*ñ*” before “*ch*” or “*j*”, e.g., “*bañji*”

it is pronounced “*n*” before “*t*” or “*d*”, e.g., “*mindī*”

Therefore the “*n*” follows the characteristic of the consonant which it precedes, cf. chart of consonants. For one familiar with the order of letters in the Devanagari alphabet these are easy to remember. However, to facilitate writing we represent all of these as “*n*” in the Roman script, and according to a now common convention we represent them all with the dot (anuswar) in the Devanagari script

meaning	pronunciation	written as
‘sheep’	“ <i>mindī</i> ”	“ <i>mindī</i> ”
‘barren’	“ <i>bañji</i> ”	“ <i>bañji</i> ”
‘mother’	“ <i>eñga</i> ”	“ <i>enga</i> ”

Another consonant with a variant pronunciation is the letter “*ñ*”. When followed by a vowel it receives a fuller “*ñ*” sound, e.g., in a word such as “*aña*.” = ‘my’ or “*hatiñeme*”, = ‘you’ (sg.) divide it’. However, when not followed by a vowel, e.g., “*añ*” = ‘I’, “*hatiñ*” ‘divide’, the sound is somewhat curtailed and some would rather write the letter “*n*” rather than “*ñ*” in such cases, e.g., they would write “*hatiñ*” = ‘divide’. I found opinions divided on this and in fact this was the most controversial point to settle in determining what letters to use in Devanagari to represent the Ho sounds. Finally, I felt that the weight of opinion, including that of Mr. D. S. Purty, was in favour of using the letter “*ñ*” in such cases. The reader then knows that this symbol receives its fuller

pronunciation when followed by a vowel, but that the pronunciation is modified when at the end of a root. Here as in everything else one must listen to and imitate the Ho speaker. In using this convention, we follow exactly the Santali convention, which for the word 'divide', has the form "*hatiñ*". An interesting word pair found both in Ho and Santali is the following:-

word meaning	Ho	Santali
'father' (vocative)	" <i>apuñ</i> "	" <i>apuñ</i> "
'my father'	" <i>apuñ</i> "	" <i>apuñ</i> "

Exercises

Especially in the earlier lessons of this book we give exercises. These were prepared especially to be used by a teacher and one or several pupils, and hence are often put in the form of a question or a statement and a response to this. For the sake of those who will be studying or reviewing the exercises without a teacher, the exercises are put in double columns so that one may cover one column and try to translate from the other column. More exercises throughout the book would probably have been more helpful, but in the interest of saving expense and getting the book on the market quicker the number- of exercises was curtailed.

HO-ENGLISH VOCABULARY

Ho has no dictionary. The Encyclopedia Mundarica can to some extent remedy the deficiency, but that is bulky, hard to obtain, and for Ho words often inadequate, either giving nothing for a Ho word, or often giving a definition different than the current Ho usage. This vocabulary will I hope be the first step towards the preparation of a Ho-English dictionary. This is by no means a dictionary, but a vocabulary giving the basic meaning of about 3,000 Ho words. A fuller dictionary is in preparation and it is hoped that it will be printed about one year from now. In this vocabulary I do not usually distinguish active, passive, transitive and intransitive usages. One quickly gets a sense of these without having to go into detail.

In the Ho-English vocabulary I have interspersed the "*d*" and "*ḍ*" letters, as well as the "*t*" and "*ṭ*" letters, instead of first putting all words starting with "*d*" and then after that all words starting with "*ḍ*", etc. This might appear to be unscientific to scholars, but it may be helpful at times since in some words such as "*tai*" (*tai*), "*tuti*" (*tuti*), and "*danda:*" (*danda:*) the dental is used in some parts of the Ho country whereas it is- not used in other places,

ENGLISH-HO VOCABULAR

English-Ho Vocabulary -This is a vocabulary giving the Ho words for about 2,300 English words. Although in general only the basic terms are given efforts have been made to distinguish when necessary various aspects of the English term given. For certain practical reasons efforts have not been made to co-ordinate this entirely with the Ho-English vocabulary, so Ho words which are not found in the Ho-English vocabulary are given here as the meaning of English words. Of course all such Ho terms will be found in the Ho-English dictionary which is being prepared.

XAVIER HO PUBLICATIONS

This is the first book published by the Xavier Ho Publications). Soon they will be publishing a Ho-English dictionary as well as a series of books in Ho on Ho and manner of life by Mr. Dhanur Singh Purty. Hopefully works in Ho will be published by this group in the coming years. The works Mr. D. S. Purty will all be in the modified Devanagiri script with the conventions explained in this grammar. One work already printed which is in this script with all the same conventions is the Gospel cording to St. Luke published by the Bible Society of India available from the Bible House in Ranchi or from the Xavier Publications at the address given in this book.

Let me end this introduction with a few words of thanks to those who have helped me with this work in any way. Especially I would like to thank my companions in Chaibasa who generously took extra burdens upon themselves so that I could be free to finish this work. Also I would like to thank in a special way Father Edward H. Nash, S.J., who several times gave generously of his time in helping to draw up the English-Ho vocabulary and in checking through the manuscript

Lesson 1 - Personal Pronouns

As indicated above there is a dual (two people) form as well as a singular and plural. Also, there is an exclusive (excluding; the one spoken to) as well as an inclusive (including the one spoken to) dual and plural, therefore there are eleven pronoun forms.

Since this is an important part of the language it seems wise to master this first.

	<u>1st Person</u>	<u>2nd Person</u>	<u>3rd Person</u>
Singular	“aing” (I)	“am” (you)	“ae:” (he or she)
Dual	“alang” (you and I) “aling” (he and I)	“abe”n (you-two)	“aking” (they-two)
Plural	“abu” (you all & I)	“ape” (you all)	“ako” (they all)

The enclitic “do” is often attached to a word (especially often to pronouns) to indicate some special contrast or stress. E.g., “How are you? I am fine. Yourself?” Here in Ho “yourself” would be translated “amdo”. The proper use of this word (usually untranslatable) will be gotten by usage.

Exercise: In the first exercise we introduce the interrogative “who?” In Ho this is “okoe” if referring to one person, “okoetiking” if referring to two persons, and “okoeteko” if referring to three or more persons. Just for the sake of forming sentences we introduce “is/are sitting, - standing, - coming”. These forms will be explained later.

Lesson 2 - Possessive personal pronouns.

Personal Pronouns form the possessive by adding “a:” to the pronoun. Following the scheme given in lesson 1 we get:-

singular	“ainga:”	“ama:”	“aya:”
dual	“alanga:” “alinga:”	“abena:”	“akinga:”
plural	“abuwa:” “aleya:”	“apeya:”	“akowa”

After a final “u” or “o” of the pronoun a euphonic w (very slightly pronounced) has been inserted before the “a:”. After a final e of the pronoun a euphonic ‘y’ has been inserted, the form “ae:a:” becoming “aya”.

Exercise: Here we introduce the use of “what?” when referring to an inanimate being, = *chikana:?*. Also, we introduce “this” (*ne* or *nen*), that (*en*); “this thing” (*nen* or *neya*), “that thing” (*ena*) and the use of *chi* for questions. In questions which have no expressed interrogatory pronoun (“what?” or “who?”, etc.) we may express the question by putting “chi” at the end of the sentence. Sometimes the question is indicated merely by the inflection of the voice without expressing “chi” at all at the end of the sentence.

Lesson 3 - the imperative of intransitive verbs.

The imperative of intransitive verbs is formed simply by affixing the pronoun signs “*me*” = you: (singular), “*ben*” = ‘you-two’ (dual), or “*pe*” = ‘you-all’ (plural) to the verb root.

e.g. “*hujū:me*” = ‘you come’. “*seno:ben*” = ‘you-two go’. “*dubpe*” = ‘you-all sit’.

Exercise: Here we introduce the use of the postpositions “*te*” = to, “*re*” = in or on, and “*ēte*” = from. (The first vowel of “*ēte*” undergoes some phonetic changes. After a consonant this vowel is long, “*nenēte*”; after a vowel it is short, “*owa:ete*”; after a “*u*” it becomes a short “*i*” “*ganduīte*”; after an “*i*” it may combine with that “*i*” to form one long “*ī*”, e.g., after root “*horlosi*”, “*horlosite*”, but e.g., after “*tī*” where the “*i*” is already long “*tiēte*” would also be used; after an “*e*” it may combine with that “*e*” to form one long “*e*”, “*oēte*”; after an “*o*” it may remain short “*e*” or a euphonic “*y*” may be introduced in which case we get “*yate*”, e.g., “*hōkoete*”, “*hōkoyate*”.

We also introduce the words to express ‘here’, ‘there’, and ‘where?’. Those concepts are expressed by adding “*re*,” “*te*”, or “*ete*” to “*nen (ne)*”; “*en*”, or “*okon*” depending on the meaning. In English we could say “I am going there,” meaning “toward that place”. In Ho we would here use “*ente*” for there. In English we could say “I put the book there” meaning “in that place”. In Ho we would here use “*enre*” for there. - In all those forms between the *nen (en, okon)* and the *to (re, ēte)* may insert “*ta:*” indicating an exact place, or “*pā*” indicating an approximate place. Therefore, we get the following: -

“ <i>nente</i> ” - (to) here	“ <i>nenre</i> ” - (in) here	“ <i>nenēte</i> ” - from here
“ <i>ente</i> ” - (to) there	“ <i>enre</i> ” - (in) there	“ <i>enēte</i> ” - from there
“ <i>okonte?</i> ” - (to) where?	“ <i>okonre?</i> ” - (in) where?	“ <i>okonēte?</i> ” - from where?
“ <i>nenta:te</i> ” - to this exact place (9 forms are given above).		
“ <i>nenpāte</i> ” - to this approximate place (9 forms are given above).		

To me (motion towards) would be “*aingta:te*”, and to him = “*ae:ta:te*” etc. After pronouns this “*ta:*” form is frequently used.

Lesson 4 – Animate and Inanimate nouns.

Although there is no grammatical gender in Ho. The distinction between the animate and inanimate objects must be carefully attended to. Animate beings comprise only those beings which are endowed with animal or intellectual life; hence plants are treated as inanimate objects. Secondly the celestial bodies, as sun, moon, the stars, and the natural phenomena such as rain, hail, etc. are animate beings.

Nouns denoting animate beings have three numbers singular, dual, and plural.

The singular is the bare root.

“*hō*” = ‘a man’

The dual is formed by adding *king* to the root.

“*hōking*” = ‘two men’

The plural is formed by adding *ko* to the root.

“*hōko*” = ‘many men’

Nouns denoting animate objects may also form the dual by adding “*king*” to the root, and the plural by adding “*ko*” to the root. However, in the case of inanimates the mere root may be used to form the dual and the plural.

Exercise: For this lesson we give no exercise since this can be more fruitfully done in connection with lessons 5 and 6.

Lesson 5 – imperative, - transitive, - inanimate object.

Transitive verbs may have direct or indirect objects denoting animate or inanimate beings. - When a transitive verb has for its direct object a noun or pronoun denoting some inanimate object the vowel “o” must be inserted between the root and the pronominal affix of the imperative. This must be done whether or not the object has been expressed, e.g. “*jomeme*” “*en jō jomeme*”. - (The “e” undergoes some phonetic changes: - after a “u” it becomes “i”, e.g., “*aguime*”; after an “i”, after an “e” the two “e”s combine to form one long “ī”, e.g., root “*kaji*” gives “*kajīme*”, after an “e” the two “e”s come together to become one long “ē,” e.g., “*bage*” becomes “*bagēme*”).

Exercise: Here we introduce some transitive verbs and some inanimate nouns. No other new concept is introduced into this exercise.

Lesson 6 – imperative, - transitive, - 3rd person animate object.

When the verb takes a direct object, 3rd person, animate, - whether this object is separately or not in Ho, to form the imperative: -

- 1) if the object is sing., we insert an “i” between the root and the pronoun affix.
- 2) “ “ “ “ dual, “ “ “*king*” “ “ “ “ “ “ “ “ .
- 3) “ “ “ “ plur., “ “ “*ko*” “ “ “ “ “ “ “ “ .

E.g. Singular = *nelime*. Dual = *nelkingme*. Plural = *nelkome*. (i.e., obj. singular, etc.)

After both “i” and “ko”, the pronoun affix “me” may be shortened to “m”, e.g. “*nelīm*”. Dual “*nelkingme*” Plural “*nelkome*”.

This long “ī” inserted in the singular become a short “i” after a vowel. After an “i” these two i’s combine into one long “ī”. e.g., root “*asi*” gives “*asīme*”. After an “e” the “e” and “i” combine into one long “i”, e.g., “*torīme*”.

Exercise:

Here we introduce: -	singular	dual	plural
this one (animate)	“ <i>ni</i> ”	“ <i>niking</i> ”	“ <i>neko</i> ”
that one (animate)	“ <i>ini:</i> ”	“ <i>inking</i> ”	“ <i>enko</i> ”
what one (animate)	“ <i>chikani:</i> ”	“ <i>chikanking</i> ”	“ <i>chikanko</i> ”
this one (inanimate)	“ <i>nenā (neya)</i> ”	“ <i>nenā(neya)king</i> ”	“ <i>nenā(neya)ko</i> ”
that one (inanimate)	“ <i>enā</i> ”	“ <i>enaking</i> ”	“ <i>enako</i> ”
what one (inanimate)	“ <i>chikana:</i> ”	“ <i>chikana:king</i> ”	“ <i>chikana:ko</i> ”

These above forms are all substantives (nouns). As adjectives we use “ne” or “en” on “*chikana*” e.g. those children = “*en honko*”. These stones = “*ne diri(ko)*”

We also introduce here the numbers one, two, and three. “*Miyad*” has alternate forms “*mid*” and “*mi*”. “*Baria*” has a short form “*bar*”, and “*apeya*” also has a short form “*ape*”. The uses of these short forms will be explained in a later lesson (lesson 29).

We also introduce two more postpositions, “*lo:*” or “*lo:te*” meaning with (accompaniment), and “*te*” meaning by means of, or with (instrumentality)

From the root “*goe*” = to kill, besides the form “*goi:me*” (or “*goe:ime*”, there is also the form “*gojīme*”.

Lesson 7 – imperative, - transitive, - 1st person animate object.

In lesson 6 we explained the imperative when there is a third person (sing., dual, plural) animate object? - Second person object will usually give us a reflexive verb, about which the next lesson will treat. Now we will explain the imperative with or we (dual or plural) as direct object.

For this we will insert “ing”, “lang”, “ling”, “bu” or “le” between the root and before the “me”, “ben” or “pe”.

e.g.	“banchawingme”	‘save me
	“banchawlangme”	‘save yourself and me’
	“banchawlingme”	‘save him and me’
	“banchawbum”	‘save us (including yourself)’
	“banchawlem(e)”	‘save us (excluding yourself)’

(N.B. After “bu” “me” becomes “m”; or remains “me”).

In like manner we can get: -

“banchawingben”	‘You two save me’
“banchawingpe”	‘you all save me’

etc. – here we introduce “o” affixed to any word meaning also. If the letter preceding this “o” is an “o” these two letters may combine to form one “ō”, e.g., “ako” + “ō” = “akō”; if the preceding letter is “u” this “u” + “o” may be combined into one long “ū”, e.g. “abu” + “ō” = “abū”, if the preceding letter is an “e” or an “i” a euphonic “y” is introduced between this letter and “ō” e.g. “ale” + “ō” = “aleyō”. If the preceding letter is an “a” a euphonic “w” is introduced, e.g., “seta” + “o” = “setawo”.

Lesson 8 – imperative, - reflexive.

When an action is performed for, or to, oneself (i.e., an action in which the subject and the direct object are identical) we use a special reflexive form. In this case for the imperative we add “n” to the root if the root ends in a vowel and (en) to the root if the root ends in a consonant. Then the subject signs “me”, “ben”, “pe” follow. e.g.: -

“tam”	- ‘hit’	“tamime”	- ‘him hit’	“tamenme”	- ‘hit yourself’
“ora”	- ‘bathe’	“hon oraime”	- ‘bathe the child’	“oranme”	- ‘bathe yourself’
“hapa”	- ‘quiet’	“hapakom”	- ‘quiet them’	“hapanme”	- ‘shut up’
“uta”	- ‘get up’	“utaingme”	- ‘get me up’	“utanme”	- ‘get (yourself) up’
“goe:”	- ‘kill’	“goe:kingme”	- ‘kill them-2’	“goe:nme”	- ‘kill yourself’
“banchaw”	- ‘save’	“banchawbum”	- ‘save all of us’	“banchawonme”	- ‘save yourself’
“eto”	- ‘teach’	“etolem”	- ‘teach us’	“etonme”	- ‘teach yourself’ (learn)

(the “aw” sound of “banchaw” is equivalent to a vowel sound, therefore “n” is really added to that sound, rather than “en” in the reflexive “banchawen”)

Reflexive are sometimes subtle and must be acquired by observing their usage, e.g., for the root “sab” we get “saben” = ‘to support oneself by holding onto something’. In general, however the concept and usages of the reflexive are simple enough and this presents no difficulties to the learner.

Exercise: - No new supplementary concepts are introduced into this exercise.

Lesson 9 – imperative, - indirect object.

There cases where the indirect object would be used in Ho correspond fairly closely to the cases where we have ‘to’ (expressed or understood) and ‘for’ in English. However, there are words which take direct

object in English and indirect object in Ho, and vice versa, e.g., in Ho “*jowar*” – greet usually takes indirect object, e.g., “*jowaraingme*” = ‘greet him’. “*Ayum*” (listen to, or hear) takes direct object in Ho. “*Ayumingme*” = ‘listen to me’.

Any word which would normally take a direct object can take an indirect object in cases where in English we would use ‘for’, e.g., ‘make a house for us’ = “*owa: baialom*”. ‘For’ can also be expressed by a post-positives “*lagid(te)*” or “*mente*”. In that case we could say “*ale(ya:) lagid owa: baime*”.

To form the indirect object within a verb we insert “*a*” + short personal pronoun (*a+ing*, *a+m*, *a+i*, *a+lang*, *a+ling*, *a+ben*, *a+king*, *a+bu*, *a+le*, *a+pe*, *a+ko*) between the root and the subject signs “*me*”, “*ben*” and “*pe*”. E.g., “*emaingme*” = ‘give (it) to me’; “*emakope*” = ‘you all give (it) to them’.

Since this is placed in the same place where the direct object would be inserted both cannot be used simultaneously. When a sentence contains both a direct and an indirect object it is usually more idiomatic to insert the indirect object sign in the verb, e.g., “*nenkitab emakom*” = ‘Give them this book’. “*Kajiyaime*” = ‘Tell (it to) him’. An alternative, less commonly used, way of expressing an indirect object would be to affix “*ta:(re)*” to the indirect object outside the verb and then the direct object sign is put in the verb, e.g., “*Aingta:(re) kitab ememe*” = ‘Give the book to me’.

Exercise: Ideally many household articles should be on hand to teach this lesson. No new supplementary concepts are introduced. One place in the exercise the word “*tela*”, which itself normally means to receive, is used with an indirect object in the sense of to make (someone else) receive, - to offer. This is the term used when offering the leaf cup with rice beer in it as a sign of hospitality.

Lesson 10 – imperative, - passive.

For the passive imperative we add “*o:*” to the root followed by the subject sign “*me*”, “*ben*”, “*pe*”.

If the root ends in an “*e*” or “*i*” we insert a euphonic “*y*” between the vowel and the “*e*”, e.g., “*bigiyo:me*” = ‘get well’. If the root ends in an “*a*” we insert a “*w*” the vowel and the “*e*”, e.g., “*harawo:me*” = ‘grow up’. If the root ends in an “*o*”, then we get *o + o:* = *ō:*, e.g., *jo + o:* = *jō:*. If the root ends in a “*u*” then we get “*u + o:*”, “*ū:*”. e.g., “*hasu + o:*” = “*hasū:*”

The passive does not always correspond to what we use in English. Only by listening and usage can we get a sense of when the passive form should be used in Ho. The vocabulary will show some uses of the passive.

Exercise: There is not much scope for sentences using the passive imperative. No other supplementary notions are here introduced.

Therefore, we have now finished the imperative. There are other imperative forms indicating some qualifying of the action and using forms “*ta*”, “*aka*”, “*le*” and “*ko*” which we will see later.

The full scheme for the simple imperative is as follows: -

	ROOT	OBJECT SIGN	SUBJECT SIGN
No object	ROOT	-	<i>me . ben , pe</i>
Dir. obj. Inanimate	ROOT	<i>o</i>	<i>me . ben , pe</i>
Dir. obj. animate 3 rd person	ROOT	<i>ī</i> (1) <i>king</i> (2) <i>ko</i> (3, 3+)	<i>me . ben , pe</i>

Dir. obj. animate 3 ^{1st} person	ROOT	<i>ing</i> (1) <i>lang, ling</i> (2) <i>bu, le</i> (3,n3+)	<i>me . ben , pe</i>
Direct Object = self- reflexive	ROOT	<i>(e)n</i>	<i>me . ben , pe</i>
Indirect object	ROOT	<i>a+ing</i> (1) <i>(a+n)</i> (1) <i>a+I</i> (1) <i>a+lang, a+ling</i> (2) <i>a+ben</i> (2) <i>a+king</i> (2) <i>a+bu.a+le</i> (3.3+) <i>a+pe</i> (3.3+) <i>a+ko</i> (3.3+)	<i>me . ben , pe</i>
Passive	ROOT	<i>o:</i>	<i>me, ben, pe</i>

As will be seen immediately, this gives the basic framework for the future or general tense. For the present continuous tense. And for the imperfect tense.

Addenda: In lesson 9 we failed to note the phonetic changes caused when the indirect object (*a*+....) follows a vowel. – If this *a* follows an *e* or an *i* then a *y* is inserted between this letter and the *a*. e.g., “*kajiyakom*” = ‘tell them’. If the indirect object follows an *o* or *a*, then a *w* is inserted between this letter and the *a*, e.g., “*aguwalem*” = ‘bring for us’. – If the indicative object follows an “*a*”, then the two “*a*”s combine to form one long “*ā*”, e.g., “*telākom*” = ‘making them receive’.

Full scheme for the future (general) tense, the present continuous tense, and the imperative tense.

	root	object sign	tense sign	verb link	Subject sign
Intransitive	ROOT	-	future	a	(i)
Direct Object inanimate		<i>o</i>			<i>m</i>
Direct Object Animate		<i>ing</i> <i>m(e)</i> <i>ī</i> <i>lang, ling</i> <i>ben</i> <i>king</i> <i>bu, le</i> <i>pe</i> <i>ko</i>	present = <i>tan</i> imperfect = <i>tan</i> <i>taikena</i>		<i>e</i> : <i>lang, ling</i> <i>ben</i> <i>king</i> <i>bu, le</i> <i>pe</i> <i>ko</i>
Reflexive		<i>en</i>			
Indirect Object		<i>a+ing</i> <i>a+m(o)</i> <i>a+i</i> <i>a+lang, a+ling</i> <i>a+b en</i> <i>a+king</i> <i>a+bu, a+le</i> <i>a+pe</i> <i>a+ko</i>			
Passive		<i>o</i> :			

Two new elements have come in here; - 1) the tense sign. For the future there is no sign, for the present continuous “*tan*” is the tense sign, and for the imperfect “*tan taikena*” is the tense sign, - i.e., the indication within the verb of the time element. – 2) the verb link “*a*”. This occurs in all straight indicative verbs, and often is the factor which makes the word into a verb. In a later chapter we will see many other signs which can be substituted for the verb link “*a*” to indicate special temporal, conditional, etc. factors.

As has been said of the imperative is also true of the future, and to some extent of the present and imperfect tense, namely that there are other verb forms indicating future action etc., but with some special qualifying factors and using forms “*aka*”, “*ta*”, “*le*” and “*ke*”. These will be seen in a later chapter.

Lesson 11 – the Future (General) tense.

As is clear from the schema given above the form of the future exactly follows that of the imperative except that there is a verb link “a” added before the subject sign, and that now both the personal subject and the personal object (when present) can be any of the eleven personal pronouns.

This tense is used for any simple future action. It is also used for any general way of acting, e.g., ‘People used this road’, ‘He doesn’t eat fish’, ‘They use worms for bait’. In all these cases in English we use the present. In Ho the same form is used as the future whereas the present tense with the tense sign “tan” (c.f. next chapter) is restricted to describing something actually happening now.

There is however another special verb form to use for habitual action (the first vowel is lengthened or the first consonant and vowel are reduplicated - no other tense sign is given and no object sign is inserted). This will be treated in a later chapter.

When the verb link “a” follows an “e” or “i” we insert a euphonic “y” between them. When it follows an “o” or “u” we insert a “w”. When it follows an “a” then the two “a”s combine to give “a:”. (N.B. in other cases $a+a = \bar{a}$). cf. exercise.

In the case of the imperative the subject sign always remains at the end of the word, but in other verb forms the subject sign is usually (almost always) transferred to the end of the word immediately before the verb. In the case of the word “ka” (not) which must be put immediately before the verb, the subject sign must be transferred to the end of this “ka”, e.g., “Kaing seno:wa” = ‘I will not go’.

When the first-person singular ending is transferred to the end of a word ending with a vowel merely the “ng” sound is added to that vowel. This becomes “eng” when transferred to the end of a consonant. The 2nd person singular ending “m” becomes “em” when transferred to the end of a consonant. When this “m” is transferred to the end of a word ending in a checked vowel, that same vowel is echoed before the “m” (cf. exercise). “e:”-transferred to the end of a word ending in “e” combines with that “e” to form one “e:”. “e:” transferred to the end of a word ending in “i” combines with that “i” to form one “i:”, “e:” transferred to the end of a word ending in “u” becomes “i:”. A full list of all the possible spelling combinations is given in the exercise.

If the verb immediately follows the subject the pronominal signs are dropped. (At least usually so. They may always be dropped.) e.g., “Soma huju:wa” = ‘Soma will come,’ rather than “Soma huju:wae:” or “Somae: huju:wa”.

Except when the verb immediately follows the subject, even though the subject has been expressed the subject sign must be repeated. “Honko ainga: owa:teko huju:wa.” = ‘The children will come to my house’.

Normally when a personal pronoun (I, you, etc.) is the subject of a sentence it is not separately expressed, but for reasons of emphasis it may be expressed. e.g., “Okoe Dongolte: seno:me?” = ‘Who will go to Chaibasa?’ “Aingge Dongolteng seno:wa”. = ‘I will go to- Chaibasa’. “Okontem sono:wa?” = ‘Where will you go?’ “Dongolteng seno:awa”. = ‘I will go to Chaibasa’. (Here no special emphasis on the ‘I’, so “aing” not expressed.)

Exercise: Here we give exhaustive examples of possible spelling combinations when **a)** the verb-link “a” follows various vowels or a consonant, and **b)** when the subject sign is thrown forward to words ending in various vowels or consonants. In all these cases we give only four forms. Forms ending in “ling”, “ben”, “king”, “bu”, “pe”, and “ko” have the spelling combinations as those ending in “lang” which we give.

In the exercise here we introduce:

- a) The use of “*dolabu*” (pl.) and “*dolang*” (dual), meaning let’s (go or get started on something, etc.) This is used only in these two forms.
- b) the phrase “*chikana:am chikaya*” = ‘What will you do?’ This can be used in various tenses and in the next lesson will be used in the present. “*Chika*” can also be used without “*chikana:*”, e.g., “*jana:wō ka chika:wo:wa.*” = ‘Nothing will happen’.
- c) “*Sandi sim*” is given here for a cock. “*sandi*” can be used for the male of any animal, “*enga*” (mother) being used for the female. e.g., “*sandi seta*” = ‘a male dog’; “*enga seta*” = ‘a female dog’. When “*sandi*” is used alone it refers to a cock.
- d) “*chiminreya: bulung*” means ‘of how much (money)’ (e.g. how much money’s worth?) “*chimin*” = ‘how much’, ‘how many’?, and “*reya*” is a possessive ending having many usages. The reply “*mi takareya: bulung*” = ‘salt worth one rupee’.
- e) “*mi taka*”, “*gel taka*”. With “*taka*” and “*sika*” the short form of the numerals is used.
- f) “*bariyare mi sika*”. i.e., ‘25 paise for two’

Lesson 12 - Present Continuous Tense

This tense is used for an action actually taking place.

It is formed as follows: root + object sign (if any) + tense sign (*tan*) + verb link “*a*” subject sign (which may be transferred to the end of the previous word.) It is the same as the future with the addition of the tense sign “*tan*”. (cf. scheme).

Exercises: In this exercise we use some transitive verb forms without inserting the object sign. e.g., “*paititanam chi?*” “*Owa:am baitana chi?*” “*chikana:am chikatana?*” When the preoccupation is with the action itself rather than the action referred to its object often the inanimate object sign is dropped. e.g., “I am eating” is often rendered “*manding jomtana*”. If one were to ask “*chikana:am jomētana?*” the reply would be “*mantdng jomtana*”. The learner would be advised to insert the object sign until he senses where it would not be put. In answering a question -where it has not been put, one may also safely drop the inanimate object sign. This however would not necessarily hold for the question “*chikana:am chikatana?*”

In this exercise “*ti:*” is used as a verb meaning ‘to take (lead) by the hand’. The verb is normally checked whereas the noun for hand is not checked

The verb “*ui:*” (to jump) has as its reflexive “*ujen*”

Lesson 13 - Imperfect Tense

This tense is used for an action which was taking place at some previous time which is being discussed.

It is formed the same as the present except that the tense sign is “*tan taikan*” for the imperfect. Therefore, we have the root + object sign (if any) + tense sign (“*tan taiken*”) + verb link “*a*” + subject sign.

In the case of the imperfect tense the subject sign may come at the end of the word (rarely), or after “*tan*” & before “*taikena*”, or at the end of the word preceding the root (most common) when there is such a word.

e.g. present tense – “*huju:tanaing*”.

imperfect - “*huju:tan taikenaing*” or “*huju:taning taikena*”.

e.g. present tense – “*dirikoe: aguitana*”.

imperfect = “*dirikoe: aguitane: taikena*”, or “*diriko aguitane: taikenae:*” or “*diriko aguitan taikenae:*” (first form preferred).

Exercise: Here “*mind merom gupi*” is used without putting the object sign in the verb. “*Gupi*” is commonly used that way, - cf. remark in previous exercise. In the same exercise “*go:*” (carry) is used in the same way.

“*sama tite*” is used here for ‘empty handed’. As indicated in the vocabulary “*sama*” has a broad range of meanings.

Lesson 14 - The verb “to be”, Present Tense.

In English the word ‘to be’ may be either a mere link-word, or may denote presence, existence.

In the sentences: - He is a boy. This stone is heavy. He is my son. The word ‘is’ is only a link-word.

In the sentences: - We are in the room. There is one God... the words ‘is/are’ denote to be present, to exist.

In Ho, since these are differently treated, we will deal with each separately.

- 1) If ‘is’ is a mere link-word: - and -
 - a) is followed by an adjective, in Ho we suffix the verb-link “*a*” to the adjective. Frequently the particle of emphasis “*ge*” is introduced between the adjective and
 - b) “*a*”. If there is an animate subject the endings “*ing*”, “*m*”, “*e:*”, “*lang*” etc. are added to the “*a*”. If this animate subject is expressed immediately before the adjective the subject endings are sometimes dropped, e.g.: -

“ <i>En owa: pundigeya</i> ”	‘That house is white’.
“ <i>En daru salangiya</i> ”	‘That tree is tall’.
“ <i>Bugigeyam chi?</i> ”	‘Are you well?’ (How are you?)
“ <i>Bugigeyaing</i> ”.	‘I am well’.
“ <i>Bugigeyaben chi?</i> ”	‘Are you-two well’. (Dual or honorific)
“ <i>Bugigeyaling</i> ”.	‘We-two are well’.
“ <i>En ho maranga(e):</i> ”	‘That man is big’.
 - c) if ‘is’ is a link-word and followed by a noun: -
 In this case “*a*” is not used. Usually no word is expressed for ‘is’. The emphatic particle “*ge*” is often added to the noun following ‘is’.
 e.g., “*Am okoe:*” = ‘Who are you?’ “*Aingdo matasor*” = ‘I am a master’.
 “*Soma okoya: hon*” = ‘Whose child is Soma?’ “*Soma alinga: hon*” = ‘Soma is our child’
 “*Nena kitab chi?*” = ‘Is this a book’. “*Eya, nena. kitabge.*” = ‘Yes, this is a book’.
 “*Lolingme. Aing Singbongaa: dasi-era.*” = ‘Behold me. I am the handmaid of God’.

N.B. In this case sometimes “*tana*” for inanimates, and “*tanaing*”, “*tanam*”, “*tanae:*”, “*tanalang*” (or “*taning*”, “*tanme*”, “*tani*”, “*tanlang*” etc. used especially toward the North and in the Munda country) can be used for “*is*”. e.g., “*Aingdo matasor tanaing*” = ‘I am a master’. “*Krist saben hōkowa: raja tanae:*” = ‘Christ is the King or all men’. - This is less colloquial and less used.

- 2) If ‘is’ denotes presence or existence, then it must be expressed in Ho by some form of the word “*mena:*”.
 - a) If the subject is inanimate “*mena:*” alone is used. e.g., “*Apeya owa:re baba mena: chi?*” = ‘Is there paddy in your house?’ - “*Mena:*” = ‘There is’.
 - b) if the subject is animate, we get the following forms: -

	1 st Person	2 nd Person	3 rd Person
Singular	“mena:inga”	“mena:meya”	“mena:ya”
Dual	“mena:langa” (incl.) “mena:linga” (excl.)	“mena:bena”	“mena:kinga”
Plural	“mena:buwa” (incl.) “mena:leya.” (excl.)	“mena:peya”	“mena:kowa”

e.g., “Owa:re mena:peya chi?” = ‘Are you all in the house?’ “Mena:leya”. = ‘We are’.

Negative of the verb to be

1) IF THE VERB TO BE IS A MERE LINK-WORD: - AND;

- is followed by an adjective, for the negative we put the word “ka” immediately before the adjective. “En jō sibila, ne jodo ka sibila.” = ‘That fruit is sweet; this fruit is not sweet’. “En lija: ka pundiya.” = ‘That clothe is not white’. “Ni bugin ho, mendo en hōdo kae: bugina.” = ‘This is a good man, but that man is not good’.
- if ‘is’ is a link-word and followed by a noun, then for the negative we place “ka(ge)” or “bano” after the noun. e.g., “Ina: ainga: hondo bano” or “Ini: ainga: hondo ka”. = ‘He is not my child’. – “Ena bugin kitabdo bano” or “Ena. bugin kitabdo ka”. = ‘That .is not a good book’.

N.B. In answer to a question: e.g. “Ini: ama: hon chi?” = ‘Is he your child?’, one can answer merely, “ka(ge)” = ‘No’.

- If the verb to be denotes presence or existence, then the negative is expressed by some form of the root “ban(g)”.
 - If the subject is inanimate, “bano:wa” is used. e.g., “Ainga: owa:re baba bano:wa”. = ‘There is no paddy in my house’.
 - if the subject is animate, we get the following forms:-

	1 st Person	2 nd Person	3 rd Person
Singular	“banginga”	“bangmeya”	“bangaya”
Dual	“banglanga” (incl.) “banglinga” (excl.)	“bangbena”	“bangkina”
Plural	“bangbuwa” (incl.) “bangleya” (excl.)	“bangpeya”	“bangkowa”

e.g. “En owa:re mena:kowa chi?” = ‘Are they (at home) in that house?’ “Bangkowa” = ‘They are not’.

Exercise: Some simplified biblical accounts are given for general review. “Ama: hon alom goī:ya.” = ‘Do not kill your son’. This will be explained in lesson 18. “Apung” = ‘my father’ (will be explained later.) “Boro” (fear): ‘Do not be afraid’ = “alom boroya” (dir.obj). ‘Do not fear him’ = “alom borowaiya” (ind.obj.)

Lesson 15 - The verb “to be”, Past Tense

For the past tense of the verb to be, whether it be used as a link word or to denote presence or existence the word “taikena” is used. The negative of this

is “*ka taikena*”. e.g., ‘He is ·big’. = *Maranggeyae:*”. ‘He was big’. = “*Marangge: taikena*”. ‘He was not big’. = “*Marang kae: taikena*.” ‘He is in the house’. = “*Owa:a:re mena:ya*”. ‘He was in the house’. = “*Owa:re: taikena*”. ‘He was not in the house’. = “*Owa:re kae: taikena*”. ‘They are not present’. = “*Bangkowa*”. ‘They were not present’ = “*Kako taikena*”.

Exercise. – “*Munu*” = ‘in the beginning’. - As an adjective it means original, first e.g., “*munu hōking*” = ‘the first parents of the human race’. “*Munu hatu*” = ‘an original village’ from which someone has come. – “*Adam ondo: Ewatiking*”. When two persons are referred to together this “*tiking*” ending is used, cf., “*okoetiking*”. cf. Lesson 22.

Lesson 16 - The verb “to be”, Future Tense

For the future of the verb ‘to be’ usually the words “*taina*” or “*hobawo:wa*” are used. “*taina*” (will be present, will remain) can serve for the future of the verb ‘to be’ when indicating presence, e.g., “*Mena:kowa chi?*” = ‘Are they at home?’ “*na:do mena:kowa mendo gapa kako taina*”. = ‘They are home now, but they will not be home tomorrow’.

Also, often the word “*hobawo:wa*” = ‘will become’ serves as the future of the verb ‘to be’. “*Tising esu ransareya: din mena: (or hobawoatana), ondo: gapa esu ransareya din hobawo:wa.*” = ‘Today is a day of great joy and tomorrow will be a day of great joy’.

Exercise: “*jorong jaked*”, “*jorong-jorong (jaked)*”, “*jorong situng jaked*” all mean ‘forever and ever’. “*jorong*” as an adjective means ‘eternal’, e.g., “*jorong jinid*” = ‘eternal life’. “*Musing*” is one of several words meaning ‘day’. This is usually used when referring to some day that something happened. When used by itself in the past it means ‘one day’, or ‘once (upon a time)’. When used as in the exercise of the future it means ‘one day’ (or other to come). For some day (in the future) the expression “*musung bano musung*” (‘some day or other’) is also used. When enumerating days “*ma*” is usually used for day. As in the above lesson the word “*din*” is also used for day in certain cases.

Lesson 17 - to have

1) Present Tense: - As in many languages (e.g., Hindi) there is no separate word for the English ‘to have’. To express ‘to have’ the verb ‘to be’ is used as follows:-

- a) when ‘have’ means to have something at hand, e.g., with oneself on one's person, etc. then “*ta:re*” is affixed to the possessing noun or pronoun, and the verb “*mena:*” or (for the negative) “*bano:wa*” is used. This corresponds to the Hindi “*ke pas*” construction. e.g. “*aingta:re bayer mena:*” = ‘I have a rope’ (with me). “*Akota:re katu bano:wa*” = They have no knife (with them).
- b) when “have” means to possess something, - whether it is now at hand or not, then we can use either of two constructions:-
- c) A possessive (genitive) form of the noun or pronoun is put before the noun denoting that which is owned., and the proper form (animate or inanimate) of “*mena:*”

or “*ban(g)*” is used, e.g., “*Aleya: honko bangkowa*”. = ‘We have no children’. “*Aleya: baba bano:wa*” = ‘We have no paddy’. “*Ainga: pura: honko mena:kowa*”. = ‘I have many children’. “*Ama: chimin honko mena:kowa*” = ‘How many children do you have?’

This expression is surely used, and in certain cases from the context, etc., it can clearly indicate a ‘have’ (possess) meaning, but in some cases this expression is ambiguous, e.g., “*Aleya: honko bangkowa*” - can also mean, = ‘Our children are not here’ (perhaps they have gone to the cockfight). “*Ainga: kitab banowa*” - can also mean = ‘My book isn’t here’ (perhaps someone borrowed it). Apparently to avoid this ambiguity there is also a second way to express have (possess).

d) The possessing noun or pronoun is expressed (often with “*do*” affixed), then the noun denoting that which is possessed is put followed by the proper form (animate or inanimate) of “*mena:*” or “*ban(g)*” e.g., “*Alingdo honko bangkowa*” = ‘We two have no children’. “*Okoe kitab mena:?*” = ‘Who has (anywhere) a book’. “*Apedo chimin honko mena:kowa*” = ‘How many children do you have?’ This is an idiomatic expression hard to explain in English., but of rather wide usage, and at least in many places more clearly expressing have (possession) than I) above.

- 2) Past Tense: - To express the past tense of the verb to have we use the same constructions as given above, but in place of the verb forms “*mena:*” etc., we use the corresponding forms of “*taikena*” for the negative in place of “*bano:wa*” we use the corresponding forms of “*ka taikena*”.

e.g.:- ‘I have a rope (with me) = “*Aingta.:re bayer mena:*”.

‘I had a rope (with me) = “*Aingta.:re bayer taikena.*”

‘They have no knife’ (with them) = “*Akota: . katu bano:wa.*”

‘They had no knife’ (with them) = “*Akota:re katu ka taikena.*”

‘How many children do you-2 have?’ = “*Abendo chimin honko mena:kowa?*”

‘How many children did you-2 have?’ = “*Abendo chimin honko taikena?*”

‘We-two have no children’ = “*Alingdo honko bangkowa*”.

‘We-two had no children’ = “*Alingdo honko kako taikena*”.

- 3) Future Tense:- To express the future tense of the verb to have we use the same construction as given above, but in place of the verb forms “*mena:*” etc. we use the corresponding forms of “*taina*” or, in some cases, “*hobawo:wa*”.

e.g., ‘Tomorrow if I will have money’. = “*Gapa aingta:re taka tai:nredo*”.

‘If we-2 (incl) will have children’ = “*Alang honko hobawo:redo*”.

(Here “*redo*” meaning “if” takes the place of the verb-link “*a*”. cf. later).

Exercise: For the rate of buying “*te*” is normally used. ‘Buy for 5 rupees’ = “*moe takate*”. For the selling rate (price) “*re*”, or “*te*” may be used.

Lesson 18 - Past Tense - transitive.

A. Past tense sign “*ked*” used with transitive verbs.

In the past tenses no object sign is infixed in the verb when the object is inanimate. If the object is animate the object sign is placed after the tense sign. When there is a 3rd person singular object sign following the past tense sign an elision always occurs. when a 1st person singular object sign follows a tense sign with an “*e*” in it (“*ked*”, “*led*”), that “*e*” sometimes changes to “*i*”.

Besides “*ked*”, there, are other past tense signs (“*led*”, “*ad*”, “*tad*”). These will all be explained later. Since the “*ked*” tense sign is the most commonly tense sign for transitive past usages, we give that here:-

Dir. Obj. Animate	ROOT	Tense sign + obj. sign	Verb link	Subject sign
Dir. Obj. Animate	ROOT	<i>ked</i>	<i>a</i>	(i)ng <i>m</i> <i>e:</i> <i>lang, ling</i> <i>ben</i> <i>king</i> <i>bu, le</i> <i>pe</i> <i>ko</i>
		<i>kidding</i>		
		<i>kedme</i>		
		<i>kī</i>		
		<i>kedlang, kedling</i>		
		<i>kedben</i>		
		<i>kedking</i>		
		<i>kedbu</i>		
		<i>kedle</i>		
		<i>kedpe</i>		
		<i>kedko</i>		

e.g., ‘I took hold of the stone’ = “*Diring sabkeda*”. ‘I took hold of the snake’. = “*Bing sabkīya*”. ‘I shot the two elephants’ = “*Hatikingeng torekedkinga*”.

B. Past tense sign “*ad*” used with indirect object.

Since indirect objects are also fairly common, we give the most commonly used past tense form for that:-

Dir. Obj. Animate	ROOT	Tense sign + obj. sign	Verb link	Subject sign
Indirect Object	ROOT		<i>a</i>	(i)ng <i>m</i> <i>e:</i> <i>lang, ling</i> <i>ben</i> <i>king</i> <i>bu, le</i> <i>pe</i> <i>ko</i>
		<i>adding</i>		
		<i>adme</i>		
		<i>a:i</i>		
		<i>adlang, addling</i>		
		<i>adben</i>		
		<i>adking</i>		
		<i>adbu</i>		
		<i>adle</i>		
		<i>adpe</i>		
		<i>adko</i>		

e.g. He gave me the book; = “*Kitabe: emadinga;*” ‘I gave them the book’ = “*Kitabeng emadkowa*”.

Sometimes especially with the word “*kaji*”, when the person has been expressed the indirect object sign will not be expressed after the “*ad*” tense sign, e.g., “*Jisu aya: chelakoe: kajiyada*”. = ‘Jesus said to his disciples’.

The “*led*” past tense sign is used exactly the same as “*ked*”, - so that in the scheme above we substitute the letter “*l*” for “*k*”. This is used of an action completed in such wise that the subject is now no longer busy (or at least concerned) with that action.

Exercise:- We; give three exercises:- A) a general exercise using “*ked*” tense-sign words. B) a confession type exercise using “*ked*” words. In this we use the word “*dunā*” or “*dunwā*” meaning ‘times’. This takes the short form of the numbers, e.g., “*bar duna*” = twice; “*ape duna*” = ‘three times’. We also introduce here for the first time a combined-root verb, e.g., “*ter-goe:*”; “*ter*” meaning to throw at with the intention of hitting, or to hit by throwing; “*goe:*” = ‘to kill’. Combined this means to kill by hitting. C) Thirdly we give a general exercise using “*ad*” tense sign.

Lesson 19 = Past Tense = intransitive and passive

The most commonly used past tense sign for both intransitive verbs and passive verbs is “*(e)yanā*”. (If this follows a consonant the verb sign “*eyana*” is used, if it follows a vowel “*yanā*” is used). Since there are no object signs to be infixes here, there are no internal changes in the verb, so the formation is quite simple, e.g., “*dubeyana*” = ‘He sat down’. “*Tinguyanako*” = ‘They stood up’. “*Boloyanale*” = ‘We (exclusive) entered’ “*Sabeyanaking*” = ‘They-two were caught’.

PAST TENSE	ROOT	Tense sign	‘verb link’	subject sign
Intransitive or passive	ROOT	<i>(e)yan</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>Ng, m, et:</i>
Intransitive or passive		<i>ken</i>		
Intransitive or passive		<i>len</i>		

Another intransitive past tense sign is “*ken*”. Although “*ken*” tense sign is passive in its usage (inserting no object signs etc.). It is usually used in Ho to translate verbs which we would consider transitive, but precisely when the emphasis is on the action, rather than any stress on the object of that action, e.g., “*kunibūkenae:*” = ‘He stole’. “*Bintikenaing*” = ‘I prayed’. “*Ruibar musing hambal paiting paitikena*”. = ‘I did heavy work on Sunday’.

Reflexives very often use “*ken*” tense sign in past tenses, e.g., “*orakenaing*” = I bathed “*Abungkenae:*” = He washed up.

Whether reflexive verbs form their past tense in “*(e)yan*” or “*ken*” in either case the “*(e)n*” which was used in the simple imperative, and in the future (general), present continuous, and imperfect tenses, is not used. This “*(e)n*” is used, only in the simple imperative and the three simple tenses just mentioned. E.g., “*tingunme*” = ‘stand up’. “*tinguyanaing*” = ‘I stood up’. “*abungenme*” = ‘wash up’. “*abungenkai:*” = ‘I washed up’.

“*Len*” past tense sign is fairly often used. As in the active (“*led*”) it is used of an action completed in such wise that the subject is no longer busy (or at least concerned) with that action. This “*len*” past tense sign is rather commonly used with the root “*huju:*” – “*Huju:lenako*” = ‘They came’.

Exercise: First a general practice for the past tenses is given. In the second part of the exercise, we use the verb “*id-ura*” = ‘take back’, and “*ruā-ura*” = ‘return back’. “*Ura*” can be affixed to any verb root to give the added idea of ‘back’ or ‘again’ to that root. We also use there the compound verb root “*hara-marang*” meaning ‘grow up’ (grow, become big).

This joining two roots together is a common feature of the Ho language and will be treated in a later lesson.

Lesson 20 - Perfect Tense.

For an action which has begun in the past and is **still** taking place, in Ho we use the tense sign “*akan*” if the verb is intransitive or passive., and “*akad*” if the verb is transitive. The scheme for these would be as follows:-

PERFECT TENSE	ROOT	Tense sign + obj. sign	Verb link	Subject sign
Intransitive or passive	ROOT	<i>akan</i>	a	(i)ng m e: lang ling ben king bu le pe ko
Dir. Obj. inanimate		<i>akad</i>		
Dir. Obj. animate		<i>akading</i>		
		<i>akadme</i>		
		<i>aka:i</i>		
		<i>akadlang</i>		
		<i>akaddling</i>		
		<i>akadben</i>		
		<i>akadking</i>		
		<i>akadbu</i>		
		<i>akadle</i>		
		<i>akadpe</i>		
		<i>akadko</i>		

The “*akan*” and “*akad*” tense signs usually translate a perfect tense (has..., have...) in English, but occasionally in English we used a present tense for an action which has begun in the past and continues, where in Ho we would use the “*akan*” or “*akad*” tense sign. - e.g., ‘He is sitting’ (i.e., remaining in a sitting position) = “*dubakanae*”. Whereas e.g., ‘He is sitting’ (i.e., assuming a sitting position) = “*dubtanae*”. ‘He is (remaining) standing’ = “*tinguakanae*”. – ‘He is standing’ (i.e., changing from another position to a standing position). “*tinguntanae*”. The Ho verb “*sabtanae*” would mean = ‘He is taking hold of it’; “*Sabakadae*” = ‘He is holding it’.

The “*akan*” tense sign is used both for intransitive verbs, e.g., “*giti:yakanako*” = ‘they are sleeping’, or for passive verbs, e.g., “*poesa tebulre emakana*”. = ‘The money has been put on the table’.

If there is a direct inanimate object the tense sign “*akad*” is used with no object sign. If there is a direct animate object the object sign is put after the tense sign “*akad*” (cf. scheme). e.g., ‘He is holding you’ = “*sabakadmeya*”.

To translate an action which had already been continuing in reference to some time in the past we can use the tense sign “*tan taikena*”, e.g., in the sentence ‘He has already been sitting for two hours when I arrived’, we would translate ‘had been sitting’ by “*dubakan taikena*”.

If the root preceding an “*akan*” or “*akad*” tense sign end in the letter “*a*”, this “*a*” combines with the first “*a*” of the tense sign to form one long “*ā*”. E.g., from root “*topa*” to bury, we get “*topākanae*” = ‘He has been buried’.

Exercise: Here we introduce the word “*men*” for ‘say’. This is used with direct discourse and will be explained later. We also give the ‘Hail Mary’ as an exercise here. The word “*daya*” is used for ‘grace’, a bit inaptly, but, since in Munda and Ho, they have been using this for almost a hundred years in this prayer the people were not anxious to change it. In our liturgical works we use “*daya-denga*” for actual grace and “*daya uru*” for mercy. “*lāiren jo*”, (cf. Exercise for lesson 15), “*darureya: jō*” = ‘the fruit of the tree’. Since fruit in the Hail Mary is really animate the postposition “*ren*” is used rather than “*reya*”. This will be explained more later. “*aley: gojo: dipli*” = ‘the time of our death’.

Lesson 21 - Prohibitions, Invitations, and the use of “*auri*” (not yet)

Before moving on to more complex verb forms we give here some cases where the future (general) verb form is used in Ho.

Prohibitions:- In the 2nd person these are expressed by the use of the particle “*alo*” with the future tense. The pronominal signs *m*, *ben*, *pe* are affixed to “*alo*”.

e.g.: “ <i>seno:me</i> ”	- ‘go’	“ <i>alom seno:wa</i> ”	- ‘don’t go’
“ <i>seno:ben</i> ”	- ‘you-two go’	“ <i>aloben seno:wa</i> ”	- ‘you-two don’t go’
“ <i>seno:pe</i> ”	- ‘you-all go’	“ <i>alope seno:wa</i> ”	- ‘you-all don’t go’
“ <i>sabīme</i> ”	- ‘catch him’	“ <i>alom sabīya</i> ”	- ‘don’t catch him’
“ <i>emaingme</i> ”	- ‘give to me’	“ <i>alom emainga</i> ”	- ‘don’t give (it) to me’

Invitations:- If the speaker wishes to invite one or more persons to join him in doing something, two forms may be used: a) future form using “*lang*” (dual) or “*bu*” (plural), e.g., “*seno:walang*” = ‘Let’s you and I go’. “*Hātotelang seno:wa*” = ‘Let us (you and I) go to the market’. “*Chakātebu seno:wa*” = ‘Let us all go to Chakradur’. Sometimes the urging particle “*mar*” is used in this case, “*marbu bintiya*” = ‘come on let us pray’. b) by the use of “*dolang*” (dual) or “*dolabu*” (plural) with the future form, e.g., “*dolabu seno:wa*” = ‘let us all go’. (Here the subject sign has been affixed to “*dola*” and hence is not repeated after “*seno:wa*”).

Use of “*auri*” (not yet):- In English we tend to say, “He has not yet come”. In Ho “not yet” is translated by “*auri*”, and the verb is put in the future (perhaps more logically than the English perfect tense). Therefore ‘He has not yet come’ = “*Auri: huju:wa*”. ‘They have not yet come’ = “*Auriko huju:wa*”.

The word “*auri*” is also often used by itself to mean ‘wait’, ‘not yet’.

Exercise: We give here the ten commandments as part of the exercise. “*Sebapura-sarapura*” is a phrase used in many Ho prayers, and a typical prayer time phrase. “*Seba-sara*” is already a word jingle (two words usually sounding somewhat alike used together to reinforce the meaning of one word, in this case “*seba*” = ‘to serve’), and to each part of the jingle the affix “*pura*” (‘fully’) is attached. In a later lesson we will see more about that, – “*Engam-apuntiking*” = ‘Your mother and father.’ (cf. later). “*Angir paiti aloma*”. – “*Aloma*” (“*alobena*”, “*alopeya*”) can be used that way after the verb, or sometimes without the verb if it is understood. - ‘Don’t do that’ = “*aloma: chakadte*” - with lies (deceit) or falsely. After “*haiyawo*” (‘covet’) we use “*re*” (in) of the object coveted.

In the third part of this exercise we use the expression “*am okon hatuitini:?*”, “*hatu*” = ‘village’, etc., - from (the “*e*”s changed to “*i*”s here for euphonic reasons) and “*ni:*” = ‘one’. This is the most idiomatic way of asking the name of the village from which someone comes. If you ask “*Ama: hatu okonpāreya?*” = ‘Where is your village?’. They will just point in some direction and say that it is there. “*ra:*” = ‘cry’, and “*boro*” = ‘fear’. They are both used transitively, (i.e., taking “*e*” object sign).

Lesson 22 - Reciprocals.

The reciprocal of any verb root can be formed by inserting a “*p*” after the first vowel of the word and then repeating that vowel after the “*p*” e.g.,

“ <i>jowar</i> ”	- ‘to greet’	“ <i>jopowar</i> ”	- ‘to greet each other’
“ <i>em</i> ”	- ‘to give’	“ <i>epem</i> ”	- ‘to give to each other’
“ <i>tam</i> ”	- ‘to hit’	“ <i>tapam</i> ”	- ‘to hit each other’
“ <i>goe:</i> ”	- ‘to kill’ (beat up)	“ <i>gopoe</i> ”	- ‘to fight, battle’
“ <i>denga</i> ”	- ‘to help’	“ <i>depenga</i> ”	- ‘to help one another’
“ <i>suku</i> ”	- ‘to be pleased with’	“ <i>supuku</i> ”	- ‘to be pleased with one another’
“ <i>erang</i> ”	- ‘to scold’	“ <i>eperang</i> ”	- ‘to scold one another, quarrel’
“ <i>gonde</i> ”	- ‘to scold’	“ <i>goponde</i> ”	- ‘to scold one another, quarrel’
“ <i>nel</i> ”	- ‘to see’	“ <i>nepel</i> ”	- ‘to see one another’

For any reciprocal action we use intransitive verb forms, i.e., no object signs are infixed, and in the past tenses they take “(e)*yana*”, “*kena*”, and other intransitive forms, e.g., “*tapamkenaling*” – ‘he and I hit each other’. The two of them quarrelled.

It is possible to have a transitive form with a reciprocal root when the subject of the verb effects the reciprocal action in others, e.g., “*sopolakedkowaing*” = ‘I reconciled them’. “*baria bayereng topolkeda*” = ‘I tied two ropes together’.

The subject of a reciprocal action is naturally dual or plural (in the case of an action, e.g., a fight, involving many people), e.g., “*jopowartanalang*” = ‘You and I are greeting each other’. “*gopoe:tanako*” = ‘They are fighting’. However sometimes a singular subject is used with a “*lo:(te)*” (with) construction, e.g., “*undingtolteng eperangkena*”. = ‘I quarrelled with my younger brother’.

Many of these reciprocal forms are also often used as nouns, e.g., “*depenga*” = ‘mutual help’. “*Eperang*” – ‘a quarrel’. “*Aling alingre eperang hobayana*” = ‘My husband (or wife) and I had a quarrel’.

Exercise: Here we give a confession exercise which brings out many reciprocal usages. “*Ayera: pap-udub*” = ‘previous confession’. When meaning previous, “*ayer*” (before in front of ...) often takes this genitive form. “*mi singi jaked*” = ‘For a whole day’. “*na: jaked*” = ‘until now’. “*jan*” = ‘any’. “*mid-mel*” (Hindi “*mel*”) = ‘united peace and concord’. “*hal*” by itself means ‘to pay back’. It is often used affixed to another verb root meaning ‘back’ e.g., “*gonde-hal*” = ‘scold back’, “*tam-hal*” = ‘hit back’, “*kaji-hal*” = ‘say back’ (reply). “*Ako edkako metamereyō, am bugige metakom*” = ‘Even if they call you evil, you call them good’. “*meta*” is also used as a word for ‘say’ (along with “*kaji*”, “*jagar*”, and “*men*”). This we will see later. In the sense of calling something something, “*meta*” is regularly used, e.g., ‘What do you call this?’ = “*Nana chikanape meta*”. (This is the best way to ask someone the Ho word for something.) “*chema-era:*” = ‘forgive (cf. Hindi) away’. “*era:*” by itself means to throw away and is used affixed to many roots with the meaning of ‘out’ or ‘away’, e.g., “*hurla-era:*” = ‘throw out’.

Lesson 23 – Fuller Verb Scheme.

We have seen in earlier lessons some of the most commonly used verb forms. With these we can express most common concepts. However, the Ho language expresses subtle ways of qualifying actions which do not correspond to the tense divisions usually found in Indo-European languages. The Ho language expresses these ways of qualifying actions by infixing in the verb small roots (action-infixes, or perhaps tense infixes). There are five such action infixes: “*aka*”, “*ke*”, “*le*”, “*ta*”, “*a*”. Then besides these there is a simple form undetermined by any of the shades of action indicated by the action-infixes. All this will become clearer when we go through the scheme given on p. 18 and explained on p. 19. At first glance this scheme may seem involved, but when studied it will be seen that it is fairly simple, at least to identify forms, since there are regular simple patterns running throughout the whole scheme. However, translating and properly using these forms is one of the most difficult parts of the Ho language. In the beginning we should strive merely to identify forms used by others, and only later to use them (i.e., the more abstruse forms).

Scheme for the verb in Ho:-

Action infix + object singular (if any) + verb link (if any)

Imperative	Root	<i>aka</i>	<i>ke</i>	<i>le</i>	<i>ta</i>	<i>a</i>	simple	Subj.sign
intransitive		<i>akano:</i>	<i>keno:</i>	<i>leno:</i>				<i>me, ben, pe</i>
reflexive		<i>akano:</i>	<i>keno:</i>	<i>leno:</i>			<i>(e)n</i>	
passive		<i>akano:</i>	<i>keno:</i>	<i>leno:</i>			<i>o:</i>	
inanim. object		<i>aka:</i>	<i>ke</i>	<i>le</i>	<i>ta</i>	<i>a</i>	<i>e</i>	
animate object		<i>akaing</i>	<i>keng</i>	<i>leng</i>	<i>taing</i>	<i>aing</i>	<i>ing</i>	
		<i>akam(e)</i>	<i>kem</i>	<i>lem</i>	<i>tam</i>	<i>am(e)</i>)	<i>me</i>	
		<i>akai</i>	<i>kī</i>	<i>lī</i>	<i>tai</i>	<i>ai</i>	<i>ī</i>	
		<i>akalang</i>	<i>kelang</i>	<i>lelang</i>	<i>talang</i>	<i>alang</i>	<i>lang</i>	
		<i>akaling</i>	<i>keling</i>	<i>leling</i>	<i>taling</i>	<i>aling</i>	<i>ling</i>	
		<i>akaben</i>	<i>keben</i>	<i>leben</i>	<i>taben</i>	<i>aben</i>	<i>ben</i>	
		<i>akaking</i>	<i>keking</i>	<i>lekin</i>	<i>takin</i>	<i>aking</i>	<i>king</i>	
		<i>akabu</i>	<i>kebu</i>	<i>lebu</i>	<i>tabu</i>	<i>abu</i>	<i>bu</i>	
		<i>akakale</i>	<i>kele</i>	<i>lele</i>	<i>tale</i>	<i>ale</i>	<i>le</i>	
		<i>akape</i>	<i>kepe</i>	<i>lepe</i>	<i>tape</i>	<i>ape</i>	<i>pe</i>	
		<i>akako</i>	<i>keko</i>	<i>leko</i>	<i>tako</i>	<i>ako</i>	<i>ko</i>	

N.B. some of the forms given in the scheme would be unlikely to occur when reflexive.

FUTURE (GENERAL) : merely adding the verb link “*a*” to the above scheme:-

intransitive		<i>akano:wa</i>	<i>keno:w a</i>	<i>leno:wa</i>			<i>a</i>	<i>ng,m,e,lang ...</i>
reflexive		<i>akano:wa</i>	<i>keno:w a</i>	<i>leno:wa</i>			<i>(e)na</i>	
passive		<i>akano:wa</i>	<i>keno:w a</i>	<i>leno:wa</i>			<i>owa:</i>	
inanim. object		<i>aka:</i>	<i>keya</i>	<i>leya</i>	<i>ta:</i>	<i>a:</i>	<i>eya</i>	
animate object		<i>akainga</i>	<i>kenga</i>	<i>lenga</i>	<i>tainga</i>	<i>ainga</i>	<i>inga</i>	
		<i>akam(ey) a</i>	<i>kema</i>	<i>lema</i>	<i>tama</i>	<i>am(ey) a</i>	<i>meya</i>	
		<i>akaiya</i>	<i>kiya</i>	<i>liya</i>	<i>taiya</i>	<i>aiya</i>	<i>īya</i>	
		<i>akalanga</i>	<i>kelanga</i>	<i>lelanga</i>	<i>talang a</i>	<i>alanga</i>	<i>langa</i>	
		<i>akalinga</i>	<i>kelinga</i>	<i>lelinga</i>	<i>taling a</i>	<i>alinga</i>	<i>linga</i>	
		<i>akabena</i>	<i>keben</i>	<i>lebena</i>	<i>tabena</i>	<i>abena</i>	<i>bena</i>	
		<i>akakinga</i>	<i>keking</i>	<i>lekinga</i>	<i>taking a</i>	<i>akinga</i>	<i>kinga</i>	
		<i>akabuwa</i>	<i>kebuwa</i>	<i>lebuwa</i>	<i>tabuw a</i>	<i>abuwa</i>	<i>buwa</i>	
		<i>akakaley a</i>	<i>keleya</i>	<i>leleya</i>	<i>taleya</i>	<i>aleya</i>	<i>leya</i>	
		<i>akapeya</i>	<i>kepeya</i>	<i>lepeya</i>	<i>tapeya</i>	<i>apeya</i>	<i>peya</i>	
		<i>akakowa</i>	<i>kekowa</i>	<i>lekowa</i>	<i>takow a</i>	<i>akowa</i>	<i>kowa</i>	

PAST:								
intransitive		<i>akana</i>	<i>kena</i>	<i>lena</i>	<i>(tana)</i>	<i>ana</i>	<i>(e)yana</i>	<i>ng,m,e,l ang...</i>
reflexive		<i>akana</i>	<i>kena</i>	<i>lena</i>		<i>ana</i>	<i>(e)yana</i>	
passive		<i>akana</i>	<i>kena</i>	<i>lena</i>			<i>(e)yana</i>	
inanim. obj.		<i>akada</i>	<i>keda</i>	<i>leda</i>	<i>tada</i>	<i>ada</i>	<i>ada</i>	
anim. obj.		<i>akadinga</i>	<i>kidinga</i>	<i>lidinga</i>	<i>tadinga</i>	<i>adinga</i>	<i>adinga</i>	
		<i>akadmeya</i>	<i>kedmey a</i>	<i>ledmey a</i>	<i>tadmey a</i>	<i>admey a</i>	<i>admeya</i>	
		<i>aka:iya</i>	<i>ki:ya</i>	<i>li:ya</i>	<i>ta:iya</i>	<i>a:iya</i>	<i>a:īya</i>	
		<i>akadlanga</i>	<i>kedlang a</i>	<i>ledlang a</i>	<i>tadlang a</i>	<i>adlang a</i>	<i>adlanga</i>	

		<i>akadlinga</i>	<i>kedling</i> <i>a</i>	<i>ledlinga</i>	<i>tadling</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adling</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adlinga</i>	
		<i>akadbena</i>	<i>kedben</i> <i>a</i>	<i>ledbena</i>	<i>tadbena</i>	<i>adben</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adbena</i>	
		<i>akadkinga</i>	<i>kedking</i> <i>a</i>	<i>ledking</i> <i>a</i>	<i>tadking</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adking</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adkinga</i>	
		<i>akadbuwa</i>	<i>kebuwa</i>	<i>ledbuw</i> <i>a</i>	<i>tadbuw</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adbuw</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adbuwa</i>	
		<i>akadkaley</i> <i>a</i>	<i>kedleya</i>	<i>ledleya</i>	<i>tadleya</i>	<i>adleya</i>	<i>adleya</i>	
		<i>akadpeya</i>	<i>kedpeya</i>	<i>ledpeya</i>	<i>tadpeya</i>	<i>adpey</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adpeya</i>	
		<i>akadkowa</i>	<i>kedkow</i> <i>a</i>	<i>ledkow</i> <i>a</i>	<i>tadkow</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adkow</i> <i>a</i>	<i>adkowa</i>	

There is also a PRESENT CONTINUOUS TENSE formed by adding “*tan*” before the “*a*” verb link throughout the simple column of the future (general) tense. The other action infixes may have a general (= future) tense, but no continuous present.

“*Taikena*” may be added to “*tan*” present forms as well as to many of the past forms can translate an action which was taking place relative to some past action

“*Aka*” – denotes the continuation of some action, often translated in English by “keep”. Therefore, reading down the “*aka*” column of the scheme we could get:-

Imperative	-intrans.etc.:	“ <i>dubakano:pe</i> ”	‘Keep sitting’
	-inanim.obj.:	“ <i>horoakape</i> ”	‘Keep guarding (it)’
	-animate·obj.:	“ <i>horoakakope</i> ”	‘Keep guarding them’
Future	-intrans.etc.:	“ <i>dubakano:wale</i> ”	‘We will keep sitting’
	-inanim.obj.:	“ <i>horoaka:le</i> ”	‘We will keep guarding (it)’
	-animate·obj.:	“ <i>horoakakowale</i> ”	‘We will keep guarding them’
Past	-intrans.etc.:	“ <i>dubakanale</i> ”	‘We are sitting (we have kept sitting)’
	-inanim. obj.:	“ <i>horoakadale</i> ”	‘We have continued to guard (it)’
	-animate obj.:	“ <i>horoakadkowale</i> ”	‘We have continued to guard them’

“*Ke*” - denotes doing the action before something else, or especially with verbs meaning to carry along with something else. In the past it means a completed action

Imperative	-intrans.etc.:	“ <i>abungkeno:pe</i> ”	‘Wash up first’
	-inanim.obj.:	“ <i>jomkepe</i> ”	‘Eat first’
	-animate·obj.:	“ <i>sabkekope</i> ”	‘Catch them first’
Future	-intrans.etc.:	“ <i>abungkeno:wale</i> ”	‘We will wash up first’
	-inanimate.obj	“ <i>jomkeyale</i> ”	‘We will eat first’
	-animite obj.:	“ <i>sabkekowale</i> ”	‘We will catch them first’
Past	-intrans.etc.:	“ <i>abungkenale</i> ”	‘We washed up’
	-inanim. obj.:	“ <i>jomkedale</i> ”	‘We ate’
	-animate obj.:	“ <i>sabkedkowale</i> ”	‘We caught them’

“Le” - in the imperative and future denotes breaking off something being done in order to do something else (and then return to the original action); in the past it denotes an action done, the effect of which has been changed or at least is not being averred to.

Imperative	-intrans.etc.:	<i>“huju;lenu:pe”</i>	‘Interrupt that and come’
	-inanim. obj.:	<i>“sablepe</i>	‘Interrupt that and catch it’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“sablekope</i>	‘Interrupt that and catch them’
Future	-intrans.etc.:	<i>“huju:lenu:wale</i>	‘We will interrupt this and come’
	-inanim. obj.:	<i>“sableyalc</i>	‘We will interrupt this and catch it’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“sablekowale</i>	‘We will interrupt this and catch them’
Past	-intrans.etc.:	<i>“huju:lenuale</i>	‘We came (& are busy with something else)’
	-inanim.obj.:	<i>“sabledale</i>	‘We caught it’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“sabledkowale</i>	‘We caught them’

“Tu” - denotes an effective, firm action. In the past it denotes a fairly recently put action the effect of which still remains. This is not used in the intransitive etc. Actually, by a parallel form with *“aka”*, *“ke”*, and *“le”* the past intransitive would be *“tan”*. This has come to be used for the continuous present. Other forms =

Imperative	-inanim.obj.:	<i>“emtape”</i>	‘Put it definitely.’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“emtakope”</i>	‘Put them definitely.’
Future	-inanim. obj.:	<i>“emta:le”</i>	‘We will definitely put it.’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“emtakowale”</i>	‘We will definitely put them.’
Past	-inanim.obj.:	<i>“emtadale”</i>	‘We put it (& it is still there).’
	-animate. obj.:	<i>“ematadkowale”</i>	‘We put them (& they are still there).’

“a” - denotes a communicated action or an action done for another. In the intransitive past it denotes an action done with some special benefit to oneself. The intransitive imperative and future are not used. Therefore we have:-

Imperative	-inanim.obj.:	<i>“emape”</i>	‘Give to (when no object sign inserted).’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“emakope”</i>	‘Give to them.’
Future	-inanim.obj.:	<i>“ema:le”</i>	‘We will give (when no obj. sign inserted).’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“emakowale”</i>	‘We will give to them’,
Past	-intrans. etc.:	<i>“nelanale”</i>	‘We two own benefit (or luck) saw it’.
	-inanim. obj.:	<i>“emadale”</i>	‘We gave to (when no obj. sign inserted).’
	-animate obj.:	<i>“emakowale”</i>	‘We gave to them’.

Simple: i.e., When there is no special emphasis or determination to the action (of the type given above). We have seen elsewhere the use of this in all cases of the imperative and the future tense, and also in the past tense for intransitives, etc. There remains only:-

Past	-inanim.obj.:	<i>“neladale</i>	‘We saw it’ (at some time or other).
	-animate obj.:	<i>“neladkowale</i>	‘We saw them’ (at some time or other).

These nuances of meanings would not always have to be translated as such. Often this would merely be understood. Some grammars try to give separate tense names for each situation above. I see no need. Intransitive as used above refers to the Ho form. Occasionally (e.g., *“nelanale”* above) the English translation would be transitive.

As indicated in the scheme, for verb forms using action infixes besides the imperative we have only two basic tenses, the future or general tense (as was explained for the simple future, the future tense with

any action-infix can also be used in a general sense), and the past tense. Some grammars try to give separate tense names for each action-infix in each tense. I don't find this helpful.

Besides this we have the continuous present, using the “*tan*” infix. As Indicated in an earlier lesson this “*tan*” infix can be introduced after the object sign (if any) of any simple future or “*a*” infix verb form to indicate something actually taking place now. Originally this “*tan*” was evidently a part of the “*ta*” scheme, but at some stage it was extended to its present use even in cases where there is an expressed object. That this is probably a relatively recent development is indicated by the fact that the Ho usage differs from both the Mundari and Santali usage.

There are also imperfect forms adding “*taikena*” not only to “*tan*” as earlier explained, but also to “*akan*” forms and theoretically at least to all of the past tense forms to indicate an action taking place during an earlier action which is being discussed. These “*taikena*” forms are rarely heard in Ho. In Mundari they are more frequently heard.

Some brief comments on the 6 columns (the 5 infixes plus the simple form) given on an earlier page:- (We presuppose here the explanation given earlier.

“*aka*” :- In an earlier lesson we showed this form in the past tense (“*akana*”, “*akada*”) referring to an action begun previously and still going on. “*aka*” forms can also be used for an action to begin now and continue into the future (imperative and future or general), e.g., ‘Keep sitting there’. = “*Enre dubakano:me*”.

“*ke*” :- We treated this for the past tense transitive (“*ked*”) in lesson 18., and for the past tense intransitive (“*ken*”) in lesson 19. Here we also give the imperative and future or general uses of “*ke*” as explained earlier in these notes. The past tense uses of the “*ke*” infix are very common, but the imperative and future uses are rather uncommon.

“*le*” :- We referred to this in chapter 18 (“*led*”) and chapter 19 (“*len*”), both referring to a past action. In the imperative and future, it is heard in sentences such as “*huju:leno:me*” = ‘leave what you are doing and come here for a while’. – or “*keyalipe*” = ‘You (pl.) leave what you are doing and call him (then resume what you were doing)’.

“*ta*”:- cf. the comment given above about the present continuous tense, which was originally surely part of the *ta* scheme “*ta*” forms are used in all tenses (imperative, future or general, past) fairly often. The implication in general is one of a definite firm action, -in the past an action recently but the effects of which still remain. This shade of emphasis is usually untranslatable in English, and in the imperative and future or general, its use is often hardly distinguishable from that of the simple usage, e.g., “*uru:talem*” or “*uru:lem*” = ‘have mercy on us’ vary only in the fact that the former is a bit more emphatic.

“*a*”:- We treated this “*a*” infix earlier as a function (taking indirect object) of the simple imperative and future. There are advantages to having treated it as we previously did (the main advantage being that this explains “*tan*” forms being used after this “*a*”, e.g., “*emamtanaing*” = ‘I am giving it to you’. - However, there are also advantages to understanding “*a*” as an action-infix. This explains its form when no personal object sign is inserted after it, e.g., “*ini: emame*” = ‘Give it to him’. (This “*a*” without an expressed object sign is used fairly frequently in Ho). Also it makes the past tense forms in “*ada*” and “*ana*” more reasonable.

In lesson 18 we showed the use of “*ad*” in the past tense when there is an indirect object. “*emadingako*” = ‘They gave it to me’. In the scheme we also give a past tense form “*ana*”. This would be used e.g., in “*jonanaing*”. ‘I managed to get myself something to eat’ (e.g., in circumstances such as an overcrowded marriage feast, where it would be doubtful whether I would get something to eat) or “*nelanaIng*” = ‘I to my good fortune or benefit happened to see it’. There is always some special good fortune or benefit implied for the subject, and just as in other cases the “*a*” infix implies something done for the benefit of someone else. In this case it implies something done for the benefit of the subject, a reflexive benefit, for which an “*n*” form is reasonable, even though this form usually translates a transitive verb in English. - Just as in other indirect object uses the indirect object sign rather than the direct object sign is usually included in the verb. e.g., “*emadkowaing*” - ‘I gave it to them’. Here also the reflexive

object sign is included., “*nelanaing*” = ‘I to my good fortune saw it’. The very commonly used “*adāna*.” = ‘know’ is probably such a construction. “*kaing adana*” = ‘I don’t know’. (I haven’t had the benefit of knowing. cf. Latin and Greek where the concept of knowing takes a past tense). (but cf. Hoffman., Ency. Mun. Vol. A. p.28 who explains this in another way. cf. the following paragraph.)

There are also verb forms in Ho ending in “*ana*” which are otherwise explained and do not fit into the scheme above. In Ho adjectives can be formed from some nouns by adding, “*an*” to the noun. These adjectives have the connotation of possessing, having, e.g., “*bar katān (kata & an) kula*” = a two legged tiger, (e.g., a thief) “*marang bō:wan hō*” = a man with a big head. “*pē:yan*” = having power (powerful), “*gonongan*” - having a price or value (valuable). As is true of any other adjective we can affix the verb-link “*a*” to these to translate “is”, etc., e.g., He is powerful = “*pē:yanāe*”. That man is big-headed. = “*En hō marang bō:wanae*”. That stone is valuable. = “*En diri gonongan*”, etc.

The simple form:- We gave the full scheme for the imperative of this simple form (undetermined by any special nuances of meaning implied by the other affixes) after lesson 10. Then immediately after that we gave its uses for the future (and present continuous) on. Its past tense (intransitive, reflexive and passive) uses in “(e)*yana*” we gave in lesson 19. The only new form here is the past usages in “*ad*”. This gives the meaning of ‘at some time or other in the past’. This form was probably originally “*ed*”, since the corresponding Santali form is still “*ed*” and this would give a perfect correspondence in the scheme between the inanimate object imperative (*aka, ke, le, ta, a, e*) and the inanimate object past (*akada, keda, leda, tada, ada, eda*). This form “*ada*” would be used in sentences such as ‘Did you (at some time or other) read this book?’ = “*Nen kitabem parauada chi?*” The “*ad*” construction in the past is very commonly used with “*nel*” – ‘Have you seen my book?’ = “*Ainga: kitabem nelada chi?*”. ‘Have you seen my son?’ = “*Ainga: honem nela:iya (nela:ya.) chi?*”

With this we have completed the general outline of the Ho verb. In chapters 24, 25, and 26 we will see some more verb usages, followed in chapter 27 by the use of the participle.

Lesson 24 - Verb forms to express something repeatedly or habitually done.

In Ho to express something done repeatedly, habitually, or customarily there are two ways of adapting the root: -

a) When the root begins with a consonant, this consonant and the vowel following it are written twice (reduplicated), the vowel often being lengthened, especially when bringing out an habitual way of acting. - When the first letter is a vowel sometimes (but rarely, cf. b.) the first vowel is repeated. E.g. :-

“ <i>jom</i> ” = ‘eat’	“ <i>jōjom</i> ” = ‘repeatedly eat’.
“ <i>sen</i> ” = ‘walk’	“ <i>sēsen</i> ” = ‘repeatedly walk’.
“ <i>ayer</i> ” = ‘lead’	“ <i>ā-ayer</i> ” = ‘repeatedly lead’.
“ <i>ur</i> ” = ‘dig’	“ <i>ū-ur</i> ” = ‘repeatedly dig’, (“ <i>ū-urteya</i> ” something used for digging).

b) For words beginning either with a vowel or a consonant, the first vowel is lengthened, without reduplication, e.g.,

“ <i>denga</i> ” = ‘help’	“ <i>dēnga</i> ” = ‘habitually help’.
“ <i>horo</i> ” = ‘guard’	“ <i>hōro</i> ” = ‘habitually guard’.
“ <i>id</i> ” = ‘take’	“ <i>īd</i> ” = ‘habitually take’.
“ <i>em</i> ” = ‘give’	“ <i>ēm</i> ” = ‘habitually give’.

This reduplication or lengthening of the first vowel seems to be done only for one or two syllable words. In fact reduplicating words beginning with consonants seems most common for one syllable words.

The reduplicated form stresses more a repeated action, whereas the lengthening of the first vowel stresses more a habitual or customary action. However, there are some cases where either could be used, e.g., “*Ae: uri:-jilu kae: jōna (jōjana)*” = ‘He doesn’t eat beef’ (as his habitual way of acting).

Some other examples which will help bring out these usages:-

“*Hōko erako lagid gonongko ēma*” = ‘Hos give a bride price for their wives’.

“ <i>Bingko alope sāsaba (sāba)</i> ”.	=	‘Don’t take hold of snakes’.
“ <i>Teliko sunumko lēna</i> ”.	=	‘Telis press oil (as their regular way of life)’.
“ <i>Pēyainko lija:ko tēnga</i> ”.	=	‘Weavers weave clothe’.
“ <i>Nen seta esui: būbu:wa</i> ”.	=	‘This dog is constantly barking’.
“ <i>Nen kula esui: rāra:</i> ”.	=	‘This tiger is constantly growling’.
“ <i>En owa:re hero: porobre bodako bōnga</i> ”.	=	‘In that house they sacrifice a goat on the <i>hero:</i> ’ (feast) (as their regular habit).
“ <i>Haku jālomko</i> ”.	=	‘fishermen’(who use nets).

This lengthening of the first vowel to express something habitually or customarily done is certainly used among the Hos (and this is an added reason why in Ho some convention is needed in Devanagri to show long vowels, including long “ē” and long “ō”), however sometimes a simple general tense is used where we would expect an habitual form.

There are no tense changes for these verbs. They are used only in the general tense. - Normally they take no object sign, e.g., “*jilu kae: jōma.*” (not “*jōmeya*”) = ‘He doesn’t eat meat’.

Another way to express a repeated action in certain cases is to repeat the whole root, e.g., “*Nir-nirtanae:*” = ‘He keeps running’. This form is used frequently in phrases such as the following:-

“*Landa-landatanteko seno:yana.*” = ‘They went away laughing’.

“*Durang-durangtante hujū:tana.*” = ‘They are coming singing’.

(This “*te*” ending will be seen in a later lesson). Sometimes along with the root part of the verb form will be repeated., e.g., “*tamītan-tamītante pora:chabaki:ya.*” = ‘By repeatedly whipping him they completely flayed him’ (tore off his skin).

Lesson 25 - verb forms using postposition markers

In this lesson we will treat some verb forms containing markers which are used as postpositions. We divide this into two parts. First we treat verb forms for being in a place, going to a place, or coming from a place using the postpositions *-re*, *-te*, and *-ete* in that order. Then we will treat of some verb forms containing *-te* in an instrumental sense.

A. Verb forms using postpositions “*re*” (in), “*te*” (to), and “*ete*” (from)

In an earlier lesson we treated the use of these three postpositions. We saw such usages as “*Owa:re mena:ya*” = ‘He is in the house’; “*Hātote seno:tanae*” = ‘He is going to the market’; “*Okonētem hujū:tana?*” = ‘From where are you coming?’. In all such cases it is more idiomatic to omit any such verb as “*mena:ya, seno:tanae, hujū:tana*”, and to form verbs by putting first the noun or pronoun with the postposition suffixed, followed by the subject marker, followed by the tense marker (if any), and then finally placing the mood marker, “*-a*”, at the end of the word.

1) First we will treat verbs formed from the postposition, “*-re*”, = ‘in’.
These are found only in the generic or future tense.

‘I am in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: ringa.</i> ”
‘you (sg.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: rem(ey)a.</i> ”
‘he is in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: ri: ya.</i> ”
‘we (dl. in.cl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: relana.</i> ”
‘we (dl. excl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: retina.</i> ”
‘you (dl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: reb.ina.</i> ”
‘they (dl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: rekina.</i> ”
‘we (pl. incl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa : rebuwa.</i> ”
‘we (pl. excl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: releya.</i> ”
‘you (pl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: repeya.</i> ”
‘they (pl.) are in the house’.	=	“ <i>owa: rekowa.</i> ”

In the same way we could say: - ‘He is in the house’. = “*Owa:ri:ya*”. ‘They are in jail’. = “*Jelrekowa*”.

In a metaphorical sense we could say; ‘I am in great pain’. = “*Esu dukuringa*”. ‘They, are in great joy’. = “*Esu rānsarekowa*”.

2) Next we will treat verbs formed from the postposition, “-te”, = ‘to’. These are found in the generic or future tense, in the present continuous tense, and in the past tense. We will develop these three tenses for the phrase ‘Where will I go?’ or ‘Where do I go?’ (future or generic tense); ‘Where am I going?’ (present continuous tense) and ‘Where did I go?’ (past tense).

subject	generic tense	present tense	past tense
1 st singular	“ <i>okontinga</i> ”	“ <i>okontingtana</i> ”	“ <i>okontingeyana</i> ”
2 nd singular	“ <i>okontem(ey)a</i> ”	“ <i>okontemtana</i> ”	“ <i>okontemeyana</i> ”
3 rd singular	“ <i>okontīya</i> ”	“ <i>okonti:tana</i> ”	“ <i>okonti:yana/okonti:ya</i> ”
1 st dual inclusive	“ <i>okontelanga</i> ”	“ <i>okontetelangtana</i> ”	“ <i>okontelangeyana</i> ”

etc. substituting -ling, -ben, -king, -bu, -le, -pe, -ko for -lang in the final form given above.

N.B. At least as currently used near Chaibasa the 3rd singular of the generic tense has the form – “*tīya*” (*ī* long and not checked), whereas the present (“-*ti:tana*”) and the past (“-*ti:yana*”) have a checked “*i:*”. Also a form with a checked *i:* and the tense marker -yan dropped (“*ti:ya*”) is sometimes used for the past. E.g., ‘He went to the mountain’. = “*Buruti:yana*” or “*Buruti:ya*”.

This verb form is used not only to translate ‘to’ meaning motion toward, but also to translate ‘to’ in a purpose sense, e.g., “*Oranti:yana*”, = ‘He has gone to bathe’; “*Diri ortekotana*”, = ‘They are going to bring (pull) a stone (for a grave)’. In such constructions object markers are not included, e.g., “*Kula neltekoyana*”, = ‘They went to see the tiger’ (not “*Kula nelītekoyana*”).

3) Next we will treat verbs formed from the postposition, “-ete” = ‘from’. This seems to be used only in the generic tense, which could be translated e.g., ‘from where do they come’, or ‘from where are they coming’, and ‘from where have they come’. These three vary very little in meaning.

‘From where do I come?’	“ <i>Okonētinga</i> ”.
‘From where do you (sg.) come?’	“ <i>Okonētem(ey)a</i> ”.
‘From where does he come?’	“ <i>Okonēti:ya</i> ” (N.B. <i>i:</i> checked).
‘From where do we (dl. incl.) come?’	“ <i>Okonētelanga</i> ”.

etc. substituting -ling, -ben, -king, -bu, -le, -pe, -ko for -lang in the final form given above.

In the same way we could say: “*Hatuitekowa*”, = ‘They are coming from the village’. “*Owa: eti:ya*”, = ‘He comes from home’.

B. VERB FORMS USING “-te” IN AN INSTRUMENTAL SENSE.

The postposition “-te” in an instrumental sense is sometimes inserted in a verb form rather than appended to a noun or pronoun. Such expressions can usually be translated in English by ‘use for’ followed by the verb, e.g., ‘use for sowing’, ‘use for ploughin’, etc. The verb root is given + postposition marker, “-te”, + the mood marker, “-a”. In these cases an object marker is not used after the verb root, but in certain cases an object marker may be inserted after the “-te” marker, (see example 5 below). Some examples of this construction :-

- 1) “*Hōko baba her lagi4, miya4, tunki: ko saitibaya. Enado babageko hertēya ondo: enēte jāna: do kako ēmteya*” = ‘People keep one basket for sowing. They use that for sowing and after that they don’t use it for putting anything else’.
- 2) “*Poysa namo: redo hap anumko ja lija: reyoko kirint ya*”. = ‘If money is gotten young

girls will use it to buy some clothes or other things’.

- 3) “*Baba ata ondo: moroe: jangko kiringeya, ondo: diyangko nūtanre diyangko chakaratēya*”. = ‘They buy puffed rice and “*chana*” and use these as flavouring while drinking rice beer’.
- 4) “*Enado katae: tegantēya*”. = ‘He uses that as a footstool’.
- 5) “*Uri: ko tikin jakedko siyu:tekowa*”. = ‘They use the cattle for ploughing (ploughing with the cattle) until noon’. (Here the object marker “-*ko*” is inserted after “-*te*”).

In some cases a past tense construction is used with a “-*ken*” aspect marker, e.g. “*Enageko herkentēya*”. = ‘They used that (basket) for sowing’.

In some cases also a present continuous tense can be done by inserting the present tense marker, “-*tan*”, immediately before the mood marker, “-*a*”, e.g., “*Uri: ko nā:ko siyu:tekotana*”. = ‘They are now using the cattle for ploughing’.

There are some other colloquial usages which take a “-*te*” marker followed by a personal object marker in cases which have a less obvious connotation of instrumentality, but which are developed in the same way. Certain experiential verbs (see Lesson 26) take this type of construction using a “-*te*” marker. e.g., “*rānsatekowae:*” (*ā* long). = ‘He takes delight in them’ (He loves them). “*borotīyako*”. = ‘They are afraid of him’. The forms used in this case are the same as those used in section A2) of this lesson. This “-*te*” construction forms with these verbs of experiencing are used in the imperative, the generic tense and the present continuous tense. (Not in the past tense. For this alternate constructions would be used, cf. Lesson 26).

E.g., :-

imperative - “*Hanko sukutekom*” = ‘Be pleased with the children’.

future - “*Honkong sukutekowa*”, = ‘I will be pleased with the children’.

present cont. - “*Honkong sututekotana*”, = ‘I am being pleased with the children’.

It is also possible to have an inanimate object as follows:- “*Bākoe: sukuteya*”, = ‘He is pleased with the flowers’.

Another verb usage of the “-*te*” postposition is in the following phrases:-

“*Chikan nutumtema?*” = ‘What is your name?’ (‘by what name are you ...?’) One would answer e.g., “*Soma nutumtina*”. = ‘My name is Soma’. In the 3rd person singular we would get:- “*Chikan nutumtīya?*” = ‘What is his name?’ “*Kili*” (*clan*) can be used in the same way; “*Chikan kilitepeya?*” = ‘What are your (plural) *kilis*?’ (*clan* names).

In certain cases a “-*te*” marker is used with an “-*akan*” aspect marker as follows:-

“*nelakantingako*” = ‘they keep looking at me’. Therefore, we have the verb root, + aspect marker “-*akan*”, + “-*te*”, + personal object marker + mood marker, “-*a*”. More examples:-

“*Ayumakantemako*”, = ‘They keep listening to you’.

“*Emakantīyako*”, = ‘They keep giving to him’.

This construction is usually heard with the verbs “*nel*”, ‘see’, or “*ayum*”, ‘hear’, but it is occasionally heard with other verbs also.

LESSON 26- EXPERIENTIAL VERBS

Verbs denoting physical sensations, or emotional or mental states, are called experiential verbs. These verbs imply both a personal experiencer, who undergoes the experience, and an object which expresses the content of, or the stimulus for, the experience.

In Ho these verbs occur in two kinds of constructions;- an impersonal construction in which the experiencer is the direct object, and a personal construction in which the experiencer is the subject of the verb.

1) IMPERSONAL CONSTRUCTION: EXPERIENCER AS DIRECT OBJECT.

In the impersonal construction the experiencer is placed into the verb form as the direct object, and the subject position is left vacant. In English we have some like usages:- e.g., ‘it grieves me’; ‘it pains me to think that...’; ‘it pleases me’.

Some examples of the Ho usage: “*Renge:ngtana*”, = ‘I feel hungry’; “*Sanangmetana*”, = ‘You desire’; “*Sukuitana*”, = ‘It pleases him’; “*Bō: Hasungtana*”, = ‘feel a head ache’ (‘it pains me as to the head’. In Ho a part of the body is often put as a point of reference e.g., ‘in reference to the head’, rather than subject or object).

These verbs can have a future or generic tense and a present continuous tense, and a past tense as follows :-

	future/generic	present continuous	past
it pains-me	“ <i>hasunga</i> ”	“ <i>hasungtana</i> ”	“ <i>hasukidinga</i> ”
I desire	“ <i>sananginga</i> ”	“ <i>sanangingtana</i> ”	“ <i>sanangkidinga</i> ”
it pleases me	“ <i>sukunga</i> ”	“ <i>sukungtana</i> ”	“ <i>sukukidinga</i> ”
I feel hungry	“ <i>reng:nga</i> ”	“ <i>reng:ngtana</i> ”	“ <i>reng:kidinga</i> ”

The construction given above where the experiencer is put as object stresses strongly the emotional or physical impact on the experiencer.

2) PERSONAL CONSTRUCTION: EXPERIENCER AS SUBJECT

- (a) In the simple personal construction, there is no object expressed, and the experiencer is subject of the verb. Like the impersonal construction this expresses a state, but in this case the focus seems to be more upon the state than the impact of that state upon the experiencer. This construction usually takes a “-*tan*” construction, e.g.,

“*Hasutanang*” = ‘I am sick’.

“*Rabangtanang*” = ‘I am cold’.

“*Sukutanako*” = ‘They are pleased’.

- (b) Such forms are frequently used in a personal construction with the inchoative marker “-*o*.” (Lesson 8) to indicate a coming into an experiential state, and are usually translated by using the word ‘become’. We will give some examples of this in the present and future state:-

“*Lagawo:tanae*.”, = ‘He is becoming tired’; “*Lagawo:wae*.”, = ‘He will become tired’; “*Kurkuro:tanang*”, = ‘I am becoming angry’; “*Kurkuro:wang*”, = ‘I will become angry’; “*Hasū:tanam*” (= “*Hasu-o:-tanam*”), = ‘You are becoming sick’; “*Hasū:wam*”, = ‘You will become sick’.

This construction takes “-(*e*)*yana*” (Lesson 16) in the past tense, e.g., “*Lagayanae*.”, = ‘He became tired’; “*Kurkureyanang*”, = ‘I became angry’; “*Hasuyanam*”, = ‘You became sick’.

- (c) Some experiential verbs can also be used in a personal construction taking a reflexive verb form with the marker “-(*e*)*n*”. This brings out the idea of the subject producing the experiential state in himself e.g. :-

“*Rāsantanang*”, (“*ā*” long) = ‘I am enjoying myself’.

“*Kurllurentanae*.” = ‘He is exciting himself to anger’.

“*Giyu:ntanang*”, = ‘I am bringing shame on myself’, or ‘I am being bashful (shy)’.

- (d) Some of these verbs of experiencing can also refer to some person in respect to whom the emotion is felt, e.g., ‘I am delighted with them (I love them)’; ‘I am afraid of them (I fear them)’; ‘I am pleased with them’.

Since experiential verbs can take the experiencer as object, they usually use some alternate construction to indicate another person in respect to whom the emotion is felt. Several verbs take two alternate constructions e.g., “*suku*”, = ‘be pleased with’ takes a “-*te*” construction or an “-*a*” construction, “*sukutekowang*” or “*sukitwakowang*”, = ‘I am pleased with them’. (for the use of the “-*te*” construction see Lesson 25 B and for the use of the “-*a*” construction see Lesson 17, “-*a*” aspect marker).

We give here a list of some of the main verbs so used and the constructions which they take.

“ <i>rāsa</i> ” (<i>ā</i> long) = ‘take delight in’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>suku</i> ” = ‘be pleased with’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>boro</i> ” = ‘be afraid of’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>hila</i> ” = ‘hate’, ‘despise’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>landa</i> ” = ‘make fun of’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>kurkur</i> ” = ‘be angry at’	takes “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>giyu:</i> ” = ‘be ashamed of’	takes “- <i>a</i> ” constr.
“ <i>owa</i> ” = ‘be mildly displeased with’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or dir. obj.
“ <i>uru:</i> ” = ‘have mercy on’	takes “- <i>te</i> ” constr. or dir. obj.

N.B. The last two verbs given above can use an object marker for the person in respect to whom the emotion is felt, e.g., ‘I am mildly displeased with them’ = “*ōwatekowang*” or “*ōwakowang*”; ‘He has mercy on us’ = “*Uru: teleya*” or “*Uru: leya*”.

3) PERSONAL CONSTRUCTION USING *a*/kar or *·ada*.

A third way to express notions of experience is to retain the experiencer as object, use an experiential noun (joy, fear, etc.) as direct object with a verb root meaning perceive, feel, experience. The verbs commonly so used are “*atkar*” and “*ada*”. In these cases the verb is transitive in form, e.g.,

“*Rāsang*” (*ā* long) “*adaetana*” = ‘I am feeling joy’.
 “*Boroko atkarkeda*” = ‘They felt fear’.

N.B. “*Atkar*” and “*ada*” can in turn be used with the experiencer as direct object in phrases such as:-

“*Boro adakidinga*” = ‘I felt fear’.
 “*Giyu: adakotana*” = ‘They are feeling shame’.

We will give here a list of the roots most commonly used in experiential verbs. Such roots fit into two main categories: A) roots of emotion, and B) roots of physical sensation.

A) ROOTS CONNOTING EMOTION: For these we give the noun meaning.

- 1) “*rānsa*” (*ā* long) = ‘joy, delight’. The verb form is often used with the “-*te*” infix to translate ‘love’. ‘He loves children’ = “*Honkoe: rānsatekowa*”.
- 2) “*rasika*” - a synonym of “*rānsa*”. In ordinary conversation “*rānsa*” is more common. “*Rasika*” is more poetical.
- 3) “*suku*” = ‘pleasure, happiness’.
- 4) “*kurkur*” = ‘anger’.
- 5) “*giyu:*” = ‘shame, shyness, bashfulness’.
- 6) “*sanang*” = ‘desire’.
- 7) “*haya*” = ‘strong desire; greed, covetousness’.
- 8) “*duku*” = ‘grief’ (from any kind of pain, physical or emotional)
- 9) “*mon-duku*” = ‘sadness, (mental) grief’.
- 10) “*beteng*” = ‘a start, startle’: in forms “*Beteningtana*”, = ‘I start (startle)’; “*Betengo: tanang*” = ‘I am becoming startled’.
- 11) “*akadanda*” = ‘amazement, astonishment’.
- 12) “*hilang*” = ‘disgust’.

- 13) "*boro*" = 'fear'.
- 14) "*ada*" = a verb root meaning 'know', 'experience' (see section 3 above).
- 15) "*atkar*" = a verb root meaning 'perceive', 'experience'.
- 16) "*hiyating*" = 'pity'.
- 17) "*uru*;" = 'thought, concern, worry'. Since this is a much used root we will give some of its main verb usages:- "*Uru:ngtana*" = 'I feel worried'; "*Uru:tanang*" = 'I am thinking (reflecting)'; "*Urū:tanang*" = 'I am becoming worried'; "*Uru:tekotanang!*" or "*Uru:kotanang*" = 'I am concerned about them' ('I have mercy on them'); "*Uru:itanang*" = 'I am worried' (transitive, therefore "*Alam uru:iya/uru:ya*" = 'Don't worry'); = "*Uru:ringa*" = 'I am in worry (I am worried)'; "*uru:ng adaetana (atkaretana)*" = 'I feel worry'.

B) ROOTS CONNOTING PHYSICAL SENSATION: for most of these we give the adjectival meaning.

- 1) "*laga*" = 'tired'.
- 2) "*rengē*;" = 'hungry'. "*Renge:ngtana*" = 'I am feeling hungry'; "*Renge:yo:tanang*" = 'I am becoming hungry'. For both of these durative (*-aka*) aspect forms are also used:- "*Renge:yakadinga*" = 'I feel hungry'. "*Renge:yakanang*", = 'I am hungry'. However the form "*Renge:tanang*" would mean 'I am poor'.
- 3) "*tetang*" = 'thirsty'.
- 4) "*rabang*" = 'cold' (esp. from cold weather).
- 5) "*sāsā*" = 'cold' (from cold water or contact with some cold object).
- 6) "*tutkun*" = 'cold' (e.g., from frost or ice).

NB. 4), 5) and 6) all take the impersonal and the inchoative construction. Also from the root "*rabang*" we get "*Rabantanang*", = 'I am cold'. However the root *sāsā* would give "*Sāsā:ng*" rather than "*Sāsātanang*", and "*tutkun*" doesn't seem to use either form).

- 7) "*lolo*" = 'hot' (e.g., from a fire, etc.) Along with the impersonal and the inchoative form the form "*lolowang*" = 'I am hot' (e.g., with a temperature) is used.
- 8) "*jete*" = 'hot' (from the sun or the heat of summer). The impersonal and inchoative forms are used, "*jetetana*", = 'it is hot'. The forms "*jetetanang*" or "*jeteyang*" are not used.
- 9) "*urgum*" = 'pleasantly warm' (e.g., in a warm blanket on a cold night). Impersonal and inchoative forms and "*Urgumang*" = 'I am warm'.
- 10) "*ugum ugum*" = 'unpleasantly warm' (e.g., in an overcrowded hot room), impersonal and inchoative forms and either "*Ugum-ugumang*" or "*Ugum-ugumtanang*" = 'I am unpleasantly warm'.
- 11) "*elang*" - (not used as adjective) "*Elangingtana*" = 'I feel the heat radiating from a fire' "*Elango:tanang*", = 'I am becoming exposed to the heat of a fire'. "*Elangtana*" = 'it (e.g., a fire) is giving off heat'. The reciprocal of this, "*epelang*" = 'bask in the sun'.
- 12) "*turtung*" - (not used as adj.) "*Turtungingtana*", 'I feel the glare' (of direct or reflected light of the sun or any bright light). "*turtungo:tanang*" = 'I am being exposed to the glare'; "*turtungtanga*" = 'it gives off bright glare'.
- 13) "*hasu*" = 'sick'. For this the reflexive form "*hasuntanae*;" (literally he makes himself sick) would mean 'he feigns sickness'.
- 14) "*landiya*" = 'lazy'; Impersonal and inchoative forms
- 15) "*balbal*" - noun meaning = 'perspiration'. "*balbalingtana*" = 'I feel uncomfortable with perspiration'. "*Balbalo:tanang*" and "*Balbaltanang*" both mean 'I am perspiring' with a slight inchoative connotation in the first term.
- 16) "*dūm-med*", or "*med,-dūm*" = 'of the eyes, heavy with sleepiness'. Used in impersonal and

in inchoative form.

- 17) “*bō:-biyun-biyun*” = (verb meaning) ‘to feel a spinning or giddy sensation in the head.’ Impersonal and inchoative usage.
- 18) “*bō:-biyur-biyur*” = ‘same in meaning and usage as “*bō:-biyung-biyung*’.
- 19) “*gamang*” = (verb meaning) ‘to feel a ticklish sensation’. Impersonal and inchoative. Also “*data gamaningtana*” = ‘I feel my teeth on edge’ (‘I have a ticklish sensation in the teeth’).
- 20) “*babata*” = (noun meaning) ‘itch’. Used in impersonal and inchoative form.
- 21) “*ā chāb*” = (literally ‘open the mouth’) is used in forms: “*ā chābingtana*”, = ‘I yawn’. “*ā chābo:tanang*” = ‘I start to yawn’ and “*āng chābtana*” = ‘I yawn’.
- 22) “*harob*” = ‘satisfied’ (of hunger or any desire). Impersonal and inchoative usages.
- 23) “*mo:*” = noun meaning ‘smoke’ is used in forms “*mo: ingtana*” = ‘feel smoke in the eyes’ (I am affected by smoke); “*mō: tanang*” (= “*mo: -o: -tan- a-ng*”) = ‘I begin to be affected by smoke’.
- 24) “*sukul*” = ‘in some places can mean ‘smoke’ and is treated as “*mo:*” above. More generally in the Ho country “*sukul*” is used only for ‘tobacco’ and “*mo:*” is the more proper word for ‘smoke’.
- 25) “*ula-mala*” = (noun meaning) ‘a feeling of oppression because of over-stuffiness’, e.g., on a hot day or in a crowd. Impersonal usage and also “*ula-malang adaetana*” = ‘I feel oppressed’.
- 26) “*rērē*” = (noun meaning) ‘a painful tingling in the legs’ (esp. of sick or anaemic people). Impersonal and inchoative usages.
- 27) “*rung*” = ‘of a limb’, ‘to be asleep’ (from being cramped in one position for a long time). Impersonal and inchoative usages.
- 28) “*rusu-rusu*” = ‘of the hairs, to stand up’ (e.g., through fear). Impersonal and inchoative usages.
- 29) “*usur*” = (verb meaning) ‘to smart’ (e.g., when iodine is put on a wound). Impersonal and inchoative usage.
- 30) the following words describing different kinds of tastes are used either with impersonal constructions or with “*ada (atkar)*”:- “*mor-oe:*” = ‘sour’ or ‘acid’ (e.g., tamarind fruits and dahi); “*mēr*”, a salty or agreeably bitter taste; “*heben*” = ‘bitter’ (e.g., an unripe mango); “*hād*” = ‘hot’ (e.g., from chillies). E.g., “*hebeningtana*” or “*hebeneng adaetana*” = ‘that tastes bitter to me’.

Lesson 27 - Compound verbs

A characteristic of the Ho language and related languages is the use of compound verbs formed by affixing one root immediately upon another to form one compound verb. Most such affixes have an independent verbal usage, but some of these are not used separately as verbs or when used as a verbal affix take on a meaning different from the meaning they have when used independently.

We will here give a list of some more commonly used verbal affixes indicating their meaning when used as a verbal affix as well as their independent usage.

- 1) “*ura*” (also but less common “*rua*”) = ‘back’ or ‘again’ (independently used “*rua*” means return). “*huju:uratanae*”; = ‘He is coming back’. “*Tingu-uranpe*” = ‘Stand up again’. (NB. in the case of all affixes the reflexive “(e)n” is at the end of the affix, not the primary verb root). “*Emuraeme*” = ‘give it back’.
- 2) “*tab*” = ‘quickly’ (not used independently). “*huju:tablenako*” = ‘they came quickly’. “*sabtabkom*”. = ‘catch hold of them quickly’.

- 3) “bā” = ‘where’ and ‘there’, from place to place, now and then. (Not used independently). “*sen-bāetanaing*” = ‘I go around from place to place’. “*Ainga: owa:te: huju:bā:*” = ‘He comes to my house from time to time’. The meaning of “bā” sometimes comes ‘to be to some extent’. “*Nen darure miyad- bariya jōbālena*” = ‘On this tree only a few fruits were produced’. “*Tāso nen sirma hobabālena*” = ‘The crop was fairly good this year’.
- 4) “*rengā*”, “*renā*” = ‘utterly’, ‘absolutely’, (strongly emphasizing the action. These have no independent verbal usages but are used affixed to adjectives, adverbs, etc.) “*goe:renāki:yae:*” = ‘He killed him absolutely’. “*seno:renāyanae:*” = ‘He absolutely went away’. “*Kajirenākedae:*” = ‘He spoke right out (e.g., perhaps when others thought he would remain silent).
- 5) “*utar, utarang*” = ‘utterly’ (in meaning and usage almost the same as “*rengā*”, “*renā*” but occasionally in common usage for certain phrases one is preferred to the other. “*Tamgoe:-utarangki:ako*” = ‘They beat him utterly to death’.
- 6) “*chaba*” = ‘completely’ used independently this means to complete). “*Jomchabakedaing*” = ‘I ate completely’ (whatever was given me to eat). ‘I finished eating’ = “*jom-sekakedaing*”, (cf. below). “*Lagachabayanaing*” = ‘I am completely exhausted’. (In such expressions the use of “*chaba*” comes close to that of “*utar*”).
- 7) “*sekā*” = ‘completely’ (used independently this means ‘to complete’, ‘make ready’, e.g., of something being made or prepared. “*Chaba*” has a much broader use of finishing anything.) “*Owa:le baisekākeda*” = ‘We completed building the house’. “*Mandile isinsekākeda*”. = ‘We completed cooking the rice’. “*Seka*” can often be translated in English by ‘already’, e.g., in such phrases as “*hobasekāyana*” = ‘It has already taken place’.
- 8) “*jati*” :- can mean a) ‘for no particular purpose’. e.g., “*huju:jatilenaing*”. = I came for no particular purpose’. And b) ‘very much’, “*jōjatiyana*” = ‘It produced much fruit’. “*jomjatikedae:*”. = ‘He ate very much’. (*jati* has no independent verbal usage, but is used with adjectives and “*ka*” etc. in the b) sense above.
- 9) “*no:*” = ‘a little’, ‘somewhat’ (no independent verbal usage, but used with adjectives, e.g., “*marangno:*” = ‘somewhat big’. “*Tamno:ki:yaing*” = ‘I hit him a bit’.
- 10) “*pura*” = ‘fully’ (used independently means to complete some action or a contract) - “*empurādkowaing*” = ‘I fully gave out (the food) to them’, (e.g., the rice, dal, salt, etc., whatever was to be given). “*Empurakedkowaing*” = ‘I distributed it fully’ (i.e., to all who were to get it). “*Singbonga sebaपुरaime*”. = ‘Worship God fully’.
- 11) “*la:*” = ‘excessively’, ‘to excess’, ‘more’ (than others, etc.) (independently- as a verb means to surpass, to give, etc., in excess) e.g., “*jomlā:kedaing*” = ‘I ate in excess’. “*senlā:kedaing*”. = ‘I went further than intended’.
- 12) “*era:*”, “*enda:*” (used independently in the sense of throwing away). a. ‘away’, ‘out’ (often connoting something being disposed of as being of no value). e.g., “*hurlaera:eme*” = ‘throw it out’. “*o:lera:me*” = ‘go out’ (e.g., telling a spirit to leave someone). (This a. meaning conforms to the independent, meaning). b) ‘utterly’, e.g., “*akadandaera:yanako*” = ‘they were utter amazed’. “*bugierā:kanako*” = ‘they are blessed’ (they have been utterly benefitted).
- 13) “*gōm*” = ‘accompany’, (used independently in the sense of to accompany). “*dubgōmakom*” = ‘sit with them’. (e.g., of someone from the host’s house sitting with guests). “*sengōmaim*” = ‘go along with him keep him company’. (N.B. “-a” aspect . marker used in these forms).

- 14) “*o:l*” = ‘out’ (used independently “*o:l*” means ‘to go out’, ‘to take out’) e.g., “*uri:ko harō:lkom*” = ‘drive out’ (e.g., the cattle); “*be:-o:l*” = ‘spit out’.
- 15) “*ader*” = ‘in’ (used independently with the meaning ‘to bring in’) e.g., “*uri:ko haraderkom*” = ‘drive the cattle in’. “*Keya-ader*” = (literally) ‘call in’. It is the term used for calling the spirit of a dead person into the sacred part (“*ading*”) of a house. “*umbul-ader*” is also used for this bringing the spirit of a dead person into the house.)
- 16) “*dāra*” = ‘along with’ (with verbs of bringing) (independently used only in that one form means ‘comes’ or ‘is coming’, e.g., “*gama dāra*” = ‘rain is coming’). “*Ranchitem seno:redo miyad nama kitab agudarāingme*” (“*agu-dāra-aing-me*”) = ‘If you go to Ranchi bring back along with you a new book for me’.
- 17) “*torsa*” = ‘along with’ (with verbs of taking) (not used independently). “*chakātem seno:- tanre nen kitab id-torsaeme*” = ‘When you are going to Chakradharpur take this book along with you’.
- 18) “*leka*” = ‘try’ (i.e., to experimentally do something to see what it is like). (independently, “*leka*” = ‘like’, ‘approximately’). “*Nen jō jomlekāme*” = ‘experimentally eat this fruit’ (eat this fruit to see what it tastes like). “*Nena sablekāme*” = ‘experimentally take hold of this’, (to experience e.g., how heavy or how hot it is). “*Nen daru aingdo kaing de:daiya, am misa de:lekāme*”. = ‘I cannot climb this tree, you try to climb it once’. “*leka*” is followed by “*-a*” aspect marker, see note on this in Lesson 17, section on “*-a*” aspect marker.
- 19) “*mād*”, or “*māng*” = ‘before’ (doing something else). (not in use independently in Ho) “*jom-mādleyabu, entebu paitīya*”. = ‘Let us eat first, then we will work’ (not used independently in Ho.)
- 20) “*ondo:*” = ‘additional’, ‘more’, ‘again’ (independently cf. “*ondo:*” = ‘and’). “*Pāp-ondo: kedain*” = ‘I sinned again’. “*Mandi em-ondo: waingme*” = ‘Give me more rice’.
- 21) “*bapad*” = ‘by all means’ (cf. “*bad*” = ‘certainly’, as verb = ‘to force’). “*huju: bapadpe*” = ‘you all by all means come’.
- 22) “*ete:*” = ‘to begin’ (independently used “*ete:*” means ‘to begin’). “*owa:ko baiete:keda*” = ‘they began to build the house’.
- 23) “*parom*” = ‘across’ (independently used as verb it means ‘to cross’, as an adjective = ‘across’). “*Garae: sen-paromeyana*”. = ‘He went across the river’.
- 24) “*jom*” = ‘well’, ‘to one’s advantage’. etc.) (not used independently in this sense). Used very commonly in the expression “*kaing nel-jom-daiya*” = ‘I can’t see well’. Terms such as “*ayum-jom, nam-jom*”, even “*jom-jom, nū-jom*” would be used in the same way. “*Paiti-jom nam-jom*” (to get to one’s advantage) etc. words are used. Even “*jom-jom nū-jom*” = ‘to eat and drink well’ are used in the same way.
- 25) “*antā*” or “*atā*” = ‘in the meanwhile’ (some action done in the interval while waiting for something else; not used independently). “*tai-antānpe*” = ‘you all wait in the meanwhile’ (e.g., until I come back). “*tangi-antāingpe*” = ‘you all wait for me’ (until I come). “*diangko upudantāta:*” = ‘they ferment *diang* (rice beer) in the meanwhile’.
- 26) “*ichi*” or “*iri*” = ‘to cause’, ‘make’ (not used independently). This has two usages (in a causative sense), ‘to allow’, ‘permit’. This has two uses: **A**). when “*ichi*” (“*iri*”) means cause or make in a strictly causative sense it takes a direct object, e.g., “*sen-ichikom*” = ‘make them go’. **B**). Taking an “*-a*” aspect marker means ‘allow’ or ‘permit’ (a permissive rather than strictly causative usage). We give examples of the usage of “*-ichi*”

with an “-a” aspect marker in Lesson 17, section E, part 3, e.g., “*Sitiyako ahta:te huju:ichiyakope*” = ‘Let the little children come to me’.

“*Ichi*” usages in Ho are rather common and include reflexive usages, e.g., “*Parchi-ichintanae:*”, = ‘He is making himself be purified’. “*Nel-ichintanae:*”, = ‘He is making himself be seen’ or ‘He is appearing’.

- 27) “*urum*” = ‘recognize’ (by means of the action expressed in the primary root) (independently “*urum*” means ‘to recognize’.) e.g., “*nel-urum*” = ‘to recognize by seeing.’ “*ayum-urum*” = ‘to recognize by hearing’. “*sowan-urum*” = ‘to recognize by smelling’, etc.
- 28) “*goe:*” = ‘kill’ (by means of the action expressed in the primary root). Sometimes in English this would be translated by ‘to death’ e.g., “*ma:-goe:ki:aing*” = ‘I clubbed him to death’. “*Tam-goe:*” = ‘to kill by hitting’. “*kilum-goe:*” = ‘to kill by nailing’. “*ttega-goe:*” = ‘to kill by treading on’. (e.g., of an insect). “*tore-goe:*” = ‘to kill by shooting’. “*haka-goe:*” = ‘to kill by hanging’. “*ling-goe:*” or “*limbud-goe:*” = ‘to kill by strangling’, etc.
- 29) “*atū*” = ‘leave’ (having done the action involved in the first verb root). (This is not used independently). “*Nen kitab ainga: owa:re bage-yatūme*”. = ‘Leave this book in my house (and go away)’. “*Nel-atūdkowaing*” = ‘I saw them and left’. (N.B. “*atū*” forms the past tense in “*atūd*” rather than “*atūked*”).
- 30) “*bage*” = ‘leave’, ‘leave out’ (independently used with the same meaning). “*Honkoe: goe: bagekedkowa*” = ‘He died and left his children’. “*Aya: erae: nir-bageki:ya*” = ‘He ran away and left his wife’. “*Jokam sī-bagekeda*”. = ‘In plowing you left out a little bit’.
- 31) “*pocha*” = ‘escape’, slip out of the hand’. (used independently with the same meaning). “*sab-pochakedaing*” = ‘It slipped as I took hold of it’.
- 32) “*chote:*” = A). ‘narrowly miss’ used in this sense with verbs of hitting a target, shooting, throwing etc., (used independently in this same sense) “*tung-chote:kidingae:*” = ‘he narrowly missed hitting me with an arrow’. B). to do an action very briefly and then cease from it, e.g., “*kaji-chote: kedae:*” = ‘he spoke only for an instant’. “*Nel-chote:ki:aing*” = ‘I merely got a glimpse of him’. C). With “*em*” “*chote:*” means ‘to almost give, but not to do so’.
- 33) “*dai*” = ‘can’, ‘be able’ (also used independently to mean ‘succeed’, ‘win’). “*Tising kaing sendaiya*” = ‘Today I cannot go’. When the verb form including the root “*dai*” has an object, an “-a” aspect marker is affixed to the “*dai*” root followed then by the object marker (if animate), e.g., “*Honeng nel-daiyaiya*”, = ‘I can see the child’. Many examples of this “-a” aspect marker with “*dai*” are given in Lesson 17, part E, section 3. (Some independent usages of “*dai*”, such as “*Kabu daiya*” = ‘We can’t succeed’, and “*Kabu daiyo: wa*”, = ‘We of ourselves cannot succeed’, or “*Daiyadabu*”, = ‘We succeeded in that’, or “*Daiyadkowabu*”, = ‘We overcame them’, or “*Daiyanabu*”, = ‘We succeeded or we won’).
- 34) “*Id*” = A). ‘take’ (used independently in this sense). “*Engate aya: hone: ti:-idkiya*”. = ‘The child’s mother took the child by the hand’. B). ‘continue to’ – “*marang-ideyanae:*” = ‘he continued to grow’.
- 35) “*uju:*” (“*huju:*”) = A). ‘come’ (“*huju:*” is used independently in this sense). “*keyauju:kom*”. = ‘Call them to come here.’ “*Senuju:waiing*” means ‘I will go and come’. B). ‘to come down from previous times’. e.g., of some tradition or way of acting. “*Esu dinēte nelekako paiti-uju:tada*” = ‘they have been working this way for a long time’.
- 36) “*agu*” or “*au*” = A) ‘bring’ (used independently in this sense). - “*sabaguīpe*” = ‘You all catch hold of him and bring him’. B). to come down from previous times. (same as B) of “*uju:*”) e.g., of some tradition, way of acting, etc., “*Esu dinēte nelekako paitiagutada*”. = ‘They have been working this way for a long time’.

- 37) “*eto*” = ‘to be feasible’, ‘possible’ (“*eto*” used independently means ‘to teach’, - in certain cases when discussing some action, it can mean ‘to be feasible’ or ‘possible’). “*mandi jaked kako jom-etokeda*”. = ‘They could not even eat’. “*Esu pura: hōko hundiakante kako ader-etoetana*” (or “*ader-etō:tana*”). = ‘So many people are gathered that they cannot enter’. (N.B. This takes a transitive form e.g., “*etoetana*” in the given example in which the check is barely pronounced. There seems to be a slight difference in the meaning when a transitive form (e.g., “*etoetanae:*” and in the past “*etoyanae:*” are used). The transitive form seems to translate more possibility, i.e., ‘he could not’ (although he tried); whereas the intransitive form seems to translate rather feasibility, ‘it was not feasible for him’ (because of certain obstacles, e.g., a lack of leisure, he could not even try).
- 38) “*sanang*” = ‘desire’ (used independently in this sense) “*sen-sanangtanaing*” or “*sen-sanango:tanaing*” = ‘I desire to go’. (The second form stresses slightly more the subjective feeling of the desirer). “*Nen hature tai-sanangingtana*” = ‘I desire to stay in this village’. With “*ka*” you can say “*kae: sen-sanangtana*” or “*sen kae: sanangtana*” = ‘he does not want to go’.
- 39) “*gārang*” or “*garang*” = ‘to one’s hearts content’, ‘satisfactorily’, “*nū.-gārangeme*” = ‘drink to your heart’s content’. “*beta-garang*” would mean ‘to happily reach’ (almost the same as “*bugite beta*”).

The above list includes most of the more commonly used verbal affixes which are used only as such or which have a special meaning when used as verbal affixes. It also gives a sampling of some verbs which retain their primary meaning when used as verbal affix, e.g., “*goe:*” = ‘kill’. It is impossible to indicate all such usages since practically every verb can form a compound verb root when united to another verb root.

RECIPROCAL FORMS OF COMPOUND VERBS

- In the case of reciprocals usually both parts of the verb are given the “-p-” infix (see Lesson 23) e.g.,
- “*tipi: ipid*” = ‘take each other (somewhere) by the hand’.
- “*hapal-upura*” = ‘repay each other’.
- “*upudur-epera:*” = ‘push each other out of the way’.
- “*nepel-bapā*” = ‘see each other here and there’.
- “*kapaji-hapal*” = ‘talk back to one another’.
- “*nipir-lapā:*” = ‘a race’.

However sometimes compound verbs are used having the “-p-” infix in only one of the two roots.

REFLEXIVE FORMS OF COMPOUND VERBS

In all cases of reflexives only the second part of the compound verb is given the reflexive ending; e.g.:-

- “*tingu-uran*” = ‘stand again’.
- “*tai-antān*” = ‘remain in the meanwhile’.
- “*abung-sapan*” = ‘wash one’s hands and feet clean’.
- “*lō-goe:n*” = ‘burn oneself to death’.
- “*nel-ichin*” = ‘let oneself be seen, appear’.

HABITUAL FORMS OF COMPOUND VERBS

In Lesson 24 it was explained that actions habitually done could be expressed by

reduplicating the first consonant and vowel, or by lengthening the first vowel. In the case of compound verbs this is done only to the second part of the compound verb, e.g.:-

“*em-ūra*” = ‘habitually give back’.

“*jagar-bābā*” = ‘habitually converse from one place to another’.

“*nala-āsul*” = ‘habitually support by working for wages’.

“*sab-tāb*” = ‘habitually catch hold of quickly’.

Lesson 28 - Transitives and- intransitives in Ho

In the earlier lessons, and in the verb scheme we have used the terms transitive and intransitive. As ordinarily understood in grammar transitive means having an object and intransitive means having no object. In Ho although we will use these terms, we must understand them in a slightly different way. In Ho grammar by transitive we mean *object stressing* (the action referred especially to the object) and by intransitive we mean *action stressing* (with less emphasis on any object although at times one may be expressed) e.g., “*Mandiaing jometana*”, = ‘I eat RICE’ (Here a transitive form has been used with the inanimate object marker, “-e”, included), whereas “*Mandiaing jomtana*” = ‘I EAT my meal’. (Here the verb is intransitive with no object marker given). In the past tense the corresponding forms would be “*Mandiaing jomkeda*”, = ‘I ate RICE’ and “*Mandiaing jomkena*”, = ‘I ATE my meal’.

Some other examples of action stressing (and therefore intransitive) forms used although an object is expressed: “*Mindikong gupitana*”, = ‘I HERD the sheep’. The past tense of this would be “*Mindikong gupikena*” (referring to some particular act of herding sheep in the past) or “*Mindikong gupiyana*” (referring to a general occupation of sheep-herding in the past). Another example would be “*Ama: kajin manatingtana*”, = ‘I OBEY you (your word.)’. In the past for a particular incident “*Ama: kajing manatingkena*”, or in general, “*Ama: kajing manatineyana*”. Here you could also have a transitive form, e.g., “*Ama: kajing manatingkeda*”, = ‘I obeyed YOUR WORD’ (‘I obeyed what you wanted me to do, not what someone else said’).

Consider also the difference in the two phrases “*Chikana: am chikaetana?*” = ‘WHAT are you doing?’, i.e., ‘what is that thing that you are busy with there?’ and “*Chikana: am, chikatana?*” = ‘What are you DOING’. In the past tense these would be “*Chikana: am chikakeda?*” (transitive) and “*Chikana: am chikakena?*” (intransitive).

In the past tense the intransitive form ending “-kena” is often used although an object is expressed, e.g., “*Poysang kumbūkena*”, = ‘I STOLE some money’ (emphasis on the stealing with the fact that it was money that I stole secondary). “*Poysang kumbūkeda*” would mean ‘I stole MONEY’. Usually the answer to the intransitive “*Chikana: am chikakena?*” = ‘What did you DO?’ will take an answer also using a “-kena” intransitive form, e.g., “*Owa:ng baikeda*”, = ‘I BUILT a house’; “*Oteng sīkeda*”, = ‘I PLOUGHED the field’. In like manner the transitive form “*Chillana: am chikakeda ?*” = ‘WHAT were you busy with?’ will take the answer “*Owa:ng baikeda*”, = ‘I built a HOUSE’; “*Oteng sīkeda*”, = ‘I ploughed the FIELD’.

In the cases of “-led”, “-tad”, and “-akad”, forms you do not find this freedom in using transitive and intransitive forms. If there is an object expressed or implied (as in the cases given below) you will consistently have a “-led”, “-tad”, “-akad”, form; if no object is expressed or implied you will have a “-len”, or “-akan” form.

Other cases also mentioned elsewhere where an object is expressed which is not indicated in the verb form are the following:-

1) In cases where you have an habitual or repeated form produced by lengthening the first vowel or reduplicating the first consonant and vowel (see Lesson 24), e.g., “*Neko hakukoko jāloma*”, = ‘These people catch fish in nets (as a regular occupation)’.

2) In cases where an indirect object using an “-a” marker is inserted into the verb, e.g.,

“*Poysang aguwakotana*”. = ‘I am bringing money for them’.

3) In reflexive usages, e.g., “*Poysang aguwana*”. = ‘I brought money for myself’.

4) In reciprocal usages (unless the subject is producing a reciprocal effect on other objects, see Lesson 22), e.g., “*Poysaking epemtana*” = ‘The two of them are giving money to one another’.

Above we saw many cases where, although an object is expressed, an intransitive verb form is used. We also get the converse, i.e., cases where using certain verbs a transitive form is used, although no object is expressed. Some verbs which regularly use transitive forms are the following: “*sen*” (meaning ‘to walk’, compare “*seno:*” meaning ‘to go away’, ‘to go to a place’, which uses intransitive forms); “*nir*” (meaning ‘to run’ e.g., in a race, etc. When the same root means ‘to run away’, then it takes intransitive forms); “*sen-bā*”, = ‘to go from place to place’; “*honor-bā*”, = ‘to roam from place to place’; “*boro*”, = ‘to fear’, ‘to be afraid’; “*ra:*”, = ‘to cry’; “*iyu*”, = ‘to shout’; “*kakla*”, = ‘to shout’; “*uru:*”, = ‘to worry’; “*paiti*”, = ‘to work’; “*gama*”, = ‘to rain’. E.g., “*Enpāre: senetana*”, = ‘He is walking up and down there’; “*Doreyare: senakad*”, = ‘He walked on the water’; “*Owa: owa:e: senbāetana*”, = ‘He is going from house to house’. “*Alom buroya*”, = ‘Do not fear’; “*Kere: te: iyukeda*”, = ‘He shouted loudly’; “*Kere:te paitīpe*”, = ‘Work hard’; “*Holae: gamakeda*”, = ‘Yesterday it rained’.

Another usage sometimes heard in present day Ho is the following:- When a transitive form is used with an expressed animate object sometimes the animate object is not shown in the verb, especially in cases where the object is immediately before or near to the verb, e.g., “*Hone: tamkeda*”, = ‘He hit the child’, where the more traditional form would be “*Hone: tamki:ya*”.

There are indications from the corresponding Mundari and Santali usage, as well as from the more common Ho usage, that originally in all such cases the animate object marker had been shown, and in fact in modern Ho, in all such cases, the alternate form, inserting the animate object marker, is also current. There is surely a possibility that increasing contact with Aryan languages especially makes school boys insensitive to this animate-inanimate distinction, since this distinction does not play the important role in Hindi, which it plays in Ho. We advise learners of the language to always insert animate object markers when called for, since doing so is never wrong and in most cases is necessary.

Lesson 29 – Participles

In Ho participles are formed simply by dropping the mood marker, “-a”, from any verb form, regardless of its tense, etc. This is true of all verb forms given in Lesson 17 as well as the habitual forms given in Lesson 24. Here we give some examples of such participles used as adjectives:- “*-adakan mindi*”, = ‘the lost sheep’, compare “*Mindi adakana*”, = ‘The sheep is lost’; “*huju: chandu:*” = ‘the coming (next) month’, compare “*Chandu: huju:wa*”, = ‘The month will come’; “*seno:yan chandu:*”, = ‘last month’, compare “*Chandu: seno:yana*”, = ‘The month went away’; “*jultan sengel*”, = ‘the burning fire’, compare “*sengel jultana*”, = ‘The fire is burning’. Therefore, in such cases the mood marker, “-a”, is dropped from the verb form, and then this form (without “-a”) is put before the noun to which it refers.

In Ho the use of participles is much more extensive than in English, because in Ho when properly spoken there are no relative clauses, and what we would express by the use of a relative clause in e.g., English or Hindi is expressed in Ho by the use of a participle. Since this is a very important aspect of the Ho language, we will treat it in a separate lesson (immediately following this).

Lesson 30 - Participles used to translate relative clauses

As we have just seen in Ho, we can form a participle merely by dropping the verb-link “a” from any verb form. Such participles are used to translate relative clauses used in English, Hindi and other languages.

A) The general procedure is this:- Drop the mood marker “a” from the verb in what in English would be the relative clause (thereby forming a participle) and then put the whole relative clause ending with the participle immediately before the noun, which it modifies.

Examples to help explain the above:-

1) ‘The man is coming’. = “*hō huju:tana*”. ‘The man who is coming is my father’. = “*huju:tan hō apung*”.

2) ‘The stone has been put on the bed’. = “*Diri karkomre emakana*”. ‘Throw out this stone which has been put on the bed’. = “*Karkomre emakan diri hurla-era:eme*”.

3) ‘The two-men ran away’. = “*Hōking nireyana*”. ‘Call back the two men who ran away’ = “*Nireyan hōking keya-urakingme*”.

4) ‘The man sowed good seed’. = “*Hō bugin hitae herkeda*”. ‘The man who sowed good seed is becoming sick’. = “*Bugin hita herked hō hasu:tana*”. (N.B. subject sign “e:” has been dropped).

B) The subject of the participial phrase would, in most cases, be expressed as a full pronoun rather than as subject marker, e.g.,

5) ‘You (sing.) are holding on to an axe’. – “*Haken sabakada*”. ‘Give me the axe which you are holding on to’. = “*Am sabakad hake emaingme*”, (N.B. Subject sign “m” of the original form expressed as full pronoun “am” in participial phrase).

6) ‘He gave the bread to me’ = “*Lade: emadinga*”. ‘I will give you the bread which he gave to me’. = “*ae: emading ladeng emameya*”.

7) ‘You (plural) will catch a tiger’. = “*kulape sabīya*”. ‘Bring me the tiger which you will catch’. = “*ape sabī kula angta:te aguipe*”.

8) ‘I put the book on the ground’. = “*kitab otereng emtada*”. ‘Where is the book that I put on the ground?’ = “*Aing otere emtad kitab okonreya?*”

C) Any other subject markers are dropped (unless they are kept in a special case for some special emphasis, e.g., Lesson No. 24 below).

9) ‘The man sowed the good seed’. = “*Hō bugin hitae: herkeda*”. The man who sowed good seed is becoming sick. = “*bugin hita heraked hō hasū:tana*”. (subject marker “-e” dropped after “hita”).

10) The two-men are holding on to the wood. = “*Hōking sanking sabakada*”. Bring the wood which the two men are holding on to. = “*Hōking sabakad san aguime*”. (N.B. subject sign “king” of the original form dropped in the participial form.)

11) ‘He gave the bread to me’. = “*Lade: emadinga*”. ‘I will give to you the bread, which he gave to me’. = “*Ae: emading ladeng emameya*”. (N.B. subject sign “e:” of the original expressed as full pronoun “ae:” and object sign “ing” retained in the participial form after “ad”).

12) ‘The men will come from Chakradharpur.’ = “*Hōko Chakāteteko huju:wa*”. ‘The men who will come from Chakradharpur are my friends’. = “*Chakāete huju: hōko ainga: juriko*”.

13) ‘The man is sleeping on the road’. = “*Hō horare: giti:akana*”. ‘Get up the man who is sleeping on the road’. = “*Horare giti:yakan hō utaimē*”.

14) ‘The two tigers killed a man’. = “*kulaking hōking goe:ki:ya*”. ‘Bury the man whom the tigers killed’. = “*kulaking goe:ki:hō topaimē*”.

D) In all the examples given so far, if there was a pronoun or an animate noun preceding the participle, this pronoun or noun was the subject of the participle. We will now give some examples where the pronoun or animate noun preceding the participle is the object of the participial form. In these cases, to

avoid ambiguity, normally intransitive verb forms are used for the participle (in the present or future no object marker is placed, and in the past a “-ken” construction is used). These intransitive forms help point out the fact that the participle is not acting upon the word modified, which is in fact its subject. (In cases where there is no danger of ambiguity occasionally transitive forms are used for the participle). In these cases, also the object of this participle should usually be expressed as a full pronoun rather than as an object marker.

- 15) ‘The man killed a tiger’. = “*Hō kulae: goe:ki:ya*”. ‘Show me the man who killed the tiger’. “*Kula goe:ken hō udubangme*”. (“*Kula*” is object, therefore an intransitive form is used. “*Kula goe:ki: hō udubangme*” = ‘Show me the man whom the tiger killed’).
- 16) ‘My father sent me’. = “*Apung kulkedinga*”. ‘My father who sent me is at home’. = “*Aing kulken apung owa:ri:ya*”. (“*Aing*” expressed as full pronoun; since this is object an intransitive form is used for the participle).
- 17) ‘Who is the man whom the king is hitting’. = “*Raja, tamītan hō okoe?*” (“*Raja*” is subject, therefore transitive form)
- 18) ‘Who is the man who is hitting the king?’ = “*Raja tamtan hō okoe?*” (Here “*raja*” is object, therefore the participle is intransitive).
- 19) ‘The men are harassing you’. = “*Hōko chentapetana*”. ‘Help the men who are harassing you’. = “*Ape chentatan hōko dengakope:*”. (This participle retaining no object marker is correct since “*ape*” is object. However, in this case the form “*ape chentapetan hōko dengakope*” would also be permissible since it rather clarifies than leads to ambiguity. If the sentence read ‘Help those whom you are harassing’, then we would say “*Ape chentakotan hōko dengakope*”. In this case the transitive verb form retaining the object marker, “-ko”, would be required.)

E) The object markers “-kin” and “-ko” are dropped after “-ked”, “-led”, “-tad”, “-akad”, and “ad”, participial forms when modifying nouns with a like (“kin” or “-ko”) ending, e.g.,

- 20) ‘You killed two tigers.’ = “*Kulakingem goe:kedkinga*”. ‘Bring me the two tigers. which you killed’. = “*Am goe:ked kulaking aguawangme*” (not “*Am goe: keedking kulaking*”).

F) In cases where the word preceding the participle is subject and the word modified is animate and singular, in the participle either the ending “-ked”, or “ki:” is permissible; also “-led”, or “-li:”, “-tad”, or “-ta:i”, “-akad”, or “-aka:i”, “-ad”, or “-a:i”, e.g.,

- 21) ‘The man whom you hit’. = “*Am tamki:*” (or *tamke,*) *hō*”.
- 22) ‘The snake which he brought’. = “*Ae: aguli: (aguled,) bing*”.
- 23) ‘The goat which you are carrying’. = “*Am sabaka:i (sabakad,) merom*”.
- 24) ‘The thief whom you tied up’. = “*Am tolta:i (toltad,) kumbū.*”
- 25) ‘The king whom I saw’. = “*Aing nela:i (nelad,) raja*”.

G) as indicated in Chapter 28 “-led”, “-tad”, and “-akad” forms do not freely change to intransitive forms as does “-ked”, to “-ken”. Therefore, in participial constructions where an animate noun or pronoun precedes the participial as object, it is best if possible to avoid these infixes and to use “-ken” forms. If the other aspect markers are retained then when required to avoid ambiguity the subject marker can be retained after the object, e.g.,

- 26) ‘The man is holding on to the thief’. = “*Hō kumbūi: sabaka:iya*”. ‘Bring the man who is holding onto the thief’. = “*Kumbū sabken hō aguime*” (using intransitive “-ken” form) or “*Kumbui: -sabakad, hō aguime*” (retaining subject marker “-i:”). “*Kumbū sabakad hō aguime*” would mean ‘Bring the man whom the thief is holding on to’.

H) Participial forms containing the benefactive aspect marker, “-a” usually retain the animate object marker, e.g.,

- 27) ‘I gave you an axe’. = “*Hakeng emadmeya*”. ‘Return the axe which I gave to you’. = “*Aing emadme hake emurangme*”. (keeping the “-me” marker).

This completes the rules for translating relative clauses by participial phrases. Actually, when some facility is acquired in this, we do not formulate a relative clause and then translate it, but we

immediately formulate a participial construction. This is not nearly as involved as the above rules may seem to indicate. Understanding these forms when used by others usually involves no difficulty, and the context usually indicates clearly enough what is subject and what is object.

Participial phrases in Ho often dispense with postpositions “-re” (in/on); “te” (to); “ete” (from), which would be found in regular sentences, e.g.,

“*Am tain owa:*” = ‘The house *in* which you stay’.

“*Ae: jonomlen hatu*” = ‘The village *in* which he was born’.

“*Abu senetan hora*” = ‘The road *on* which we are travelling’.

“*Abu seno:tan hatu*” = ‘The village *to* which we are going’.

“*Aing ō:leyan owa:*” = ‘The house *from* which I have gone out’.

People who become accustomed to thinking in Hindi and Hindi thought patterns often introduce relative clauses in Ho, using “*okoni:*” (or “*okoni: chi*”) for animate and “*okona*” (or “*okona chi*”) for inanimates. Also, they use “*okon*” as a relative adjective, e.g., “*Okon kitab am emadinga, ena tebolreng emkeda*”. = ‘The book which you gave me, I put on the table.’ The Ho mentality Ho version of this would be “*Am emading kitab tebolreng emkeda*”.

LESSON 31 - NOUN FORMS IN “-NI:” AND “-A:”

Participles, as seen in lessons 29 and 30, have an adjectival function modifying some noun, e.g., ‘the coming man’, ‘the sleeping-on-the-road man’, etc. However, nouns can also be formed from these participles. We see in this lesson, one way to make animate and inanimate nouns out of these participial forms. In the following lesson we will see another way.

A) To translate ‘the one who’ or ‘the man who’, we can add “-i:” or “-ni:” (singular), “-kin” (dual), or “-ko” (plural) to any participial form in any tense to indicate an agent performing an action or on whom an action is being performed.

In the singular “-i:” is placed after any participial forms ending in “-n” or “-d”, e.g., “-tan”, “-akan”, “-ken”, “-len”, “-ked”, “-akad”, etc. For the rest there seems to be no strict rule in Ho for selecting either “-i:” or “-ni:”. Either can be used after either vowels or consonants. The ending “-i:” seems to be used more often than “-ni:” and is heard after vowels as well as consonants.

To illustrate this usage, we will take the sentences given in Lesson 30, however taking only those sentences in which the word modified is animate. (Numbers given as in lesson 30).

- 1) ‘The one who is coming is my father.’ = “*Huju: tani: apung*”.
- 2) ‘Call back the two men who ran away’. = “*Nireyanking keyaurakingme*”.
- 3) ‘The man who sowed good seeds is becoming sick’, = “*Bugin hita herkidi: hasū:tana*” (the vowel “e” of “-ked”, is changed to “i” here under the influence of the final “-i:”).
- 4) ‘The men who will come from Chakradharpur are my friends’. = “*Chakāete huju: ko ainga: juriko*”.
- 5) ‘Get up the man who is sleeping on the road’. = “*Horare giti:yakani: utaime*”.
- 6) ‘Bury the man whom the two tigers killed’. = “*Kulaking goe: kid,i: topaime*”. (In Les. 30, section F we indicated that either “-ked”, or “-ki:” forms could be used in certain participial phrases. The corresponding noun forms prefer the “-ked” forms, so also for “led”, “tad”, “akad”, and “ad”).
- 7) ‘Show me the man who killed a tiger’ = “*Kula goe: kini: udubangme*”.
- 8) ‘Who is the man whom the king is hitting?’ = “*Raja tamītani: okoe?*”
- 9) ‘Who is the man who is hitting the king?’ = “*Raja tamtani: okoe?*”
- 10) ‘Help those who are harassing you’. = “*Ape chentatanko dengakope*”.
- 11) ‘Bring the one who is holding on to the thief’. = “*Kumbū sab-kini: - aguime*”.

From these examples we can see that the rules for the formation of these animate participial nouns are the same as those given in Lesson 30 except that these noun forms prefer “-ked”, to “-ki:”, “led” to “li:”, etc.

You can however have a “-ki:” construction in a form like the following:- “Ae: aderki:ko”, = ‘those who brought him in’ (for which we could also say, “Ae: aderkenko”, see Lesson. 30, rule D). Here “Ae: aderkedko” would mean ‘those whom he brought in’. In the form “Ae: aderki:ko”, the “-ki:” has to refer to “ae:”, so there is no ambiguity.

It is possible to have the “-i:” following the vowel “e”, in which case the two combine to form one long “i:”, e.g., ‘the man who told you’, could be translated as “metadme hō”, or “metadmī:” (= metadme-i:).

Just as “-ni:” or “-i:” can be added to participial forms, they can also be added to other adjectives to indicate an animate agent, e.g., ‘the big one’ (animate) = “marangi:/marangni:”. In like manner we can form animate duals and plurals by adding “-king” and “-ko”, e.g., “maranking”, = ‘the two big (animate) ones’, “marangko”, ‘the big (animate) ones’.

B) “-a:” or in the plural “-a:ko” can be added to any participial form in any tense to indicate an action performed, e.g.,

- 1) ‘We will obey what he said.’ = “Ae: kajikeda:bu manatingeya”.
- 2) ‘Give us what we will eat today’. = “Tising ale jomeya: emalem”.
- 3) ‘He gave me what I ate yesterday’. = “Hola aing jomkeda:e: emadinga”.
- 4) ‘Give me what I will drink tomorrow’ = “Gapa aing nūiya: emaingme”.
- 5) ‘Do not do the actions which he did’. = “Ae: rikakeda:ko alopeya:”.
- 6) ‘We will refuse to do things which are forbidden’. = “Manākana: ko kabuwa:”.
- 7) ‘Give him what he is asking for’. = “Ae: asitana: emaime”.

In a like manner “-a:” is added to certain adjectives to form inanimate nouns, e.g., “bugina: ko” = ‘good things’; “edkana:” = ‘evil’ (noun); “sabena:” = ‘all things’; “en lekana:” = ‘a thing like that’.

LESSON 32 - NOUN FORMS IN “-TINI:” AND “TEYA:”.

In Lesson 31 we treated the formation of nouns from participles by adding “-i:” or “-ni:”, or “-kin”, or “-ko” for animates and “-a:”, “-a:ko” for inanimates. In this lesson we will treat the formation of nouns from participles by adding “-tini:”, “-tenking”, “-tenko” for animates and “-teya:”, “-teya: ko” for inanimates.

A) In Ho participial nouns can be formed by adding “-tini:” (singular), “-tenking” dual), and “-tenko” (plural to the generic (simple future) tense and to the habitual form (Lesson 24) of any participle to indicate such a one as (performs the action given in the verb form), e.g., “dengantini:” = ‘such a one as helps me, whosoever helps me’.

Whereas the markers, “-i:”, “-ni:”, “-king”, “-ko” treated in Lesson 31 can be added to any tense to indicate one who will do, is doing, has done, habitually does, etc., some action, “-tini:” prescind from time, indicating ‘such a one as does’, or ‘such a one as habitually does’, whether or not he is now doing, has done, etc. e.g.,:-
e.g., “chakadtani:” = ‘one who is (now actually) deceiving’.

“chakadtini:” = ‘such a one as deceives’.

Perhaps both of these could be translated as ‘deceivers’ in English, but with the distinction as given above understood.

When added to the generic (simple future) tense this takes any required object signs, e.g.,
“dengantini:” = ‘such a one as helps me’; “jometenko” = ‘those who eat’; “nūitenko” = ‘those who drink’.

When added to the habitual form (which takes no object marker) no object markers are added, e.g., *“jilu jōjomtini:”* = ‘such a one as regularly eats meat’.

The origin of this “-tini:” form and the corresponding dual and plural is probably as follows:-

The postposition “-te” can have an instrumental meaning which in expressions like ‘with a good heart’ = (*“bugin jīte”*) come to mean ‘animated by’, or ‘almost having’.

By adding “-n” to such a “-te” form we get an adjectival form e.g., *“bugin jīten hōko”* = ‘men of good heart’.

By adding “-i:” (sg.), “-king” (dual), and “-ko” (plural) to this “-ten” form we get animate noun forms. (In the singular the vowel “e” of “-ten” changes to “i” under the influence of the “-i:” ending). Therefore we have:-

“bugin jītini:” = ‘someone of good heart’, ‘a good hearted person’.

“bugin jītenking” = ‘two good hearted men’.

“bugin jītenko” = ‘good hearted men’.

In a parallel way generic or habitual verb forms dropping the mood marker, “-a”, can add this “-ten” (adjectival) and “-tini:”, “-tenking”, “-tenko” (noun forms) to indicate such a one as. . .

Of its nature the dual of this form is very rarely used.

B) “-teya:” or in the plural “-teya:ko” when added to participial forms can have two functions: 1). to indicate an action performed (to be performed, etc.). 2). a more strictly instrumental usage.

1) “-teya:” or in the plural “-teya:ko” can be added to any participial form in any tense to indicate an action. This corresponds exactly to the “-a:” usage of the previous lesson. Any of the examples given in the previous lesson can use a “-teya:” form or an “-a:” form, e.g.,

‘We will obey what he said’. = *“Ae: kajikedteya: bu manatingeya”*. or *“Ae: kajikeda:bu manatingeya”*.

‘Give us what we will eat today’. = *“Tising ale jometeya: (jomeya:) emalem”*.

‘Do not do the actions which he did’. = *“Ae: rikakedteya:ko (rikakeda:ko) alopeya:”*.

‘We will refuse to do things that are forbidden’. = *“Manākanteya:ko (manākana:ko) kabuwa:”*.

Besides this with certain verbs “-teya:” (but not “-a:”) also has a verbal noun usage parallel to certain infinitive usages in English. This is found only with the generic (simple future) verb form, adding object markers where necessary, e.g.,

‘Today I want to go to Chakradharpur’. = *“Tising Chakate seno:teya:ng sanantanga (namtana)”*.

‘I am planning (thinking) to kill the sheep (plural) today’. = *“Tising mindiko goe: koteya:ng uru:tana”*.

‘It is necessary to reap the paddy’. = *“Baba irteya: mena: (dorkaro:wa)”*.

‘I must go to Chaibasa’. = *“Dongolteng seno:teya: mena:”*.

N.B. “Mena:” is often used to translate ‘must’ as in the last two examples given, and when so used takes the “-teya:” construction. However “hobawo:” is also used to translate ‘must’, and takes not a “-teya:” but a “-te” construction. E.g., ‘I must go to the bazar’. = *“Hātoteng seno:teya: mena”* or *“Hātoteng seno:te hobawo:wa”*. (The latter form has more a future connotation, i.e., ‘I will have to go to the bazar’). We will see in Lesson 34 that “enanga:” also translates ‘must’ in certain contexts. This takes neither a “-teya:” nor a “-te” construction.

“-Teya:” can also be added to adjectives to indicate an object possessing the quality indicated in the adjective.

e.g., “nama” = ‘new’ “namateya” = ‘the new one’ (inanimate).

<i>“pundi”</i>	=	‘white’	<i>“punditeya:”</i>	=	‘the white one’.
<i>“bugin”</i>	=	‘good’	<i>“buginteya:”</i>	=	‘the good one’.

At the end of Lesson 31 we indicated that “-a:” is also added to certain adjectives to form inanimate nouns, e.g., *“bugina:”*. This “-a:” use (restricted to a few words) connotes something more abstract and general (goodness, good things in general) whereas the “-teya:” use connotes something concrete, e.g., when selecting, -- give me the good one (*“buginteya:”*) (not that old broken one).

2) “-Teya:” has also a more strictly instrumental usage: namely to indicate that with which one does (or has done) something (a thing used to do something) (See Lesson 25B).

In this sense “-teya:” is used only with the generic (simple future) tense or the habitual form, or in the past with a “-ken” construction.

Even when the generic tense form is used the object markers are not inserted. (Therefore, both in the present and in the past tense intransitive verb forms are used).

This construction can be used with a noun specified, e.g., a basket used for sowing seeds, or without any such noun in a more generic sense, i.e., anything used for sowing.

In this generic sense the habitual form (Lesson 24) is often used.

Some examples of this construction would be:-

“Diang nuteya: pū:” = ‘a leaf used for drinking rice beer’.

“Baba herteya: tunki” = ‘a basket used for sowing paddy seeds’.

“Mandi jōjomteya:” = ‘something that can be used for eating rice’, e.g., a plate or a leaf’.

“Jilu gēdteya:” = ‘something that can be used for cutting meat’, e.g., a knife’.

“Ū-urteya:”, = ‘something that can be used for digging’ (a shovel).

“Am jomkenteya: tare”, = ‘the plate that you used for eating’.

“Am nūkenteya:”, = ‘what you used for drinking with’ (from).

“Ae: herkenteya:”, = ‘what he used for sowing’ (e.g., basket).

Note the following distinctions:-

<i>“Aing jometeya:”</i> = ‘What I will eat’ (e.g., rice)	<i>“Aing jomteya:”</i> = ‘With what I will eat from’ (e.g., a plate)
<i>“Am nūiteya:”</i> = ‘What you will drink’ (e.g. rice beer)	<i>“Am nūteya:”</i> = ‘With what you will drink from’ (e.g., a leaf)
<i>“Am hereteya:”</i> = ‘What you will sow’ (e.g. seeds)	<i>“Am herteya:”</i> = ‘With what you will sow with’ (e.g., a basket)
<i>“Aing jomkadteya:”</i> = ‘What I ate’ (e.g., rice)	<i>“Aing jomkenteya:”</i> = ‘With what I ate on’ (e.g., a plate)

The phrases in the first column are all phrases treated in section B1) of this Lesson and in each case instead of “-teya:”, “-a:” may be inserted; the phrases in the second column are examples of the instrumental usage treated in section B2) of this lesson. In these cases “-a:” cannot be substituted for “-teya:” since this usage is based on the “-te” (instrumental) postposition.

LESSON 33 - TRANSLATING DEPENDENT CLAUSES

In Lesson 30 we treated the translation of relative clauses, and in Lesson 35 we will treat the translation of indirect discourse. In the lesson we will treat the translation of all other dependent clauses.

In English some dependent clauses can alternately be rendered by participial phrases, e.g., instead of ‘I killed the snake while I was coming home’, we could say ‘While coming home I killed the snake’. Instead of ‘I went to the market after I bathed’, we could say ‘After having bathed I went to the market’. The Ho usage parallels exactly this participial phrase usage except that the word (‘while’, ‘after’) introducing the participial phrase is put as a postposition after the participle

form (We will see that most words so used in Ho can also serve as postpositions after nouns). Also, in Ho such participial phrases can translate all such clauses since Ho participles can be found in all tenses, active and passive. In the two examples given above in English, the subject of the two clauses is the same. In such cases in Ho there is no need to use the subject marker in the participial phrase, e.g., “*Owa:te huju: tanre bingeng goe: ki:ya.*” = ‘While coming home I killed the snake’. “*Oraken chanab hātoteng seno:yana*”, = ‘After having bathed I went to the market’. It should be noted that in Ho the participial phrase comes before the main verb.

As explained in Lesson 29 the participial form is the same as the verb form without the mood marker, “-a”. Therefore, as applied this construction comes down to substituting the apt postpositional marker for the mood marker, “-a”, in the verb form.

The much more extensive usage of participles in Ho compared to English allows for such verb usage also in cases where the two clauses (as used in English) have different subjects. In this case the subject marker must be used with the participial phrase in Ho. e.g., “*Poysae: agui chanab simeng kiringiya*”, = ‘After he brings the money, I will buy a chicken’. Here since the subject (he) of the participial phrase is different than that (I) of the independent verb, the subject marker “-e:” has been used with the participial phrase.

Prescinding from relative clauses and indirect discourse in Ho with one exception all dependent clauses are translated by adding the apt postpositional marker to participial forms as just explained. The only exception to this is the use of “*mente*” to translate causal clauses. This is an extension of the use of “*mente*” in indirect discourse (see Lesson 35) and as such uses a full verb form containing the mood marker, “-a”. E.g., “*Kupulko kako kuju:lenta mente merom: kaing goe:ki:ya*”, = ‘I did not kill the goat because the guests did not come’. As we will see below this could have an alternate translation using a participial form, i.e., ‘*Kupulko kako huju:lente, sim kaing goe: ki:ya*’.

In Ho an action in the future which precedes another future action will take a future tense participial form with an aspect marker to indicate the fact that it takes precedence, e.g., in English we could say, ‘After he has killed the goat, he will give you the meat’. In Ho we would say ‘After he will kill the goat’. i.e., “*Merome: goe: kīte, jilui: emameya*”. (“*goe: ki*” = “*goe:, ke+i*” is a future form). The corresponding past participial usage in Ho would be “*Merome: goe:ki: te jilui: emadmeya*”, = ‘After he killed the goat, he gave you the meat’. (“*goe: ki:*” = “*goe: ked, +i*” = past tense translating an action which took place in the past previous to another action). In the exercise for Lesson 17 B we gave some practice in this usage.

We will now show particular applications of the above construction classifying them according to the postpositional markers introducing the participial phrases.

“*te*” –the “-*te*” marker has three usages:-

A). --The most common use of this marker is to indicate a priority of state or action over that expressed by the verb of the principal clause (cf. the Hindi “*kar*” “*karke*”, construction). e.g., “*Uli jomkēte hātoteng seno:wa*” = ‘I will eat the mango and then go to the market place’. *Aya: sabena: akaringkedte saning disumte: seno:yana*. = ‘Having sold all that was his he went to a distant country’.

When the principal verb is in the present tense or when the “-*te*” marker is preceded by the present continuous tense marker, “-*tan*”, then “-*te*” expresses concomitance of action between the principal and dependent clause verb forms, e.g., “*Susun-susun-tanteko huju:tana*”, = ‘They are coming dancing’.

B). “-*te*” is also used to indicate cause, e.g., “*Am taikente ainga: hon banchawyaana*,” = ‘because you were present, my son was saved’. “*Chatanire baiyakante, owa: ka handīyana*”, = ‘Because it was built on a rock, the house did not collapse’.

C). “-te” is also used to express purpose (‘in order that’) (see also “-ka mente”, Lesson 34, and “lagid(te)” further on in this lesson). “Mundā: kaji ayumte dunubteng seno:yana”, = ‘I went to the meeting to hear the words of the village head-man’.

- “chi” - sometimes used instead of “-te” in usage A) above.
 “ed” - sometimes used instead of “e” in usage A) above.
 “ete” - has the meaning of ‘since’, ‘after’, ‘from the time that’, e.g., “Engate seno:yanēte hon mandī kae:jōma”, = ‘The child doesn’t eat since his mother went away’.
 “re” - has two usages:-

A) the “-re” marker indicates simultaneity of action (‘at the time of’, ‘while’, ‘when’, ‘in the act of’), e.g., “Renge: tanreng jomeya:pe emadinga”, = ‘When I was hungry you gave me something to eat’. “Tetangtanreng nūiya:pe emadinga”, = ‘When I was thirsty you gave me something to drink’.

B) the “-re” marker, often with the enclitic “-do” added, which enclitic is also sometimes, but less often, added to “-re” in the sense given in A), often indicates a conditional clause, ‘if ...’. If the condition is one that has not been fulfilled, or is not realizable or probable, the word “honang” is added in either the dependent or the main clause: e.g., “Hātoteng seno:redo, uling kiringeya”. = ‘If I will go to the bazar (which is possible and probable), I will buy mangoes’. “Hātoteng seno:redo, uling kiringeya hong”, = ‘If I went to the bazar (which I cannot or will not do), I would buy mangoes’.

When “honang” is used in conditional clauses, the verb in the main clause (the clause without the “re(do)” sometimes has “-teya:” ending rather than the mood marker, “-a”, e.g., “Apung bugin rēd, jomkedredoe: hong, kae:goe:yan-teya:”, = ‘If my father had eaten good medicine, he should not have died’. In these cases the English translation ‘should’ seems more apt than ‘would’, since they seem to have a suppressed “taikena” or “mena:” (see Lesson 32, section B, 1). In cases where the “-a” mood marker is retained rather than “teya:”, the English word ‘would’ is usually more apt.

As in the example given above, the “-redo” form often takes the subject marker after “-redo”, e.g., “tammeredoko”, = ‘if they hit you’.

- “reyō” - has the meaning of ‘even if’, and in construction follows the same rules as are given for “-re(do)” in section B) above, including the use of “honang”, and the fact that the subject marker is often used after “-reyō”. e.g., “Poysa taikenreyō en owa: kae: kiringkedteya: hong”, = ‘Even if he had money he should not have bought that house’. “Huju: reyōm jāna: kang emameya”, = ‘Even if you come, I won’t give you anything’. The marker, “-reyō”, is often used in a very colloquial way suppressing the main clause, e.g., “kaing seno:reyō”, = ‘even if (suppose) I don’t go (what business is that of yours, or what will happen). This would be said e.g., by someone who does not intend to go to someone who has been trying to convince him to go.
- “lo:(te)” - denotes simultaneity with even a slightly stronger emphasis on the concomitance than that of “-re”. (A). It would be translated ‘in the act of’, ‘just as’, ‘at the moment of’, ‘along with’ etc. (Often however it can be interchanged with “-re” with no change in meaning). e.g., “Ae: betaledlo:ge apute goe:yana”, = ‘Just as he arrived his father died’. “Enta:te seno:tanlo:nena id-torsaepe”, = ‘When you are going there take this along with you’.
- “imita” - translates the English ‘while’, and is often practically the same as the use of “-re” (A) and “lo:(te)” already given. e.g., “Hō ote: heretan imita tara jang hora kutire iyu:yana”, = ‘While the man was sowing, some seed fell by the roadside’.
- “dipli” - translates ‘at the time when’, taking ‘time’ in a broader sense than “imita”, e.g., “Aing Kalimatreng taiken dipli Mora goe:yana”. = ‘Mora died at the time when I was in Jamshedpur’.

- “*chanab*” - translates ‘after’, e.g., “*Ae: seno:yan chanab apute huju:lana*”, = ‘His father came after he went away’.
- “*torsa*” - translates ‘immediately after’, e.g., “*Nena Jisu kajiked torsa hō bugiyana*”, = ‘The man was cured immediately after Jesus said this’.
- “*ayer(te)*” - translates ‘before’, e.g., “*Ae: seno: ayerte nen kitab emaima*”, = ‘Give him this book before he will go’.
- “*leka*” - translates ‘like’, ‘as’ e.g., “*aing dularkedpeleka, ape dupularpe*” = ‘Love one another as I have loved you’.
- “*jaked*” - translates ‘until’. This is usually used with “*auri*” and the future form of the verb, e.g., “*Auring huju: jaked, alom seno:wa*”, = ‘Do not go until I come’. “*Apum auri:gojo:jaked enre tainme*”. = ‘Stay there until your father dies’. (N.B. as was explained earlier when discussing “*auri*”, although English often uses the perfect tense, here, in Ho, the future must be used with “*auri*” constructions). Instead of using “*auri*”, or “*jaked*” can be used with a “*ka*” construction as follows, “*Kaing kajiyam jaked enre tainme*”. = ‘Stay there until I tell you (otherwise)’.
- “*joka*” - used same as “*jaked*”, above.
- “*sante*” - used same as “*jaked*”, above.
- “*sumad*” - used same as “*jaked*”, above.
- “*lagid(te)*” - translates purpose, ‘in order to’ (cf. “*-te*” (C)) e.g., “*Jurite dengma emai lagid, ae:ta:te:huju:lana*”, = ‘His friend came to give him help’.
- “*enang*” - translates ‘only after’, ‘not until’, ‘not before’, e.g., “*Ini: huju: enang, dunub hobawo:wa*”. = ‘The meeting will take place only after he has come’.
- “*enanga:*” - **A)** same as “*enang*”, or **B)** translate ‘must’, “*enang*” often has a conditional implication, e.g., in the example given under “*enang*” we imply that the meeting will not take place if he does not come. Sometimes the principal clause is not even expressed, and in such cases the clause ending in “*-enanga:*” should be translated using ‘must’, e.g., “*Abung da: telaen enanga:*”. = ‘One must receive the water for washing up’.
- “*ta:te*” - translates ‘the place (to) where’, e.g., “*Aing jonomlenta: teng seno:tana*”, = ‘I am going to the place where I was born’.
- “*ta:re*” - translates ‘the place (in or on) where’, e.g., “*Mandile isinkenta:rele giti: lana*”. = ‘We lay down at the place where we had cooked the rice’.
- “*ta:ete*” - translates ‘from the place where’ e.g., “*Kula taikenta: ete: nireyana*”, = ‘He ran away from the place where- the tiger was’.

N.B. All the terms given above substitute for the mood marker, “*-a*”. However “*mente*”, when meaning ‘because’ does not substitute for the mood marker, but follows it. This is related to the use of “*mente*” in direct discourse. See Lesson 35).

LESSON 34 - THE OPTATIVE MOOD MARKER, “*-ka*”.

Earlier we referred to the mood marker, “*-a*”, found in all independent indicative verbs. In this lesson we will see another marker, “*-ka*”, which can be substituted for the mood marker, “*-a*”, to translate the notion of ‘let’, or in some sense ‘may’.

The optative mood marker “-ka”, can be substituted for the (indicative) mood marker “-a” in any future tense (either simple or having an aspect marker) to translate the English ‘let’. This usage covers the imperative for the third person, and also certain permissive and optative uses.

- e.g. “*Huju:wae:*” ‘He will come’.
 “*Huju:kae:*” ‘Let him come’.
 “*Taiyakano:wae:*” ‘He will continue to wait’.
 “*Taiyakano:kae*” ‘Let him continue to wait’.

When this “-ka” marker is used in a negative construction the root “alo” (see Lesson 22) is put before the verb. The marker, “-ka”, as well as the subject marker are usually affixed to “alo”, although they may be retained at the end of the verb form, e.g. :-

- 1a) ‘They will come’. “*Huju:wako*”.
 b) ‘Let them come’. “*Huju:kako*”.
 c) ‘Let them not come’. “*Alokako huju:*” or “*Alo huju:kako*”.
 2a) ‘They will kill the goats’. “*Meromkoko goe:kowa*”.
 b) ‘Let them kill the goats’. “*Meromkoko goe:koka*”.
 c) ‘Let them not kill the goats’. “*Meromko alokako goe:ko*”.

In **1c)** above the first form (“*alokako huju:*”) would be more common. In **2b)** above the subject marker, “-ko”, follows the noun “*meromko*”, but in **2c)** it follows “*aloka:*”.

Occasionally in place of this form, “-ka”, the form “-cha” is used.

The word “*mente*” or “*lagid,(te)*” meaning ‘for’ can be put after a “-ka” construction, positive or negative, to express purpose, e.g., ‘I gave them five rupees so that they might go to Ranchi’. = “*Ranchiteko seno:ka mente moe takang emadkowa*”. ‘I tied him with a rope so that he might not go to Ranchi’. = “*Ranchite alokae: seno: mente bayerteng tolki: ya*”.

LESSON 35 - TRANSLATING INDIRECT DISCOURSE INTO HO

In English when telling what someone says, etc., we usually use indirect discourse, changing his words, i.e., where in direct discourse we would say, “He said ‘I will go’”, giving the exact words, in indirect discourse we would say, “He said that he would go”. In Ho only direct discourse is used, therefore when translating ordinarily we must reconstruct the sentence giving the exact words said.

In Ho we give the exact words said, followed by “*mente*” (saying), followed by the verb of saying, e.g.:-

‘He told me that he had killed the tiger’. = “*Kulang goe:ki:ya mente: kajiyinga*”. (‘I killed the tiger’ saying he told me’).

‘I told them not to catch the fish’. = “*Hakuko alope sabkowa menteng kajiyinga*”. (‘Do not catch the fish, saying I told them’).

‘I asked them when they went to Ranchi’. = “*Ranchite chuilape seno:yana menteng kulikedkowa*”. (‘When did you go to Ranchi, saying I asked them’).

‘He is wondering whether his son will come today or not’. = “*Tising ainga: hon huju:wa chi ka mente: uru:tana*”. (‘Will my son come today or not, saying he is wondering’).

‘The village headman told me to bring the thief to him’. = “*Aingta:te kumbu aguime mente munda kajiyinga*”. (‘Bring the thief to me’ saying the village headman told me).

In Ho there are four words for ‘to say’ or ‘to tell’:-

“*Kaji*” - regularly uses the construction given above

“*Men*” - (from which the form “*mente*” comes) means ‘to say’ but is never used with an indirect object. As would be expected this does not put in the word “*mente*” but directly uses the required form of “*men*”, e.g., ‘They said that they would come tomorrow’. = “*Gapale huju:wako menkeda*”. (‘We come tomorrow’, they said). See also Lesson 36.

“*Meta*” - (perhaps derived from “*men*”) when meaning ‘to say’, is used only when there is an indirect object. This also normally dispenses with “*mente*” e.g., ‘He told us that his son died yesterday’. = “*Hola ainga: hon goe:yanae: metadleya*”. (‘Yesterday my son died’, he told us).

“*Jagar*” - is used more in the sense of to converse and does not so easily require a “*mente*” construction. However, it may use it.

“*Mente*” - meaning ‘because’. The above “*mente*” construction can give a causal sense when the verb following it is not a verb of saying, e.g., “*Hola kam taikena mente hon goe:yana*”. = ‘Because you were not here yesterday my son died’.

Note that in this case as is true in other “*mente*” constructions the full verb form, retaining the mood marker “-a”, is used; unlike all the constructions given in lesson 34.

“*Menteya:*” construction - “*Menteya:*”, “*mena*” or “*men*” are used rather than “*mente*” when the word for saying occurs as a noun rather than as a verb.

‘He did not obey my instructions to kill the tiger’. = “*Kula gojī:me menteya: ainga: kaji kae: manatingkeda*”.

‘I do not believe their claim that they killed the elephant’. = “*Hatile goe:ki:ya menteya: akowa: kajire kaing sariyo:wa*”.

‘Our hope of living for all eternity is not in vain’ = “*Jorong jakedbu jīdo:wa mena abuwa: asora sama do bano:wa*”.

Those who in school have become accustomed to thinking in a Hindi framework, rather than use the typical Ho construction keep the Hindi construction, substituting the word “*chi*” for the Hindi “*kī*”. They also make causal clauses following the Hindi word order and substituting “*chikana: mente chi*” for the Hindi.

LESSON 36 - IREGULAR VERBS.

In general Ho verbs are remarkably regular. However a few words have usages somewhat unusual or restricted. We will indicate some such here:-

- A) *Mena:* - to exist, be alive, to be at home or in a place ... has only two tenses, i.e. the present, as given in Lesson 14, and the perfect, indicating enduring presence, as given here.

<i>Present</i>		<i>Perfect</i>	
“ <i>mena:</i> ”	‘it is present’.	“ <i>mena:kada</i> ”	‘it is still present’.
“ <i>mena:ainga</i> ”	‘I am present’.	“ <i>mena:kadinga</i> ”	‘I am still present’.
“ <i>mena:meya</i> ”	‘you are present’.	“ <i>mena:kadmeya</i> ”	‘you are still present’.
“ <i>mena:ya</i> ”	‘he is present’.	“ <i>mena:ka:ya</i> ”	‘he is still present’.
“ <i>mena:langa</i> ”	‘you & I are present’.	“ <i>mena:kadlanga</i> ”	‘you & I are still present’.
“ <i>mena:kowa</i> ”	‘they are present’.	“ <i>mena:kadkowa</i> ”	‘they are still present’.

As indicated elsewhere in the grammar, for other tenses other roots (“*tai*”, “*hoba*”, ...) are used to express the concepts translated by “*mena:*”.

- B) “*bang*” (or “*ban*”) = ‘to be absent’, ‘to be not at home’, etc., has only two tenses, i.e., the present as given in Lesson 14, and the past tense. This latter means to have died, to

have completely gone away or disappeared, and is heard mostly in the inanimate form and the third person forms as given here below:-

Present		Past	
<i>"bano:wa"</i>	‘It is not here’.	<i>"bano:yana"</i>	‘it has disappeared’.
<i>"bangaya:"</i>	‘he is not here’.	<i>"banga:yana"</i>	‘he has died’.
<i>"bangkinga"</i>	‘they-2 are not here’.	<i>"bangkingeyana"</i>	‘they-2 have died’.
<i>"bangkowa"</i>	‘they are not here’.	<i>"bangkoyana"</i>	‘they have died’.

- C) *"Ka"* meaning ‘no’ or ‘not’ can be formed into a verb meaning ‘to refuse’. This occurs in the simple general (future) tense, the present continuous tense and the past tense as follows:-

<i>ka+subject marker</i>	<i>general tense (future)</i>	<i>Present continuous</i>	<i>Past Tense</i>
I etc....not.	I etc....refuse.	I am etc....refusing.	I etc....refused.
<i>"kaing"</i>	<i>"kainga:"</i>	<i>"kainga:tana"</i>	<i>"kainga:yana"</i>
<i>"kam"</i>	<i>kama:"</i>	<i>"kama:tana"</i>	<i>"kama:yana"</i>
<i>"kae:"</i>	<i>kaya:"</i>	<i>"kaya:tana"</i>	<i>"kaya:yana"</i>
<i>"kalang"</i>	<i>kalanga:"</i>	<i>"kalanga:tana"</i>	<i>"kalanga:yana"</i>
<i>"kako"</i>	<i>kakowa:"</i>	<i>"kakowa:tana"</i>	<i>"kakowa:yana"</i>

As seen above the endings *"tana"* and *"yana"* are affixed to the full form as given in the general tense.

- D) *"eya"*, meaning ‘yes’ also means ‘to agree to something’. It takes transitive verb forms with the subject sign at the end of the verb (or thrown forward to the end of the previous word). Also it may take an indirect object.

General Tense		Past Tense	
<i>"eyāyae:"</i>	‘he says ‘yes’, he agrees’.	<i>"eyakadae:"</i>	‘he said ‘yes’, ‘he agreed’.
<i>"eyākowae:"</i>	‘he says ‘yes’ to them’.	<i>"eyāyadkowae:"</i>	‘he said ‘yes’ to them’.

- E) *"seno:"* meaning ‘to go away’, ‘to go to a place’, retains this root form in the future or general (*"seno:wa"*), in the present continuous (*"seno:tana"*), and in the past tense (*"seno:yana"*). However, when the infixes *"ke"*, *"le"*, and *"aka"* are inserted, then to translate ‘go away’ etc., the root *"sen"* is used with intransitive forms, e.g. *"senkenae"*, *"senlenae"*, *"senakanae:"* all meaning ‘he went away’ with the shades of meaning which the given infixes indicate. (see Lesson 17).

As indicated elsewhere *"sen"* when used transitively means ‘to walk’, ‘go back and forth’, etc.

- F) *"dāra:"* (root *"dāra"* + mood marker *"-a"*) as an independent verb is used only in this one form. It means ‘is coming’, e.g., *"Gama dāra:"* = ‘Rain is coming’. This root is used as a verbal affix meaning ‘to bring along with’ (of someone coming).
- G) *"men"*, meaning ‘to say’ (cf. previous Lesson) besides being used with the regular verb forms is often used merely in its root form *"men"* for the purpose of quoting replies made by some third person, or in order to emphasize one’s own words, e.g. *"Chikana:e:men?"* = ‘What does he say?’; *"Kaing seno:wae:men"*. = ‘He says that he will not go’.
- "Kaing seno:waing men"*. = ‘I tell you that I won’t go’ (e.g., after already having said it and the hearer insists to the contrary).

LESSON 37 - SOME USAGES OF THE DUAL AND PLURAL NUMBERS

Throughout this grammar right from the first lesson on personal pronouns we have seen that Ho distinguishes carefully singular, dual, and plural forms of all personal pronouns and other animate and in many cases inanimate nouns and pronouns.

We will sum up here some final notions concerning number in Ho.

In Ho the dual is sometimes used when addressing one person to show respect. This is done within the family circle in certain cases, e.g., by a woman to a parent or older brother or sister of her husband; by a man to his daughter-in-law. Outside of the family circle it is used when addressing a prominent person, e.g., the village headman, the village master, person holding some government post.

Also there are cases where the plural is used to show respect e.g., a man can say “*kiminko*” when addressing his daughter-in-law (or when referring to her), and she in turn could say “*honyarko*” when addressing her father-in-law (or when referring to him). However even in these cases the verb form would be in the dual, e.g., “*Kiminko, da: aguwalingben*”, = ‘daughter- in-law, bring me some water’.

The plural in Ho is often used in idiomatic ways to include other like objects when referring to nouns, or other like occasions when referring to verbs: e.g., “*āko mēreng adaetana*”, = ‘I feel a bitter taste in my mouth and the like’ (tongue, throat, etc.)

“*Da:ko kae: dupildaiya:*” = ‘She cannot carry water and such loads’. “*aya:homoko*” = ‘his body’ (and its various limbs).

“*tingukotereyōko dūmo:wa*”, = ‘they will fall asleep even if they stand and do such things’.

“*Enreyōge miyad-bariya burdudkoko nirkogeya*” = ‘nevertheless a few flying ants will run away or otherwise escape’.

We have seen in Lesson 35 on translating indirect discourse into Ho the function of “*mente*”, = ‘saying’ in changing indirect discourse of English into direct discourse in Ho. A plural marker, “*-ko*”, can be added after “*men*”, giving us the form “*menkote*”, meaning ‘saying this and such like things’.

LESSON 38 - POSSESSIVES; USE OF -TIKIN AND -TEKO AFFIXES; USE OF -REN AND -REYA: AFFIXES.

We have seen earlier in the grammar the formation of possessives by means of affixing an “*-a*” to the pronoun or noun; e.g., ‘you’ (singular) = “*-am*”; ‘your’ = “*-ama:*”; ‘the child’ = “*-hon*”; ‘the shirt of the child’ = “*-hona: sutui*”.

In certain cases where the root of the word possessing would end in a letter with which Ho roots do not normally end (see introduction) for euphonic reasons a vowel echoing the vowel preceding the final consonant is put before the “*-a:*” of the possessive form, e.g., “*dūtuwa: jowar*” = ‘the greeting of the angel’; “*Dauditwa: ote*” = ‘the field of Daud’; “*Kristiya: homo*” = ‘the body of Christ’. In these three examples the roots are “*dūt*”, “*Daud*”, and “*Krist*”.

There are certain cases where the “*-a:*” is not appended and the root alone of the word possessing is put before the word possessed. This is used especially when the possessing word precedes the following: “*hon*”, “*enga*”, “*apu*”, “*hatu*”, “*disum*”, “*owa:*” e.g., “*Damu hon*” = ‘the child of Damu’, “*mai engate*” = ‘the mother of the young girl’; “*babu apute*” = ‘the father of the young boy’; “*ale hatu*” = ‘our village’; “*ako disum*” = ‘their country’; “*ale owa:*” = ‘our house’. In some of these cases the form containing the “*-a:*” may be used, but in most of these cases the more colloquial form is that without the “*-a:*”.

PRONOMINAL POSSESSIVES with -t-

With pronouns there is an alternate form of expressing possession. Instead of putting e.g., “*ainga:*” (my) in front of the word possessed, “*tañ*” is affixed to the word possessed.

These affixed forms are as follows:-

	1 st person	2 nd person	3 rd person
singular	“ <i>tañ</i> ”	“ <i>tam</i> ”	“ <i>tae</i> ”
dual (incl.)	“ <i>talañ</i> ”	“ <i>taben</i> ”	“ <i>takin</i> ”
(excl.)	“ <i>taliñ</i> ”		
plural (incl.)	“ <i>tabu</i> ”	“ <i>tape</i> ”	“ <i>tako</i> ”
(excl.)	“ <i>tale</i> ”		

Therefore these are perfectly regular, adding “*t*” in front of the full pronoun form except that in the 3rd person singular the vowel “*e*” is not checked.

This form is used especially in contexts of intimacy, especially when grieving, sympathizing with someone, or in songs; e.g., “*Bautabu goe:yana*” = ‘Our (plural inclusive) older brother died’; “*Hontaben adakana*” = ‘Your (dual) child is lost’.

Sometimes this form (“*tan*”, etc.) is put before the noun possessed, e.g., “*O tañ hon*” = ‘Oh, my child’.

These forms (“*tan*”, etc.) can also be affixed to the verb form, e.g., “*Honko bañkowataking*” = ‘These two have no children’. “*Upun taka mena: tae*” = ‘He has four rupees’. Although this construction is usually used with verbs translating notions of having, etc., its use can extend beyond this, e.g., “*Hon en mulite: nireyanatape*” = ‘That child of yours ran in that direction’.

We might note here that “*talañ*” and “*tabu*”, are used in highly idiomatic forms where the speaker wants to associate the one or ones addressed with himself (and his associates). e.g., “*Mar tabu, sabepe*” = ‘Come on, friends, take hold of it’. “*Am tabu hatingeme*” = ‘You, my friend, divide it amongst us’. “*Am talañ*” often connotes that of the two of us, you; e.g., “*Am talañ, dubme, an tinguwakano:wa*” = ‘Of the two of us you sit down, I will remain standing’.

There are indications that the use of these endings, “*-tan*”, “*-tam*”, etc., represents a more ancient mode of expressing possessives and one more typical of the Austroasiatic languages than the use of the possessive pronouns “*ana:*”, “*ama:*”, etc., which use was probably a later development due to the influence of the Aryan and/or Dravidian languages of India.

POSSESSIVES USING ENDINGS -(i)ñ, -m(e), and -te.

Nouns expressing relations form the possessives ‘my’, ‘your’ (sing), ‘his’ or ‘her’ by adding “*(-i)ñ*”, “*-m(e)*” “*-te*” to the root, e.g., from the root “*apu*” = ‘father’, we get “*apuñ*” = ‘my father’; “*apum*” = ‘your father’; “*apute*” = ‘his father’.

In these cases to translate ‘my’ we add “*-in*” after a consonant, and (or) after a vowel; to translate ‘your’ (singular) we add “*-m*”, after a vowel, and “*-me*” after a consonant; to translate ‘his’ or ‘her’ we always add “*-te*” to either a vowel or consonant. e.g.,

	1 st person	2 nd person	3 rd person
“ <i>apu</i> ” (father)	“ <i>apung</i> ”	“ <i>apum</i> ”	“ <i>apute</i> ”
“ <i>enga</i> ” (mother)	“ <i>engaging</i> ”	“ <i>engam</i> ”	“ <i>engate</i> ”
“ <i>bau</i> ” (older brother)	“ <i>baung</i> ”	“ <i>baum</i> ”	“ <i>baute</i> ”

If the word indicating relation is a compound word with the words “*kimin*”, “*honyar*”, or

“*hanar*” as the second part of the compound, this second part takes the “-*m*”, or “-*te*” ending when required. If however the words “*kowa*”, “*kui*”, “*era*”, or “*sēd*” are in the second part of a compound word, the first part takes the “-*n*”, “-*m*”, or “-*te*” ending when required, e.g.,

1 st person	2 nd person	3 rd person
“ <i>bau-honyar</i> ”	“ <i>bau-honyaraing</i> ”	“ <i>bau-honyarme</i> ”
“ <i>hon-kimin</i> ”	“ <i>hon-kiminaing</i> ”	“ <i>hon-kiminme</i> ”
“ <i>jai-kowa</i> ”	“ <i>jaing-kowa</i> ”	“ <i>jaim-kowa</i> ”
“ <i>undi-kui</i> ”	“ <i>unding-kui</i> ”	“ <i>undim-kui</i> ”
“ <i>hon-sēd</i> ”	“ <i>honaing-sēd</i> ”	“ <i>honme-sēd</i> ”
		“ <i>bau-honyarte</i> ” (wife’s old brother)
		“ <i>hon-liminte</i> ” (son’s wife)
		“ <i>jaite-kowa</i> ” (grandson)
		“ <i>undite-kui</i> ” (younger sister)
		“ <i>honte-sēd</i> ” (older bro’s son)

A full chart of relations giving all such forms will be found in Lesson 47.

The word for namesake, “*saki*”, takes the short possessive endings as do the words for friend, “*juri*” and “*gati*” (the latter, which is commonly used in Mundari, is used in songs in Ho).

“*Era*”, ‘wife’ or ‘woman’, does not use these short endings for the possessive. My wife = “*ainga: era*” or “*erataing*”. However for the third person singular we hear fairly commonly the form “*eperate*” = ‘his wife’, for which we can also say “*eya: era*”.

“*Hon*” when used alone does not take the short form (“*honing*”, etc.). ‘My child’ would be “*ainga: hon*” or “*hontaing*”. However “*kowa-hon*” and “*kui-hon*” are some-times used with the “*hon*” put first and taking short endings, e.g. my son = “*honing-kowa*”.

Besides the above terms for relations there are some others used only in the vocative, such as “*eyang*”, = mother; “*dada*” = ‘older brother’; “*dai*” = ‘older sister’; “*mamu*” = ‘brother of mother’. These do not take possessive forms as given above.

It is interesting to note that many vocatives use a “-*ng*” ending (compare the ending of the 1st person singular Possessive), e.g.:-

“*apung*”, = ‘father’ (vocative) compare “*apung*”, = ‘my father’ (see Luke, 15: 18).

“*eyang*”, = ‘mother’ (vocative) compare “*engang/eyang*”, = ‘my mother’.

“*tatang*”, = ‘grandfather’ (voc.) compare “*tatang*”, = ‘my grandfather’.

“*jiyang*”, = ‘grandmother’ (voc.) compare “*jiyang*”, = ‘my grandmother’.

“*teyang*”, = ‘older sister’s husband’ (voc.) compare “*teyang*” = ‘my older sister’s husband’.

DUAL AND PLURAL FORMS OF POSSESSIVES WHICH TAKE ENDINGS-(i)ng, -m(e), and -te.

When a noun taking a short possessive ending “-*in*”, “-*me*”, “-*te*” is in the dual, it affixes “*tiking*” after this short ending; if the noun is in the plural, it affixes “*teko*”, e.g. :-

‘My two older brothers’ = “*baungtiking*”.

‘My older brothers’ (plural.) = “*baungteko*”.

If two brothers are talking together about their older brother, they could say “*alanga:bau*” or “*baulang*”. This “-*lang*” form can, be affixed to words (the same way as “-*in*” etc.) for dual inclusive possessive pronouns. “-*ling*”, “-*bu*”, “-*le*”, “-*ben*”, “-*pe*”, “-*king*”, and “-*ko*” cannot be so affixed. Instead of “*alanga:bau*” they could also say “*bautalang*”, especially when expressing grief, sympathy, etc. If two brothers are talking about 2 older brothers, they would say “*alanga: bauking*” (“*baukingtalang*”); if about 3 older brothers “*alanga: bauko*” “*baukotalang*”.

If three or more brothers are talking about their elder brother they would say “*abuwa: bau*” (“*bautabu*”); if about 2 older brothers, “*abuwa: bauking*” (“*baukingtabu*”); if about three older brothers “*abuwa: bauko*” (“*baukotabu*”).

Except for the cases given in the two above paragraphs, where the pronouns are inclusive, in all other cases, when the personal pronoun is dual or plural, the “-(i)ng” (for the first person), “-m(e)” (for the second person) and “-te” (for the third person), are retained, and the dual or plural possessive forms added, as follows:- ‘The older brother of you two’ = “-abena:baum” (“baumtaben”); ‘his and my older brother’ = “-alinga:baung” (“baungtaling”); ‘their (plural) older brother’ = “-akowa: baute” (“bautetako”).

In these cases where the noun itself is dual or plural, “-tikin” or “-teko” are inserted immediately after the “-(i)ng”, “-m(e)”, or “-te”, as follows:- ‘Your (dual) older brothers’ (plural) would be “-abena: baumteko” (“baumtekotaben”); ‘their (plural) two older brothers’ = “-akowa: bautetiking” (“bautetikingtako”); ‘their and my two older brothers’ = “-aleya: bauntiking” (“bauntikingtale”).

All the cases above refer to common older brothers. In other cases, where it is a question of different brothers of different families, neither the “-ing”, “-m”, “-te” nor the “-tikin”, “-teko” are used e.g., ‘If you tell two brothers to bring their two older brothers’, you would say, “-abena: bauntiking agukingben”; but if you tell two children (not brothers) to bring their two older brothers (i.e., each his older brother), then you would say, “-abena: bauking agukingben”.

Therefore when referring to one, two, or more common older brothers, the scheme would be as follows:-

Pronoun	1 older brother	2 older brothers	3 older brothers
1 st singular	baung	baungtiking	baungteko
1 st dual inclusive	alanga: bau (bautalang) (baulang)	alanga: buaking (baukingtalang)	Alanga: bauko (baukotalang)
1 st dual exclusive	alinga: baung (baungtaling)	alinga: baungtiking (baungtikingtaling)	alinga: baungteko (baungtekotaling)
1 st plural inclusive	abuwa: bau (bautabu)	abuwa: bauking (baukingtabu)	abuwa: bauko (baukotabu)
1 st plural exclusive	aleya: baung (baungtale)	aleya: baungtiking (baungtikingtale)	aleya: baungteko (baungtakotale)
2 nd singular	baum	bautiking	baumteko
2 nd dual	abena: baum (baumtaben)	abena: bauntiking (bauntikingtaben)	abena: baumteko (baumtekotaben)
2 nd plural	apeya: baum (baumtape)	apeya:bauntiking (bauntikingtape)	apeya: baumteko (baumtekotape)
3 rd singular	baute	bautetiking	bauteteko
3 rd dual	akinga: baute (bautetaking)	akinga:bautetiking (bautetikingtalo)	akinga: bauteteko (bautetekotaking)
3 rd plural	akowa: baute (bautetako)	(akowa: bautetiking)	akowa: bauteteko (bautetekotako)

The word for parents, “*enga-apu*”, attaches the “-ng”, “-m”, “-te” to both roots and affixes the “-tiking” ending after that. In general this would follow the pattern of two older brothers as given above, i.e. :-

my	parents	- “ <i>enganga-apungtiking</i> ”.
our (2, inclusive)	parents	- “ <i>alanga: enga-apuking</i> ”.
our (2, exclusive)	parents	- “ <i>alinga: engang-apuntiking</i> ”.
our (plural inclusive)	parents	- “ <i>abuwa: enga-apuking</i> ”.
our (plural exclusive)	parents	- “ <i>aleya: engang-apungtiking</i> ”.
your (singular)	parents	- “ <i>engam-apumtiking</i> ”.
your (dual)	parents	- “ <i>abena: engam-apumtiking</i> ”.
your (pl.)	parents	- “ <i>apeya: engam-apumtiking</i> ”.
his	parents	- “ <i>engate-aputetiking</i> ”.
their (dual)	parents	- “ <i>akinga: engate-aputetiking</i> ”.
their (plural)	parents	- “ <i>akowa: engate-aputetiking</i> ”.

In all these cases we are referring to common parents; if referring to different parents of different persons we would not keep the “-m”, “-te” endings, nor the “-tiking” forms, e.g., if you tell a group of children, ‘Obey your parents’, you would say “*Apeya: enga-apuko manting*”. Whereas if you tell three brothers, ‘Obey your parents’, you would say “*Apeya: engam-apumtiking manatingkingpe*”.

Other uses of “-tiking” and “-teko” :- As indicated earlier in the exercises when referring to two persons with honour, or when using the honourific form for one person (third person) “-tiking” is affixed, e.g., “*Adam ondo: Ewatiking*” = ‘Adam and Eve’; *mankitiking* = ‘are the *manki*’ (chieftains).

The ending “-teko” is affixed to a word to indicate a person plus all those accompanying him or belonging to his group, e.g., “*Somateko*” would mean ‘Soma and his associates’. “*Baumteko*” would mean ‘your older brothers’, or ‘your older brother plus companions’, e.g., in a certain context this could mean ‘your older brother plus the other members of the family’. “*Apumteko*” could mean ‘your father and the other members of the family’ or ‘your father and his associates’.

THE USE OF “-ren” AND “-reya:” AS POSTPOSITIONS:-

Two words closely linked but without strict possession, usually translatable by ‘of’ in English, but with various connotations (‘made of’, ‘containing’, ‘costing’, ‘concerning’, etc.,) append “-ren” to the qualifying word, if the qualified word is animate, and “-reya:” to the qualifying word, if the qualified word is inanimate, e.g. :-

“ <i>ote-hasareya: paiti</i> ”	= ‘work of the fields’.
“ <i>owa:ren honko</i> ”	= ‘children of the house’.
“ <i>mid sikareya: bulung</i> ”	= ‘salt costing 25 paise’.
“ <i>iril takaren sim</i> ”	= ‘a chicken costing eight rupees’.
“ <i>dukureya: kaji</i> ”	= ‘a matter of regret (sad news)’.
“ <i>rajareya: kaji</i> ”	= ‘news about the king’.

Note the last example. “*rajā: kaji*” would mean ‘the king’s word’, i.e., something said, or decreed, by the king; whereas “*rajareya: kaji*” means something spoken about the king. School boys who become accustomed to thinking in Hindi tend to translate ‘news about the king’ as “*raja bishayreya: kaji*”.

Some cases where “-ren” or “-reya:” postpositions would be expected merely use the root of the qualifying word without any affix, e.g., :-

- ‘the munda of the village’ = “*hatu munda*”.
- ‘the people of the neighbourhood’ = “*hatu-sai hōko*”.

LESSON 39 - ADJECTIVES

In the course of the exercises of this book many adjectives have been given. Adjectives precede the word modified and do not change in form according to number.

Comparison of adjectives:- This follows the same system as that used in Hindi. For the comparative “-ete” is affixed to that to which something is compared, e.g., “*En sadomete nen sadom maranga*” = ‘This horse is bigger than that horse’.

For the superlative, as in Hindi, “*sabenkoete*” (than all) is used, e.g., “*Sabenkoete nen hati maranga*”. = ‘This elephant is the biggest of all’.

A few words have special forms to indicate ‘very’; e.g., “*māparang*” = very big; “*hūpuring*” = ‘very small’; “*jīpiling*” = ‘very long’.

Adjectives can take affixes which qualify the intensity of the adjective, e.g., “*no:*” = ‘somewhat’, ‘a little’, e.g., “*marangno*” = ‘somewhat big’; “*salangino*” = ‘somewhat tall’.

“*utar*”, “*utarang*”, “*rena*”, “*renga*” all mean ‘utterly’, ‘very’, e.g., “*marangutar*” = ‘utterly big’, ‘very big indeed’.

Sometimes an English adjective will be translated by a perfect participle in Ho, e.g., ‘lame’ = “*lokeyakan*”; ‘wounded’ = “*gawakan*”. The adjective ‘poor’ is rendered by “*renge:tan*”, a present participle form (or by “*renge:-rabang*”); ‘rich’ can be translated by “*mundatan*”.

Adjectives ending in ‘-able’ and ‘-ible’ in English are translated in Ho as follows:- the root of the word is put, followed by “*dai*” (which can often also be dispensed with), followed by the passive ending “-o:”, followed by “-leka(n)”, e.g., “*nel-o:-leka(n)*” or “*nel-dai-o:-leka(n)*” = ‘visible’; “*ka sāting-dai-o:-leka(n)*” = ‘unendurable’.

Adjectives can be formed from some nouns by adding “-an” to the noun. These have the connotation of possessing, having, e.g., “*pē:yan*” - ‘powerful’ (having power); “*gonongan*” = ‘costly’; “*bar katan*” = ‘two-legged’.

Also “-n” is affixed to forms such as “*leka*”, “*jā*”, “*jeta*” to indicate an adjectival form, e.g., “*jālekate*” = ‘in any way at all’; “*jalekan*” = ‘any kind of’.

LESSON 40 - POSTPOSITIONS

Whereas in English we have prepositions, which precede nouns, in Ho (as in Hindi) we have postpositions, which follow the noun to which they refer.

We have already indicated the main postpositions and their usage, e.g., “-re” = ‘in’, ‘on’; “-te” = ‘to’, ‘by means of’; “-ete” = ‘from’, ‘than’; “-lo:” or “-lo:te” = ‘with (accompaniment)’; “*lagid*”, or “*lagidte*” = ‘for’; “*mente*” = ‘for’. For the use of the postpositions “-a:”, “-ren”, and “-reya:” see Lesson 38 on possessives and related concepts.

In Ho there are many roots which can be used as **A)** a verb; **B)** a post-position adding “-re” to this root to indicate a position of rest, or adding “-te” to the root to indicate a motion towards, **C)** an adverb (also adding “-re” or “-te” as for postpositions, e.g., root “*ayer*”, used as:-

a verb: “*Garate: ayerkedkowa*” = ‘He led them to the river’.

a postp. (adding “te”) “*Aing ayerte seno:me*” = ‘Go ahead of me’.

a postp. (adding “re”) “*En diri ayerre kitab ememe*”. = ‘Put the book in front of that stone’.

an adverb (adding te) “*Ayerte seno:me*” = ‘go first’.

an adverb (adding “re”) “*Ayerre dubme*” - ‘Sit in front’.

Some such roots are the following:-

root	verb meaning	postposition meaning	adverb meaning
“ <i>ayer</i> ”	to proceed, lead	before, in front of	beforehand, in front
“ <i>japa:</i> ”	to be, come, put close to	near to	nearby
“ <i>parom</i> ”	to cross over	across	on the other side
“ <i>chanab</i> ”	to be late	after	afterwards
“ <i>suba</i> ”	to be put beneath	beneath	down below
“ <i>Chetan</i> ”	to be, put above	above	up above
“ <i>samanang</i> ”	to be, put in front of	in front of	up front
“ <i>tala</i> ”	to be, put in the middle	between, among	in the middle
“ <i>latar</i> ”	to be, put below	under, below	down below

All of these given in this scheme can take both “-te” and “-re” in both postposition and adverb as in the examples given above for “*ayer*”.

“*Bar*” = ‘outside’, and “*bitar*” = ‘inside’, have no verb usage but can be used as postpositions and adverbs with both “-te” and “-re”.

“*Doya*” = ‘back’, ‘in back of’, has a noun and a postposition usage with “-te” and “-re”. This is also true of “*kundam*” = ‘the back of a house’, ‘behind’.

From the noun “*hora*” = ‘road’, we get the postposition “*horate*” = ‘by means of’.

Usually the postposition follows immediately after the noun. This is always true if the noun is inanimate. In some cases where the noun is animate the possessive ending “-a:” may be affixed to the noun, e.g., “*ama: lagidte*” = ‘for you’. (In this case there seems to be a slight shade of difference in the meaning of “*am lagidte*” and “*ama: lagidte*”. “*am lagidte*” seems to mean ‘for you’ in a stricter sense of ‘you’, and “*ama: lagidte*” = ‘for you’ in a broader sense of you, i.e., for your interests.) “*Iniya: horate*” = ‘through him’. In general, in Ho, except for “*lagidte*” and “*horate*”, the possessive ending “-a:” is rarely used before postpositions.

LESSON 41 - INTERROGATIVES

As indicated earlier, questions in Ho are asked by adding “*chi*” to the end of a sentence. However sometimes merely the inflection of the voice indicates the question and no “*chi*” is put e.g., ‘Will you go to the market today?’ could be “*Tising, hātotem, seno:wa chi?*” or merely “*Tising hātotem seno:wa?*”.

To translate the English ‘Aren’t you going?’ we can put the “*chi*” immediately after “*ka*”, i.e., “*Kachim seno:wa?*”. We could also say “*Kam seno:wa chi?*”.

We give here some of the more common interrogative pronouns and adjectives. For pronouns we also give the dual and plural forms.

	dual	plural
“ <i>okoe</i> ” = ‘who?’ (a person)	“ <i>okoetiking</i> ”	“ <i>okoeteko</i> ”
“ <i>okon:</i> ” = ‘which one?’ (animate)	“ <i>okonking</i> ”	“ <i>okonko</i> ”
“ <i>okona</i> ” = ‘which thing?’ (inan)	“ <i>okonaking</i> ”	“ <i>okonako</i> ”
“ <i>okon</i> ” = ‘which?’ (adjective)		

From “*okon*” as earlier indicated you can get the forms:

	dual	plural
“ <i>okonre</i> ” -where? (in or on)		
“ <i>okonte</i> ” - where? (to)		
“ <i>ckonēte</i> ” - from where?		
“ <i>okonēten</i> ” - from where?	(adj.) “ <i>Nī okonēten hō?</i> ” = ‘He is a man from	

	where?	
“ <i>okonētini</i> :” - a man from where?	“ <i>okonētenking</i> ”	“ <i>okonētenko</i> ”
“ <i>chikani</i> :” - what (kind of)? (anim.)	“ <i>chikanking</i> ”	“ <i>chikanko</i> ”
“ <i>chikana</i> :” - what (kind of)? (inan)	“ <i>chikana:king</i> ”	“ <i>chikana:ko</i> ”
“ <i>chikan</i> ” -what kind of? (adj.)		
“ <i>china</i> :” - alternate form for “ <i>chikana</i> :” = ‘what?’		
“ <i>chikana:mente</i> ”, “ <i>china:mente</i> ”, or “ <i>chikanreya</i> :” = ‘why?’		
“ <i>chilika(te)</i> ” = ‘how?’		
“ <i>chilikan</i> ” = ‘of what quality?’ (adjective)		
“ <i>chilikani</i> :” = ‘one (animate) of what quality?’	“ <i>chilikanking</i> ”	“ <i>chilikanko</i> ”
“ <i>chilikana</i> :” = ‘one (inanimate) of what quality?’	“ <i>chilikana:king</i> ”	“ <i>chilikana:ko</i> ”
“ <i>chimita</i> ” = ‘at what time?’, see “ <i>imita</i> ” = ‘at that time’.		
“ <i>chimitang</i> ” = ‘at what time?’, see “ <i>imitang</i> ” = ‘at that time’.		
“ <i>chimin</i> ” = ‘how much?’, ‘how many?’, see “ <i>imin</i> ” = ‘that much’, ‘that many’.		
“ <i>chiminang</i> ” = ‘in what quantity?’ - see “ <i>iminait</i> ” = ‘as much as’.		
“ <i>chimpi:r</i> ” = ‘how much?’, ‘how big?’, ‘how tall?’, ‘reaching how high?’, see “ <i>impi:r</i> ”.		
“ <i>champirang</i> ” - same as “ <i>chimpi:r</i> ” but sometimes with a distributive sense, = ‘how much, each?’		
“ <i>chuila</i> ” = ‘when?’ (in a broader sense than “ <i>chimita</i> ”) cf. “ <i>ulang</i> ”, day (in Mundari this is still pronounced “ <i>chiula</i> ”, literally ‘on what day?’ In Ho the “ <i>i</i> ” and “ <i>u</i> ” of the original form have reversed places).		

LESSON 42 - ADVERBS

Some roots which usually serve as nouns, adjectives, or verbs can serve as adverbs by adding “*te*” or “*lekate*” to the root e.g.:-

“ <i>bugite</i> ”	- ‘well’.	“ <i>landiyate</i> ”	- ‘lazily’.
“ <i>bugilekate</i> ”	- ‘well’.	“ <i>hapate</i> ”	- ‘quietly’.
“ <i>rānsate</i> ” (<i>ā long</i>)	- ‘joyfully’.	“ <i>kurkurt</i> ”	- ‘angrily’.
“ <i>sukute</i> ”	- ‘voluntarily’.	“ <i>suwaete</i> ”	- ‘slowly’.
“ <i>gojo:lekate</i> ”	- ‘mortally’.		

Many adverbial forms in English are translated by verbal affixes in Ho:-

e.g. ‘throw out’	= “ <i>hurla-era</i> :”
‘drive out’	= “ <i>har-o:l</i> ”
‘scold back’	= “ <i>gonde-hal</i> ”
‘come back’	= “ <i>huju:ura</i> ”
‘blow out’	= “ <i>ong-ē</i> :” (<i>ē long</i>)

In Lesson 40, on Postpositions, we indicate many words which serve as verbs, postpositions, and adverbs.

For the rest many adverbs of time, manner, etc., have their own separate words in Ho, e.g., “*hola*” = ‘yesterday’. Many of these have been given in the exercises. This is merely a question of learning vocabulary, and represents no grammatical problem.

Since adverbs of time are numerous and .in. frequent use it will be helpful if we include a list of them here.

“ <i>tising</i> ”	- ‘today’
“ <i>gapa</i> ”	- ‘tomorrow’
“ <i>meyang</i> ”	- ‘the day after tomorrow’

“gapater”	- ‘the day after any day’
“ter gapater”	- ‘the day after gapater’
“indri:” (or “indiri:”)	- ‘the day after meyan’ (3 days from now)
“tiri:” (or “tintiri:”)	- ‘the day after indiri:’ (4 day? from now)
“ten tintiri”	- ‘5 days from now’
“ter tiri”	- ‘5 days from now’
“hola”	- ‘yesterday’
“holater”	- ‘the day before yesterday’
“ter holater”	- ‘the day before <i>holater</i> ’ (3 days ago)
“holaman betarang”	- a few days back (within a week)
“holaman”	- some days further back than <i>holaman betarang</i>
“honder”	- a few months back
“honderman”	- a few months back
“ne (or nen) sirma”	- this year
“ne (or nen) kalom”	- this year
“kalom”	- next year
“ter kolom”	- the year after next
“mā”	- last year
“mā din”	- last year
“mā sirma”	- the year
“misad (sirma)”	- the year before last
“mā misad”	- the year before last
“ter misad”	- the year before <i>misad sima</i>
“huju: chandu:”	- next month
“mulu: (chandu:”	- next month
“seno:yan chandu:”	- last month
“nireyan chandu:”	- last month
“dīmsi”	- daily, every day
“dīmsi-dīmsi”	- daily, every day
“ano:mutid”	- daily, every day
“ano:gapa”	- daily, every day
“jawge”	- daily, every day
“hāt mutid”	- weekly, every week
“chandu: mutid”	- monthly, every month
“sirma mutid”	- yearly, every year
“sirma sirma”	- yearly, every year
“nā:”	- now
“imita or imitang”	- while, at the time when
“nimita or nimitang”	- at such time
“enang”	- at that time (some time back)
“jā dipli”	- at any time
“jā imita”	- at any time
“jā imitang”	- at any time
“jā chimita”	- at any time
“jā chimitang”	- at any time
“jā chuila”	- whenever
“jā chuilaw ka”	- never
“jā betar”	- any day
“jā betarang”	- any day
“jaw-jaw”	- always
“jawge”	- always

“ <i>barabari</i> ”	- always
“ <i>misa-misa</i> ”	- sometimes
“ <i>esu-dunā</i> ”	- often, frequently
“ <i>esu pura: duna</i> ”	- very often
“ <i>lika</i> ”	- after a little while
“ <i>likano:</i> ”	- after a little while
“ <i>lika pang</i> ”	- after a little while
“ <i>na:e</i> ”	- after a while (more remote than <i>lika</i>)
“ <i>mid torsa</i> ”	- immediately
“ <i>en-torsa</i> ”	- immediately after that
“ <i>ayerte</i> ”	- before
“ <i>chanab(te)</i> ”	- after, afterwards, later
“ <i>tayom(te)</i> ”	- after, afterwards, later
“ <i>sidare</i> ”	- at first
“ <i>munure</i> ”	- in the beginning, at the time of the ancestors
“ <i>chanabre</i> ”	- in the end
“ <i>tundure</i> ”	- in the end
“ <i>musung betar</i> ”	- once upon a time
“ <i>mid dipli</i> ”	- once upon a time
“ <i>auri</i> ”	- not yet
“ <i>nā: jaked</i> ”	- up till now
“ <i>joka gāri chanab</i> ”	- a short while later

LESSON 43 - PARTICLES, INTERJECTIONS, CONJUNCTIONS

In Ho many small particles are used colloquially. Many of these precede a vocative, or an imperative; many are affixed to other words as enclitics. We will try here to indicate some of the main ones trying to give an idea also of their meaning, although many of these are almost impossible to translate.

INTERJECTIONS preceding vocatives or imperatives

<i>dola</i>	- an exclamation inviting someone to do something along with the speaker. It is used sometimes by itself, or often in the form “ <i>dolang</i> ” when inviting one other, and “ <i>dolabu</i> ”, when inviting two or more others,
<i>do</i>	- a contracted form of “ <i>dola</i> ” above.
<i>mar</i>	- an interjection used to urge someone to say or to do something. This often adds the enclitic “ <i>a</i> ” (“ <i>mara</i> ”) when calling out, and the enclitic “ <i>na</i> ” (“ <i>marna</i> ”) when one woman is exhorting another.
<i>ela</i>	- an interjection inviting someone to come.
<i>jū (ju)</i>	- an exclamation urging someone to go away.
<i>da</i>	- an interjection, ‘give it here’, ‘please give’, e.g., “ <i>da dā: emangme</i> ” = ‘here, give me water’.
<i>ate</i>	- a familiar interjection sometimes preceding a vocative, also used with enclitic “ <i>a</i> ” (“ <i>ateya</i> ”) and “ <i>na</i> ” (“ <i>atena</i> ”).
<i>ama</i>	- a familiar interjection sometimes preceding a vocative.
<i>ne:</i>	- an interjection calling attention to something at hand, e.g., something which someone is giving, “ <i>ne: sabeme</i> ” = ‘Here, take hold of it.’
<i>ene:</i>	- an interjection calling attention to something not right at hand; used in form “ <i>ene:enka</i> ” to mean ‘in that way’ (emphasizing ‘that’).
<i>ocha</i>	- an interjection meaning ‘be careful’, ‘get out of the way’.

- ocho* - an interjection meaning 'listen', 'heed', e.g., "*Ocho Sin-bonga*" = 'Heed my prayer, God'.
haena - an exclamation of grief or pain.
haegore - an exclamation of grief or pain.

ENCLITICS, - small particles attached to other words.

- do* - an enclitic usually implying some contrast.
-ma - an enclitic much like "*do*", often implying some contrast.
-ge - an enclitic emphasizing word to which affixed.
-geda - an emphatic enclitic, stronger than "*ge*".
-a - an enclitic affixed to vocatives and imperatives, used especially when calling children, when calling from a distance, etc.
- na - an enclitic affixed to words like "*mar*", "*ate*", etc. when one woman is addressing another woman.
-ga - an enclitic indicating respect, used more by women or occasionally by men addressing women. (This is used more toward Chakradharpur and the northern part of the Ho country.)
-ō - also.
-mate - same as "*ma*" given above.
-mateya - same as "*ma*" given above.
-cha - an enclitic meaning 'isn't it', 'isn't he', etc. e.g., - "*Ini: munda cha?*" = 'He is the headman, isn't he?'.

Some common CONJUNCTIONS:

- ondo:* = and.
chi = or.
mendo = but.
enredo = if that is the case.
enreyō = nevertheless.
banredo = otherwise.
karedo = otherwise.
ente = then.
enamente = therefore.

OTHER PARTICLES:-

- eya* = yes.
ka = no.
bano = no, not (in certain contexts).
idu = perhaps.
torang = perhaps (following the verb form).
ido ondo: = I don't know.
honang = a word added to a conditional or implied conditional sentence to indicate that the condition has not been realized or is not realizable or probable.
derang = expressed uncertainty about the truth of something heard.
kē = an exclamation used by women after hearing some news. 'indeed', 'is that so'.
hapui = the unfortunate one (close to Hindi "*bechara*") usually, follows the person referred to, but if "*ondo:*", "*ente*" or some such word comes earlier, "*hapui*" will often follow that word.
halai = an interjection used by a woman talking to another woman, or sometimes when talking in a friendly way to a man, affirming that something is true or registering surprise.
halte = an interjection used when suddenly recognizing someone. "*Am halte*" = 'Oh, you', sometimes used in the meaning, 'It is true, isn't it'.

LESSON 44 – NUMBERS

Ho numbers from one to ten have a long and a short form. We will indicate these forms and then explain their usage. In giving these numbers we will at the same time indicate how to say ‘one by one’, ‘one each’ etc., (the distributive forms). These also have separate long and short forms, and the first two numbers of the latter have slight variations when referred to men, so we will give a separate column for that.

	cardinal long form	cardinal short form	distrubutative long form	distributive short form men	others
1.	<i>miyad</i>	<i>mid, mi</i>	<i>mīpiyad</i>	<i>mipidō</i>	<i>mi-mi</i>
2.	<i>bariya</i>	<i>bar</i>	<i>bābariya</i>	<i>bārbarō</i>	<i>bābar</i>
3.	<i>apiya</i>	<i>apē</i>	<i>āpiya</i>	<i>āpē hō</i>	<i>āpē</i>
4.	<i>upuniya</i>	<i>upun</i>	<i>ūpniya</i>	<i>ūpun hō</i>	<i>ūpun</i>
5.	<i>mōya</i>	<i>moe</i>	<i>mōmōya</i>	<i>mōmoe</i>	<i>mōmoe</i>
6.	<i>turuiya</i>	<i>turui</i>	<i>tūturiya</i>	<i>tūurui hō</i>	<i>tūturui</i>
7.	<i>aiya</i>	<i>ai</i>	<i>āaiya</i>	<i>āai hō</i>	<i>āai</i>
8.	<i>irleya</i>	<i>iril</i>	<i>īiril</i>	<i>īiril hō</i>	<i>īiril</i>
9.	<i>areya</i>	<i>arē</i>	<i>āareya</i>	<i>āare hō</i>	<i>āare</i>
10.	<i>geleya</i>	<i>gel</i>	<i>gēgeleya</i>	<i>gēgel hō</i>	<i>gēgel</i>

For the term ‘one by one’ of men, besides the form “*mīpidoō*” one can also say “*mīdō-mīdō*”.

After ten the cardinal, numbers are as follows: 11 = “*gel-miyad*”, (ten and one); 12 = “*gel-bariya*” (ten and two), etc., until 20 which is “*hisi*”. 21 = “*hisi-miyad*”, 22 = “*hisi-bariya*”; 40 = “*bar-hisi*” (two times twenty); 60 = “*ape-hisi*”; 80 = “*upun-hisi*”; 100 = “*moe-hisi*” (or “*mi-sao*”). In general counting is done by twenties, e.g. 66 would be 3 times 20 plus 6 = “*ape hisi turuiya*”; 78 would be 3 times 20 plus 18 = “*ape hisi gel-irleya*”. 54 would be 2 times 20 plus 14 = “*bar hisi gel-upuniya*”. There is however a separate word for 30, = “*dōsi*” (*ō* long) and numbers 31 to 39 can be formed by adding to this, e.g. 33 = “*dōsi-apiya*” (*ō* long).

When the short form of any compound number is required the short form of the final number is used, e.g., 13 is long form = “*gel-apiya*”, short form = “*gel-ape*”.

The short forms of the numbers are used in counting money, for any units of measuring, for counting houses when the word “*owa:*” is used, for counting men when the word “*hō*” is used, and for counting cattle, when the word “*bō:*” is used. The short form is also used with the word “*dunā*” or “*duwā*” (*ā* long) meaning times. In any other case of giving the number of some objects the long form is used, e.g. :-

- ‘three baskets’ = “*apiya kanchi(ko)*”.
- ‘three months’ = “*ape chandu:*” (a measure of time).
- ‘five birds’ = “*mōya oeko*”.
- ‘five rupees’ = “*moe taka*”.
- ‘two trees’ = “*bariya daru(king)*”.
- ‘two times’ = “*bar dunā*”.
- ‘three kings’ = “*apiya rajako*”.
- ‘three days’ = “*apē mā*”.
- ‘three “*bisiya*” (a measure of grain) = “*apē bisiya*”.

The form “*mid hō*” is contracted into one word “*midō*”. Sometimes this form is used before a personal noun, e.g., one king, “*midō raja*” (although the term “*miyad raja*” is also heard), and sometimes “*midō*” is heard even before the word “*hō*”, “*midō hō*”, although the form “*midō*” itself is quite sufficient for this.

Some examples of use of the distributive forms of the numbers would be the following:-

‘Give them each one rupee’. = “*Mi-mi taka emakom*”.

‘Let the men enter two at a time’. = “*Bābarōteko boloka*”.

‘Bring the sheep in two at a time’. = “*Mindiko bābariyate aderkom*”.

‘Bring a chicken each’ = “*Mipiyad simko agukope*”. The same addressed to two people would be = “*Mipiyad simking agukingben*”.

In the second and third example given above ‘two at a time’ (or ‘by twos’) is an adverbial use. In these cases “*te*” is affixed to the distributive form.

In the first and fourth example the distributive form is adjectival. In the first relating to money, the short form is used. In the fourth example we note that the word for chicken is in the dual or plural according to the total number of chickens, although the distributive adjective is “*mipiyad*”, (one each, here in the long form).

Somewhat related to this last given example is the following:- ‘There is no one present’ = “*Jai: yō bankowa*”, or when referring to animals rather than to persons, ‘there is not one (animal) present’ = “*miyadō bankowa*”.

In these two cases the plural verb form is used, even after the term “*miyadō*”.

ORDINAL NUMBERS: Ho has no proper terms for ordinal numbers, first, second, etc., “*sida*” or “*ayera:*” can be used for first. “*Eta:*” or “*chanaba:*” can sometimes serve for ‘second’. Higher ordinal numbers have to be expressed by some round about way, e.g. :-

‘Cut down the fifth tree’ = “*Upuniya daru, ayerreya: (daru) ma: gureme*”. (The bracketed word “*daru*” can here be kept or dropped).

‘Kill the fifth sheep’. = “*Upuniya mindiko ayerrini: ma: gojīme*”, or “*Upuniya mindiko ayerren, mindi ma: gojīme*”.

LESSON 45 - TERMS TO INDICATE TIME

Although Hos generally use Ho words for counting money, those who can tell time by a clock or watch invariably use Hindi for telling time. One could ask such a person “*chimin bajao: tana?*” = ‘What time is it?’ and he would answer “*Tin bajao: tana*” = ‘It is three o'clock’.

However most Hos do not have watches and are not familiar with telling time by a watch. They can however indicate fairly accurately the time of the day by indicating where the sun would be at that time.

Besides this Hos have words to indicate various times of the day according to the position of the sun, the time at which certain occupations are normally done, etc. We will give here a list of such words, indicating in many to what approximate time of the clock these terms would correspond.

“ <i>simko ra:</i> ”	= ‘cock’s crow’. (3:00 – 4:00 a.m.)
“ <i>an</i> ”	= ‘dawn’.
“ <i>seta:</i> ”	= ‘morning’.
“ <i>seta: mīr- mīr</i> ”	= ‘before daylight’.
“ <i>seta: piyā-payā</i> ”	= ‘at daylight’.

“singi-ō:l”	= ‘sunrise’.
“singi-tur”	= ‘sunrise’.
“singi-rakab”	= about 7:00 a.m.
“basyam singi”	= about 8:00 to 10:00 a.m.
“huring bastam”	= about 8:00 to 9:00 a.m.
“marang basyam”	= about 9:00 to 10:00 a.m.
“tikin”	= ‘noon’.
“muli tikin”	= ‘high noon (12:00)’.
“muli singi”	= ‘high noon (12:00)’.
“dūi: singi” (ū long)	= about 1:00 p.m.
“tara singi”	= 2:00 to 3:00 p.m.
“basang da: singi”	= ‘4:00 to 5:00 p.m.’
“singi hasur”	= ‘sunset’
“simko bolo singi”	= about 6:00 p.m. ‘chicken crow time’.
“ayub”	= ‘evening time’.
“ayub-mir”	= ‘evening twilight’.
“mandiko jomtan lekare”	= about 8:00 to 9:00 p.m. ‘rice eating time’.
“giti: dipli”	= about 9:00 to 10:00 p.m. ‘lie down time’.
“giti harob dipli”	= about 11:00 to 12:00 p.m. ‘fast asleep time’.
“tala nida”	= ‘midnight’.
“tala harimbar”	= ‘midnight’.

DAYS OF THE WEEK - For these words are taken adapting these words to Ho pronunciation.

‘Sunday’ = “Ruibar”. ‘Wednesday’ = “Budubar”. ‘Friday’ = “Sukurbar”.
‘Monday’ = “Sombar”. ‘Thursday’ = “Gurbar”. ‘Saturday’ = “Sunibar”.
‘Tuesday’ = “Mongorobar”.

MONTHS OF THE YEAR - To indicate months of the year Hos usually refer to the time of the year when some feast is held or when some activity of the yearly crop cycle is usually done. They also, at times, use some of the months names as used by their non-Ho neighbours. Here we give a list of the main terms used by the Hos, indicating the approximate corresponding month or months.

“Pūs Chandu:” = late December - early January.
“Diku Mage” (or “Mokor Chandu:”) = January.
“Mage Chandu:” = January-February.
“Pagun Chandu:” = late February - early March.
“Chuiti Chandu:” = late March - early April.
“Bā Chandu:” = March-April.
“Baba her Chandu:” = May-June. (rice sowing month).
“Rōto Chandu:” = late June, early July.
“Hero: Chandu:” = July.
“Karae-rowa Chandu:” = July-August.
“Indi Chandu:” = September.
“Gora baba Chandu:” = September-October (upland rice month).
“Dosora Chandu:” = late September - early October.
“Sardi” (or “Sal baba”) Chandu:” = November-December.

The meaning of the terms given above are in many cases explained more fully in the vocabulary.

SEASONS OF THE YEAR :-

“rabang dipli” = ‘winter’.
“jete dipli” = ‘summer’.
“jargi dipli” = ‘monsoon’.

LESSON 46 - WORD PAIRS, POETIC PARALLELS, POETIC USAGES

Ho and kindred languages often join two words of nearly the same meaning, or of kindred meanings, to give a collective noun expressing a more general or more abstract meaning than the individual components would indicate. Some examples of this would be:-

<i>“baba-bitu”</i> (paddy-possession),	= ‘worldly goods’.
<i>“arki-diyang”</i> (distilled liquor rice beer),	= ‘intoxicant drinks’.
<i>“mandi-utu”</i> (cooked rice curry),	= ‘a meal’.
<i>“san-sakam”</i> (wood-leaves)	= ‘things brought from the jungle’.
<i>“owa:-duwar”</i> (house-door)	= ‘one’s residence’.
<i>“retn,-ranu”</i> (root ferment for rice beer, bread, etc.)	= ‘medicine’.
<i>“tata-gungu”</i> (grandfather, great grandfather),	= ‘ancestors’.
<i>“bing-marmar”</i> (snake-scorpion)	= ‘all kinds of dangerous reptiles’.
<i>“kula-balu”</i> (tiger-bear)	= ‘all dangerous jungle animals’.
<i>“janum-choga”</i> (thorns-jutting up twigs)	= ‘all kinds of thorns’, etc.

There are other word pairs where a word sounding much the same as the original word, but having no independent use, is affixed to the first word to give a more general meaning. These are referred to as jingles, e.g. :-

<i>“sitya-bitya”</i>	= ‘children’.
<i>“hato-bato”</i>	= ‘one market place after another’.

Word pairs are also sometimes formed by using a root followed by the same root with a “-p-” (reciprocal) infix, or an “-n-” (verbal noun) infix to give a more general or abstract use of the root, e.g., :-

<i>“denga-depenga”</i>	= ‘help in general’ (including mutual help).
<i>“jagar-japagar”</i>	= ‘conversing in general’.
<i>“hila-hipila”</i>	= ‘hatred in general’.
<i>“chenta-chepenta”</i>	= ‘harassment in general’.
<i>“tanga-tapanga”</i>	= ‘separation in general’.
<i>“kaji-kapaji”</i>	= ‘quarrelsomeness’.
<i>“paiti-panaiti”</i>	= ‘work in general’.
<i>“karcha-kanarcha”</i>	= ‘expenses in general’.

All the above forms with a “-p-” infix in the second part have a mutual component (as expressed in the first example). The final example is an interesting case of taking a Hindi root and Ho-izing it (treating it as a Ho root would be treated).

Since in songs and sacrificial prayers almost every concept is expressed in doublets (repeating the same idea using different words), many words have POETIC PARALLEL WORDS, or words which are regularly used with them in this parallel situation. Some of these words used as poetic parallels are no longer in ordinary use, or as poetic parallel have a use slightly different than their ordinary use. We give here some examples of poetic parallels:-

<i>“horo”</i>	<i>“jangi”</i>	‘to guard’.
<i>“nel”</i>	<i>“china”</i>	‘to see’.
<i>“em”</i>	<i>“ched”</i>	‘to give’.
<i>“mayom”</i>	<i>“kirum”</i>	‘blood’.
<i>“bolo”</i>	<i>“sō”</i>	‘to enter’.
<i>“tela”</i>	<i>“atang”</i>	‘to receive’.
<i>“hām hōko”</i>	<i>“dum hvko”</i>	‘ancestors’ (in the <i>ading</i>).
<i>“bugiyakan”</i>	<i>“napayakan”</i>	‘well, blessed’.
<i>“ading nida”</i>	<i>“tala nida”</i>	‘midnight’.
<i>“katab”</i>	<i>“turub”</i>	‘to fast’.
<i>“upan”</i>	<i>“Japan”</i>	‘to create’.

“*akaring*” “*keja*” ‘to sell’.

Another feature of Ho prayers is a tendency to use compound verb forms in parallel, usually retaining the same verbal affix in both parts of the parallel forms, e.g., :-

“ <i>seba-pura</i> ”	“ <i>sara-pura</i> ”	to adore fully.
“ <i>em-ura</i> ”	“ <i>ched-ura</i> ”	to give back.
“ <i>horo-denga</i> ”	“ <i>jangi-denga</i> ”	to help to protect.
“ <i>har-darom</i> ”	“ <i>gum-darom</i> ”	to drive off something coming.
“ <i>koyong-uju:</i> ”	“ <i>itung-uju:</i> ”	to come bringing.

In sacrificial prayers besides the older vocabulary, including that used as poetic parallels, the term “*mera*” is used in place of “*alo*”, e.g., “*Merale lāi:-hasū: merale bō:-hasū:ka*”. = ‘May we develop no stomach ache, may we develop no headache. (i.e., ‘May we develop no sickness’).

SOME POETICAL USAGES: Recited poetry does not exist in Ho, but sung poetry is often very rich in poetical content. Especially older songs (“*munu durang*”) seem to have a remarkably high poetic content both from the aspect of imagination and emotions.

In songs retaining the traditional form we find the following characteristics:- **1)** any word beginning with a vowel puts an “*n*” before this vowel, and any word beginning with an “*h*” substitutes an “*n*” for this “*h*”. **2)** some brief enclitic-like endings “*na*”, “*go*”, “*e*” are added to words (usually to both parts of parallel words) to round out the sound or to help it fit into the tune. **3)** “*r*” is inserted in places where long vowels exist (writing the vowel twice with an “*r*” in between, e.g., “*bara*” instead of “*bā*”) and also in many other cases where two vowels come together, e.g., “*tarina*” instead of “*taina*”, “*sorana*” instead of “*sowana*” (the “*w*” used in Ho words is merely a sound gliding from one vowel to another). In many cases this insertion of the “*r*” gives us the currently used Mundari word, but in many cases e.g., the three examples given above, an “*r*” is inserted in places where the current Mundari has no “*r*”.

Poetic form		meaning	
“ <i>noroko</i> ”	instead of	“ <i>hōko</i> ”	= ‘men’.
“ <i>jiri</i> ”	instead of	“ <i>jī</i> ”	= ‘spirit’.
“ <i>nora</i> ”	instead of	“ <i>hora</i> ”	= ‘road’.
“ <i>nora</i> ”	instead of	“ <i>ora</i> ”	= ‘bathe’.
“ <i>nora:</i> ”	instead of	“ <i>owa:</i> ”	= ‘house’.

LESSON 47 – EXPRESSIONS OF RELATIONSHIP

Expressions of relationship in Ho are fairly complex. There is a very large range of terms, including almost always separate terms for older and younger brother and sister. Also in some cases a woman uses different terms than a man would use.

We will take the occasion here to show the use of this at length, and in the process to give the terms used to express relationship, giving in each case the possessive form for the 1st, 2nd, and 3rd person singular. In this we use abbreviations as follows:-

o = older	sn = son	ss = sister	fa = father
y = younger	da = daughter	br = brother	mo = mother
mn = man	hs = husband	gd = grand	ch = child
wm = woman	wf = wife	gt = great	

The code for these abbreviations as given below would read as follows: sn/ss/mn = the son of the sister of a man; sn/br/wf = the son of the brother of one's wife

Relation	1st sing	2nd sing	3rd sing
<i>apu</i> (father)	<i>apung</i>	<i>apum</i>	<i>apute</i>

<i>enga</i> (mother)	<i>engang</i>	<i>engam</i>	<i>engate</i>
<i>haga</i> (br. in a very broad sense)	<i>hagang</i>	<i>hagam</i>	<i>hagate</i>
<i>bau</i> (o. br. or cousin)	<i>baung</i>	<i>baum</i>	<i>baute</i>
<i>aji</i> (o.ss or cousin; wf/o.br/hs)	<i>ajing</i>	<i>ajim</i>	<i>ajite</i>
<i>boko</i> (y.br or cous.)	<i>bokong</i>	<i>bokom</i>	<i>bokote</i>
<i>undi</i> (y. br; y.ss; y. cousin)	<i>unding</i>	<i>undim</i>	<i>undite</i>
<i>undi-kui</i> (y.ss; wf/y.br/hs)	<i>unding-kui</i>	<i>undim-kui</i>	<i>undite-kui</i>
<i>misi</i> (y. ss/mn; ss in very broad sense)	<i>mising</i>	<i>misim</i>	<i>misite</i>
<i>misi-era</i> (y.ss/mn)	<i>mising-era</i>	<i>misim-era</i>	<i>misite-era</i>
<i>bare</i> (br/wm; esp. y.br/wm)	<i>bareng</i>	<i>barem</i>	<i>barete</i>
<i>hili</i> (w/o. br)	<i>hiling</i>	<i>hilim</i>	<i>hilite</i>
<i>kimin</i> (wf/sn; wf/y.br; y;ss/hs/da; y.ss/wf/sn)	<i>kimining</i>	<i>kiminme</i>	<i>kiminte</i>
<i>hon-kimin</i> (wf/sn)	<i>hon-kimining</i>	<i>hon-kimimne</i>	<i>hon-kiminte</i>
<i>tēya</i> (hs/o.ss; y.br/wf)	<i>tēyang</i>	<i>tēyam</i>	<i>tēyate</i>
<i>ara</i> (hs/da; hs/y.ss; y.br/hs/da; y.br/wf/sn)	<i>aran</i>	<i>aram</i>	<i>arat</i>
<i>gungu</i> (gt.gr.parent; o.br/fa; wf/o.br/fa;o.ss/mo;gt.gr.child ch/y.br/mn;ch/y.br/hs;ch/y.ss /wm;ch/y.ss/wf)	<i>gungung</i>	<i>gungum</i>	<i>gungute</i>
<i>tata</i> (gd.fa)	<i>tatang</i>	<i>tatam</i>	<i>tatate</i>
<i>jiya</i> (gd.mo)	<i>jiyang</i>	<i>jiyam</i>	<i>jiyate</i>
<i>jai</i> (gd.ch)	<i>jaing</i>	<i>jaim</i>	<i>jaite</i>
<i>jai-kowa</i> (gd.sn)	<i>jaing-kowa</i>	<i>jaim-kowa</i>	<i>jaite-kowa</i>
<i>jai-kui</i> (gd.da)	<i>jaing-kui</i>	<i>jaim-kui</i>	<i>jaite-kui</i>
<i>hatom</i> (ss/fa;wf/br/mo)	<i>hatoming</i>	<i>hatomme</i>	<i>hatomte</i>
<i>kuma</i> (br/mo;hs/ss/fa)	<i>kumang</i>	<i>kumam</i>	<i>kumate</i>
<i>kaka</i> (y.br/fa;hs/y.ss/mo)	<i>kakang</i>	<i>kakam</i>	<i>kakate</i>
<i>gaung</i> (wf/y.br/fa; y.ss/mo)	<i>gaunging</i>	<i>gaungme</i>	<i>gaungte</i>
<i>bala</i> (fa/hs/da; o.br/hs/da; o.br/ wf/so; fa/wf/so)	<i>balang</i>	<i>balam,</i>	<i>balate</i>
<i>bala-era</i> (mo/hs/da;o.ss/hs/da mo/wf/sn; o.ss/wf/sn o.ss/ hs/y.ss)	<i>balang-era</i>	<i>balam-era</i>	<i>balate-era</i>
<i>honyar</i> (fa-in-law)	<i>honyaring</i>	<i>honyarme</i>	<i>honyarte</i>
<i>hanar</i> (mo-in-law)	<i>hanaring</i>	<i>hanarme</i>	<i>hanarte</i>
<i>gungu-honyar</i> (o.br/fa-in-law)	<i>g.-honyaring</i>	<i>g.-honyarme</i>	<i>g.-honyarte</i>
<i>kaka-honyar</i> (y.br/fa-in-law)			
<i>hatom-hanar</i> (ss/fa-in-law)			
<i>kuma-honyar</i> (br /mo-in-law)			
<i>gungu-hanar</i> (o.ss/mo-in-law)			
<i>gaung-hanar</i> (y.ss/mo-in-law)			
<i>bau-honyar</i> (o.br/wf; o.br/hs)			
<i>aji-hanar</i> (o.ss/wf;o.ss/hs; wf/o.br/wf)			
<i>tēya-kui</i> (y.ss/wf)			
<i>saragi</i> (hs/ss/wf)	<i>saraging</i>	<i>saragim</i>	<i>saragite</i>
<i>irīl</i> (y.br/hs;y.ss/hs)	<i>iriling</i>	<i>irīlme</i>	<i>irīlte</i>
<i>gē</i> (ch/ss/mn ;ch/br/wf; ch/ss/hs)	<i>gēng</i>	<i>gēm</i>	<i>gēte</i>
<i>gē-kowa</i> (sn/ss/mn;sn/ br/wf;sn/ ss/hs)	<i>gēng-kowa</i>	<i>gēm kowa</i>	<i>gēte-kowa</i>
<i>gē-kui</i> (da/ss/mn;da/br/wf; da/ ss/hs)	<i>gēng-kui</i>	<i>gēm-kui</i>	<i>gēte-kui</i>

<i>hon-sēd</i> , (sn/o.br/mn; sn/o.br/hs; sn/o.ss/wn)	<i>honing-sēd</i>	<i>honme-sēd</i>	<i>honte-sēd</i>
<i>hon-era</i> (da/o.br/mn; da/o.br/hs; da/o.ss/wn; one's own daughter)	<i>honing-era</i>	<i>honme-era</i>	<i>honte-era</i>
<i>hon-kowa</i> (sn/o.ss/wf)	<i>honing-kowa</i>	<i>honme-kowa</i>	<i>honte-kowa</i>
<i>kowa-hon</i> (one's son)	<i>honing-kowa</i>	<i>honme-kowa</i>	<i>honte-kowa</i>
<i>hon-kui</i> (da/o.ss/wf)	<i>honing-kui</i>	<i>honme-kui</i>	<i>honte-kui</i>
<i>kui-hon</i> (one's daughter)	<i>honing-kui</i>	<i>honme-kui</i>	<i>honte-kui</i>
<i>homon</i> (ch/br/wn)	<i>homonning</i>	<i>homonme</i>	<i>homonte</i>
<i>homon-kowa</i> (sn/br/wn)	<i>homonning-kowa</i>	<i>homonme-kowa</i>	<i>homonte-kowa</i>
<i>homon-kui</i> (da/br/wn)	<i>homonning-kui</i>	<i>homonme-kui</i>	<i>homonte-kui</i>
<i>saki</i> (namesake)	<i>saking</i>	<i>sakim</i>	<i>sakite</i>
<i>juri</i> (friend)	<i>juring</i>	<i>jurim</i>	<i>jurite</i>
<i>gati</i> (friend, in songs)	<i>gating</i>	<i>gatim</i>	<i>gatite</i>

In Ho the verb “*chika*” with an “*a*” infix (as used with indirect objects) is used to express how someone is related to someone. To ask ‘How is he related to you?’, you would say “*Chikāiyam?*” (What do you make him out to be? or ‘What do you call him?’.) If the answer is ‘I call him my wife’s older brother’, then one would say “*Bauhonyaraiyang*”. = ‘What does he call you?’ would be “*Chikāmeyae?*” If the answer is ‘He calls me older brother’ then one would say “*Bauwangae?*”. To ask ‘How you two related to one-another?’ one could say “*Chipikawo: aben?*” Sometimes the word “*chilika*” is used as follows:- ‘How are you(pl.) related them?’ = “*Nekolo:pe chilikawo:wa?*”.

LESSON 48 - HO VOCABULARY COMPARED TO MUNDA

Since this is a grammar, it would perhaps be more fitting to compare Ho and Munda Grammar, but this would take a bit of research for which I do not have time now. I will however give some observations comparing Ho and Munda vocabulary.

The obvious difference between these two is that in many words using “*r*” in Munda this “*r*” letter is dropped in Ho. If this letter occurs between two like vowels, this vowel is kept only once in Ho, but as a long vowel, e.g., :-

Munda	Ho	Meaning
<i>horo</i>	<i>hō</i>	man
<i>piri</i>	<i>pī</i>	an upland field
<i>ora:</i>	<i>owa:</i>	a house
<i>durum</i>	<i>dum</i>	sleep
<i>sepered</i>	<i>sepēd</i>	a young man
<i>ruar</i>	<i>ruwā</i>	to return

In all these cases the Ho form used in songs would retain the “*r*”. Ho even use the letter “*r*” in places where Munda would not use it (at least in non-poetical usage), e.g., “*soren*” used in poetry for “*soan*” (“*sowan*”), = ‘to smell’ (see Lesson 46).

In spite of the fact that the letter “*r*” is dropped in many words there are also many words, used in everyday conversation, where the letter is not dropped, e.g., “*gara*”, = ‘river’, “*kerā*”, = ‘buffalo’, “*kere*”, = ‘strong’, “*tor*” = ‘to shoot’.

The dropping of the letter “*r*” from many Munda words gives us words in Ho in which the final vowel is at the same time nasal, long, and checked - a combination which would be perhaps hard or impossible to get Munda, e.g.:-

Munda

“sīrī”
 “hērē:”
 “rērē:”

Ho

“sī:” (ī long)
 “hē:” (ē long)
 “rē:” (ē long)

Meaning

‘a foul smell’.
 ‘a swift, swallow (bird)’.
 ‘joy in the company of others’.

There are many two syllable words in Munda which end in the letter “d”, preceded by a vowel, which in Ho are used as one syllable words, dropping the final “d” and the vowel preceding it, and then lengthening and checking the remaining vowel, e.g. :-

Munda

“sered”
 “surud”
 “irid”
 “jilad”
 “murud”
 “torod”
 “jered”

Ho

“sē:r”
 “sū:r”
 “ir”
 “ji:l”
 “mū:r”
 “tō:r”
 “jē:r”

Meaning

crush, with “lija:”, a rag.
 heart; take shelter.
 rub, strike (a match).
 slip.
 the Palas tree.
 an iguana (large lizard).
 to stick

Ho nasalizes the vowel in some Munda words ending in the letter “l” or “r”, e.g. :-

Munda	Ho	Meaning
“ <i>il</i> ”	“ <i>tyal</i> ”	feather
“ <i>pāl</i> ”	“ <i>pāl</i> ” (<i>ā</i> long)	ploughshare
“ <i>jēl</i> ”	“ <i>jēl</i> ” (<i>ē</i> long)	jail
“ <i>sail</i> ”	“ <i>sail</i> ”	bison (gaur)
“ <i>sēl</i> ”	“ <i>sēl</i> ” (<i>ē</i> long)	husking hole
“ <i>sōr</i> ”	“ <i>sōr</i> ” (<i>ō</i> long)	project (soar) through the air
“ <i>ūr</i> ”	“ <i>ūr</i> ” (<i>ū</i> long)	leather

Ho words can begin with the letter “*h*”, but never have this in the middle of a word. An “*h*” is sometimes found in the middle of a word in Munda especially in the Naguri Dialect. In Ho the “*h*” is dropped and the adjoining vowels formed into one vowel, e.g., “*sahating*” in Munda (Naguri) · would be “*sating*” in Ho.

There are many words in Ho which have a change in vowel from the Munda form, e.g. :-

Munda	Ho	Meaning
<i>hiju</i> :	<i>huju</i>	come.
<i>uiu</i> :	<i>iyu</i> :	fall from a
<i>api</i>	<i>apē</i>	height.
<i>e</i>	<i>ai</i>	three (short
<i>chiula</i>	<i>chuila</i>	form).
<i>miyu</i>	<i>muyu</i>	seven (short
		form).
		when?
		a calf.

There are some words in which consonants are shifted around, e.g. :-

Munda	Ho	Meaning
<i>rabal,rambal</i>	<i>labar, lār</i>	easy, light.
<i>sanamang</i>	<i>sanamang</i>	in front of.
<i>tiju</i>	<i>chidu</i>	caterpillar.

(In this last case the letters are both shifted in position and changed from voiced to voiceless consonants or vice versa, cf. consonant chart).

It might be good to indicate here some words which are of common use in Mundari, but which are considered improper in Ho. The word “*do*” is commonly used in Mundari with the meaning of ‘put’, but at least throughout the Kolhan it is used only in a very indecent (“*mage*”) usage. In Mundari “*ub*” is commonly used for hair, including the hair on the human head, and “*guchu*” is used for ‘beard’. In Ho, at least when referring to a human being both of these words are used for ‘pubic hairs’ and are considered indecent. In Ho “*bo: bale*” is used for ‘hair’ on the human head and “*dariya*” is used for ‘beard’. The word “*tuka*”, commonly used for ‘nest’ in Mundari, is used for ‘afterbirth’ (placenta) in Ho, and except in the North is not used for ‘nest’. In the Chaibasa area “*luga*” is used for ‘nest’ and in the South “*busu*.” is used. The word “*bānda*” is used in Mundari for a small earthen pot. In Ho “*banda*” is used with “*sukuri*” to indicate an uncastrated male pig, and “*matiya*” is used for a small earthen pot.

The Munda language is used side by side with Sadri, whereas rubs shoulders with Oriya, therefore borrowed words in Munda often ha a Sadri form whereas Ho words would more easily have an Oriya form. E.g., for kingdom Munda uses “*raij*”, Ho uses “*rāj*” or “*rājo*”; for ‘punishment’ Munda uses “*sajai*”, Ho uses “*saja*”; for ‘respect’, Munda uses “*main*”, Ho us “*mān*”. Also there are words such as “*soj*”, “*soje*”, = ‘straight’ taken into Munda from Sadri, which do not occur in Ho at all (Ho would use

“*muli*” for straight). Also there are many jingle words in Sadri which are used in Munda but not in Ho. The Oriya influence in Ho is found perhaps mainly in the fact that words borrowed from Aryan languages often tend to use the letter “*o*” rather than “*a*”, e.g. “*dorkar*” = ‘necessary’, “*dostur*” = ‘custom’, “*nokol*” = ‘copy’, “*dokol*” = ‘deeds of possession’.

LESSON 49 - KILIS

Kilis used by Hos - This list of “*kilis*” will not be exhaustive, especially as regards the sub-branches of the given “*kilis*”. There has been no thorough effort to check these sub-kilis. In most cases a village has been given in which a *kili* can be found, however this has not been done for all *kilis*. Also we give some data about the *kilis* with which a given *kili* does not, or did not marry, or does not arrange marriages. An awareness of these “*haga*” *kilis* (with which it is felt that there is a special close relationship which makes it improper to arrange marriage together) is slowly breaking down. Young people are not much concerned about this, and when two people from such *kilis* take things into their own hand, usually the village condones their marriages without much complication. So the purpose of listing these *haga kilis* is rather historical than social. A thorough study of these could possibly give some useful data as to the development and the geographical origin of the various *kilis*.

Much of the data given below was gotten immediately from people of the given *kili*, but some of it is second hand and may be defective. One thing to be noted however is that concerning sub-kilis and *kilis* with which marriages are not arranged, people from different geographic areas will sometimes give different data, e.g., a Gagrai from a village near Chakradharpur will say that the Gagrai *kili* does not marry with the Jarika *kili*, whereas Gagrai from village Nawagaon near Maluka will say that the Gagrai *kili* does not marry with the Kerai *kili*.

We print this in the hope of getting fuller data which can be printed in subsequent editions of this book, and which can help historical research.

Kili - sub-kili	VILLAGE	Do not (Or did not) marry with
1. <i>Alda</i> - <i>Usa Alda</i>	Ganjia	<i>Sawaiyan, Bari, Kalundia.</i>
2. <i>Angaria</i> - <i>Sing Angaria</i> - <i>Bunya Angaria</i> - <i>Chauli chapi Angaria</i> - <i>Harkan Angaria</i>	Beterkeya	<i>Sirka, Marli, Jamuda, Deogam, Kandeang, Champia.</i>
3. <i>Bage</i> - (<i>Bagesora?</i>)	near Jamda	<i>Tiria.</i>
4. <i>Balmuchu</i> - <i>Jerai Balmuchu</i>	Gura	<i>Jerai, Sinku, Honhaga.</i>
5. <i>Banda</i>	Singijāri	
6. <i>Bandiya</i>	Parahingya	<i>Gundua, Gilua, Mundūiya.</i>
7. <i>Bankira</i>	Churgui Lagia	<i>Gagrai.</i>
8. <i>Banra (Bandra)</i> - <i>Jangjom Banra</i> - <i>Tiu Banra</i> - <i>Godsora Banra</i> - <i>Sadom jom Banra</i>	Tonto	<i>Tiu, Bodra, Godsora.</i>

- <i>Ā: Banra</i> - <i>Soso Banra</i>		
9. <i>Bansing</i>	Bhōya	<i>Bodra, Ichagutu, Banra, Chaki.</i>
10. <i>Baraeng (Baring)</i> - <i>Barai (=Te:-Barai)</i>	Joraphokar	
11. <i>Barda</i>		
12. <i>Bari</i> - <i>Chauli Chapi Bari</i>	Khunta	<i>Sawaiyan, Alda, Kalundia.</i>
13. <i>Barjo</i>	Merelgara	<i>Hembrom, Balmuchu.</i>
14. <i>Barla (= Marla?)</i>	Uligutu	
15. <i>Bhengra</i>	(near) Heselbera	
16. <i>Bhumij</i>	Hoeohatu	
17. <i>Birua</i> - <i>Dubru Birua.</i> - <i>Hari Birua.</i> - <i>Sajai Birua.</i> - <i>[Biruli (=Buriuli)]</i>	Lagra	
18. <i>Bodra</i> - <i>Bansing Bodra</i> - <i>Ichagutu Bodra</i> - <i>Bansing, Ichagufu, Banra</i> - <i>-Sirung Bodra</i> - <i>Lāi:ūr Bodra</i> - <i>Kera jom Bodra</i> - <i>Dubi tasad Bodra</i> - <i>Mundri Bodra</i> - <i>Sara:· (jom) Bodra</i> - <i>Haiburit Bodra</i> - <i>Doraiburu Bodra</i>	Kokrobaru Tapkocha Katakara Potobera	<i>Barsing, Ichagutu, Banra, Mundri.</i>
19. <i>Boepai (= Goepai)</i> - <i>Chora Boepai</i> - <i>Surin Boepai</i> - <i>Tili Boepai</i> - <i>Kora: Boepai</i> - <i>Marang Boepai</i> - <i>Pora Boepai</i> - <i>Tunti Boepai</i> - <i>Liu Boepai</i> - <i>Holong Boepai</i>	Pandabir	<i>Kora:, Surin.</i>
20. <i>Bobonga</i> - <i>Sinku Bobonga</i>	Maluka	<i>Sinku, Hesa:?</i>
21. <i>Boroy</i>	near Gua	<i>Laguri.</i>
22. <i>Bundua</i>	Tangrai	
23. <i>Buriuli (=Biruli)</i> - <i>Kudada: Buriuli</i> - <i>Tubid Bitriuli</i> - <i>Lō benta Buriuli</i> - <i>Raja jom Buriuli</i> - <i>Surin Buriuli</i>	Barkundia	<i>Kudada:, Tubid.</i>
24. <i>Buruma:</i>	Kotgarh	<i>Tiria.</i>
25. <i>Butia</i>	Kandangbasa	<i>Tiu.</i>

26. <i>Chaki</i>	Baisai Pancho	<i>Champia, Digi.</i>
27. <i>Champia</i> - <i>Chakiya Champia</i> - <i>Hur tote: Champia</i> - <i>Huruing Champia</i> - <i>Cherowa Champia</i> - <i>Chauli Chapi Champia</i> - <i>Raja Champia</i> - <i>Raja Deogam Champia</i> - <i>Bari Gara Champia</i> - <i>Sadom de Champia</i> - <i>Mail Gele Champia</i> - <i>Digi Champia</i> - <i>Lupungkel Champia</i> - <i>Pali Champia</i> - <i>Lumburu Champia</i> - <i>Horokowa: Champia</i> - <i>Lamdar Champia</i> - <i>Korontea Champia</i>	Ghatkuri Dubil Bangurkeya Dubil	<i>Digi, Chaki, Sirko.</i>
28. <i>Cherowa</i>	Soda	<i>Chamia.</i>
29. <i>Chatom (Chatomba ?)</i> - <i>Chatomba</i>	near Majhgaon Dudubila	<i>Sinku, Chatar, Bobonga.</i>
30. <i>Chatar</i> - <i>Diri ud Chatar</i> - <i>Dao Chatar</i> - <i>Sejae Chatar</i>	Lukipai	<i>Chatomba.</i>
31. <i>Chikid, ? ?</i>	(North)	<i>Bodra, Bansing, Hirim.</i>
32. <i>Chora</i>	Batigutu	
33. <i>Dangil</i> - <i>Buru Dangil</i> - <i>Bera Dangil</i>	Lapta	<i>Samad.</i>
34. <i>Daunria</i>	Rūia	
35. <i>Deogam</i> - <i>Hād Deogam</i> - <i>Raja Deogam</i>	Kamarhatu	<i>(originally Sundi), Honhaga.</i>
36. <i>Digi</i> - <i>Sing Digi</i>	Petapiti	<i>Munda, Purti, Chaki, Champia, Sinku, Laguri, Sing Khuntia, Surin.</i>
37. <i>Dongo</i> - <i>Mail ba Dongo</i>	Gondasai	<i>Honhaga, Jonko.</i>
38. <i>Dorai (Doraiburu)</i> - <i>Doraiburu</i>	Talaburu Pata Guira	<i>Kandaiburu, Haiburu, Jarika.</i>
39. <i>Dukri</i>	near Sarjomhatu	<i>Soy.</i>
40. <i>Dursuli</i>	Deroa	<i>Soy.</i>
41. <i>Gagrai</i> - <i>Chauli Gagrai</i> - <i>Chama Gagrai</i>	Arugundi	<i>Jarika, Kerai, Bankira.</i>
42. <i>Ganju</i>	Katakara	
43. <i>Gilua</i>	Padampur	<i>Bandia.</i>

[illegible]

68. <i>Karowa</i>	Kudahatu	<i>Kalundia, Kurli, Karma.</i>
69. <i>Kayom (= Kairom?)</i> - <i>Holong Kayom</i> - <i>Toroe Kayom</i>	Baipi	<i>Tunti.</i>
70. <i>Kerai</i>	Kasira	
71. <i>Keraiburu (=Kerai ?)</i>		
72. <i>Kondangkel</i>	near Nachrai	
73. <i>Ko:kuiya (Ko:kui ?)</i>	Lampahesa:	
74. <i>Kora:</i> - <i>Saru Kora:</i> - <i>Chauli chapi Kora:</i> <i>Bojoniya Kora:</i> <i>Boepai Kora:</i>	Jhilruan Rengra Rengra Rengra	<i>Boepai, Hembrom, Chatar.</i>
75. <i>Kudada:</i>	Barkundia	<i>Buriuli, Hasda:.</i>
76. <i>Kuldi</i>	Angarpada	<i>Pingua.</i>
77. <i>Kunkal</i> - <i>Tamsoy Kunkal</i> - <i>Konde Kunkal</i> - <i>Dibi Kitnkal</i>	Panga Silpungi	<i>Tamsoy, Soy, Pareya, Pingua, Barjo.</i>
78. <i>Kunti</i>	Petapiti	
79. <i>Kuntia (=Sing Kuntia)</i>	Banaikera	
80. <i>Kurli</i>	Murbulai	
81. <i>Laguri</i> - <i>Pata satad Laguri</i> - <i>Sing Laguri</i> - <i>Tamsoy Laguri</i>	Serengsia	<i>Sinku, Jamuda, Boroy, Chatar.</i>
82. <i>Lamay</i>	Kankusi	<i>Leangi, Munrf,ri, Toboga, Omong.</i>
83. <i>Leangi</i>	Porloyong	<i>Lamay, Mundri, Toboga, Omong.</i>
84. <i>Loada:</i>	Chota Bandi	
85. <i>Lugun</i>	Saligutu	<i>Hesa: Baring.</i>
86. <i>Marla (=Barla?)</i>	Sika	
87. <i>Marli</i> [<i>Mati(=Matisoy)</i>]	Dudubila Keadchadlom	<i>Angaria.</i>
88. <i>Matisoy</i>	Janumbera	<i>Soy, Tamsoy, Pareya.</i>
89. <i>Melgandi</i>	Surubura	<i>Kaika</i>
90. <i>Merel (= Marla?)</i>	Goelkera	
91. <i>Munda</i> - <i>Digi Munda</i>	Jorapokharia	<i>Digi, Purty</i>
92. <i>Mundri</i>	Chiru	<i>Lamay, Leangi, Toboga, Omong, Bodra</i>
93. <i>Munduiya</i>	Gotompī	<i>Bandia, Munda?</i>
94. <i>Muturi</i>	Gitilpi	
95. <i>Omong</i>	Porloyong Patahatu	<i>Lamay, Leangi, Mundri, Toboga.</i>
96. <i>Pareya</i>	Kamarhatu	<i>Kunkal, Soy, Tamsoy, Matisoy.</i>

- Seta kata Pareya - Mū:r Pareya		
97. <i>Pingua</i> - Hesa: <i>Pingua</i> - Pāt <i>Pingua</i> - Marti <i>Pingua</i> - Ā:jang <i>Pingua</i> - Soso <i>Pingua</i> - Bansing <i>Pingua</i> - Digi <i>Pingua</i> - Porom dapū <i>Pingua</i> .	Balangia	<i>Hesa:; Kunkal, Kuldi, Marli, Digi.</i>
98. <i>Purty</i> - Holong <i>Purty</i> - Huni <i>Purty</i> - Chadlom <i>Purty</i> - Puchu: <i>Purty</i> - Sodom jom (<i>Bhengra</i>) <i>Purty</i> - Soso <i>Purty</i> - Dundu <i>Purty</i> - Sukuri lutur <i>Purty</i>	Karlajuri Karlajuri Rajaparom Beterkeya	
99. <i>Samad</i> - Jang jom <i>Samad</i> - Sim jom <i>Samad</i> - Rambā <i>Samad</i>	Loahatu	
100. <i>Sandil</i>		
101. <i>Sawaiyan</i> - Merle: <i>Sawaiyan</i> - Kula go: <i>Sawaiyan</i> - Bir <i>Sawaiyan</i> - Tasi Merel <i>Sawaiyan</i> - Jojo <i>Sawaiyan</i> - Sayū sōnr <i>Sawaiyan</i>	Gitilpi	<i>Bari, Kalundia, Alda.</i>
102. <i>Sekera</i>		
103. <i>Sidu</i>	Kuju	<i>Sinku, Tubid, Sumbrui.</i>
104. <i>Sijui (or Sujui?)</i> [Sing <i>Kuntia</i> (= <i>Kuntia</i>) -Buru Sing <i>Kuntia</i>	Kera Baipi Pancho	<i>Kerai, Bodra.</i>
105. <i>Sinku</i> - Chatomba <i>Sinku</i> - Sing <i>Sinku</i> - Jerai <i>Sinku</i> - Bobonga <i>Sinku</i> - Joro <i>Sinku</i> - Kerai <i>Sinku</i>	Jamdi	<i>Bobonga, Chatombā, Laguri, Sidu, Jerai Balmuchu, Sing-Kuntia, Kandeang.</i>
106. <i>Sirka</i>	Chimisai	<i>Honhaga, Champia, Angaria, Marli.</i>
107. <i>Soy</i> - Adoa <i>Soy</i>	Achu	<i>Tamsoy, Matisoy, Kunkal, Dukri, Pareya.</i>

- <i>Tiki Soy</i> - <i>Dursuli Soy</i> - <i>Chauli Jang Soy</i> - <i>Patā Pete: Soy</i> - <i>Kulae Soy</i>		
108. <i>Sumbrui</i>	Butta	<i>Sidu, Surin?</i>
109. <i>Sundi</i> - <i>Holong Sundi</i> - <i>Gunduli busu: Sundi</i> - <i>Oral (jom) Sundi</i> - <i>Pat Sundi</i> - <i>Sandi Sundi</i> - <i>Mū:r Sundi</i> - <i>Jita Sundi</i> - <i>Pala Sundi</i> - <i>Baba Holong Sundi</i> - <i>Sutam Mundi Sundi</i> - <i>Bonta Hara: Sundi</i> - <i>Arki dul Sundi</i> [<i>Suri (=Surin)</i>]	Guira Sankosai Sika Noamundi	(originally <i>Deogam</i>), <i>Ugur Sandi</i>
110. <i>Surin</i>	Saraid	<i>Boepai</i>
111. <i>Tamsoy</i> <i>Taisum (=Tamsoy)</i>	Biddiri	<i>Soy, Kunkal, Pareya, Matisoy, Tiria, Sinku?, Laguri.</i>
112. <i>Tapey:</i>	Soma Pancho	
113. <i>Te:-barai</i>	Jorapokharia	
114. <i>Tiria</i> - <i>Buia or Badubasa Tiria</i> - <i>Samad Tiria</i> - <i>Choka: cheped Tiria</i> - <i>Bage Tiria</i> - <i>Horo: kūi Tiria</i> - <i>Raisom Tiria</i> - <i>Ko: kuia Tiria</i> - <i>Buruma Tiria</i>	Tontoposi	<i>Kerai, Kairom, Kalundia, Buruma:, Samad, Bage.</i>
115. <i>Titingi</i>	Pāsea	
116. <i>Tiu</i> - <i>Godsora Tiu</i> - <i>Pāt Tiu</i>	Dopai	<i>Banra, Godsora</i>
117. <i>Toboga</i>	(North)	<i>Lamay, Leangi, Mundri, Omong.</i>
118. <i>Tondangkel</i>		
119. <i>Topno</i>	Sonaposi	<i>Tape</i>
120. <i>Torkod</i>	Kudlibad	
121. <i>Tubid</i> - <i>Doraiburu Tubid</i> - <i>Kudada: Tubid</i>	Dulki	<i>Buriuli, Hasda:, Sidu, Kudada, Doraiburu</i>

- <i>Buriuli Tubid</i> - <i>Sidu Tubid</i>		
122. <i>Tunti</i> - <i>Kayom Tunti</i> [<i>Tuti (=Tunti)</i>]	Saedba	<i>Kuntia</i>
123. <i>Ugur Bolo</i>	Jamshedpur from?	
124. <i>Ugur Sandi</i>	Bara Lagia	<i>Sundi</i>

Anyone who knows the Geography of the terrain of the Tebo Ghat on the both sides of the Ranchi road as it climbs to Bandgaon and just a bit beyond that will be struck by the number of Ho kilis which are names of villages in that area, e.g., Angaria, Kudada:, Jonko, Buriuli, Tape:, Chaki, Pareya, Kandeang, Hesa:(di), Jirai, Bobonga, Goepai, Melgandi, Leangi, Marla, Barjo, Ichagutu, Kondangkel, Bari, Bandra, Kunti, Deogaon (Deogam), Digi, Barda, Simku (Sinku), Buruma:, Kaika, Pingu(a); Sirka, Tubid, Toboga, Karowa, Saunria (Sawaiyan), and Mundri are names of villages in or not too far from the area indicated. This is too much to be a coincidence. The Hos obviously moved into Singhbhum from this area. This also conforms to their traditions. Very likely Hos in the beginning had relatively few kilis. (Even now the Santals have only twelve of which one is lost: the Kharias have only about eight; the Uraons have only about eighteen). Then as they moved down along the ghat into the Singhbhum plain they would often refer to the name of the village from which they had come to help distinguish various groups of the same kilis. E.g., Members of the Bodra kili from Ichagutu village (a very typical village name, therefore most probably the name of a village before being the name of a kili) referred to themselves as Ichagutu Bodra, whereas members of the Bodra kili from village Bandra refer to themselves as Bandra Bodra. In the beginning they are very much aware that they are two branches of the same Bodra kili, that they are “haga” one to another, and that marriages cannot be arranged among them. Slowly however instead of calling themselves Ichagutu Bodra or Bandra Bodra, they say merely Ichagutu or Bandra (Banra). Even then elders are still conscious of the “haga” relationship, but the younger people are not so conscious nor concerned about this, and arrange marriages amongst themselves, and in that way slowly quite distinct kilis have been formed. Even now for almost any kili the older people can still tell the names of the haga kilis.

When I started to observe the above facts, I expected to be able to group the kilis into families perhaps establishing the original kilis (e.g., Purty, which is found throughout the Ho country, could well be an original kili, also perhaps Bodra, Hembrom, and Soy). So far I have not succeeded in doing this. I am beginning to suspect that possibly there could have been two different kilis coming from the same village both calling themselves after the village, e.g., Digi Purty people from village Digi, and Digi Hembrom people from the same or another Digi village (actually for this example there are two Dighi villages (Census 1961, Handbook No. 17, Singhbhum, part II, p. 4, villages No. 4 and No. 47). Taking this into consideration with the help of a little more data, I do think it is quite possible that kili families and proto-kilis will be worked out. This might help us to understand better the link between the Hos and the Mundas, and also perhaps the link between these two groups and Santals. For these reasons I would appreciate any further data which can be fed into the scheme given. If using the data given, anyone can come to conclusions other than or beyond what I have concluded, I would be interested in hearing these.

Ho Grammar by John Deeney, S.J.

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